

BOOK REVIEWS

The Cult of Divine Birth in Ancient Greece. By Marguerite Rogoglioso. Pp. x, 278, New York, Palgrave Macmillan, 2009, £22.50.

Observing that most all of ancient Greece's legendary heroes, along with numerous political and spiritual leaders, were reportedly born from a union of mortal women and gods, Marguerite Rogoglioso makes the case, in *The Cult of Divine Birth in Ancient Greece*, that 'certain specialized priestesses in ancient Greece may have endeavoured to conceive children in various non-ordinary ways as an elevated form of spiritual practice,' and were at least believed to be successful by many (2). This book offers an interpretation of Greek religion as being originally underpinned by a matriarchal social structure and centred upon powerful parthenogenetic rituals – a view that may potentially resolve some of the various typologies and aetiologies of divine beings that is part and parcel of ancient Greek mythology.

Rogoglioso distinguishes between what she calls pure parthenogenetic priestesses, which existed before the Olympian cults and were 'dedicated to attempting conception without the participation of a male in any form whatsoever – either human or divine' (19), and later *hieros gamos* (sacred marriage) priestesses, which became the social and religious norm with the development of patriarchy. Central to the author's argument as to the existence of a divine birth priesthood is the Greek term *parthenos*, commonly translated as 'virgin' but which, Rogoglioso argues – based upon the application of this term to women who have had sexual relations (with either men or gods) and even given birth – actually represents one in 'the state of ritual purity and preparedness thought necessary for a priestess to attempt divine conception' (42). Rogoglioso offers a careful examination of the divine birth cults of three goddesses who bore the title of *parthenos*, beginning with Athena, now identified with an autogenetic mother goddess originally from Africa. The author interprets stories of certain transgressions against the goddess (as with the daughters of Creops) as transgressions against the pure parthenogenetic priestesshood, most often in the form of succumbing to the patriarchal *hieros gamos* relationship. Explicating upon the cult of Artemis, the author proposes that the title of 'nymph' actually represented 'in many cases the

posthumous marker for a historical virgin priestess who had been part of a divine birth cult in her lifetime' (90). Likewise is the cult of Hera replete with such figures, and Rogoglioso interprets Hera's well-known jealousy as a survival of the antipathy initially felt toward those women who abandoned their positions as pure parthenogenetic priestesses. Two subsequent chapters constitute a literary and archaeological excavation on the specific cultic sites of Dodona and Delphi to demonstrate how these originally operated as focal points of this divine birth cult long before the advent of the Olympian pantheon, and how survivals of those traditions remained even in the patriarchal period.

While the interpretation of ancient Greek religion put forward is a fascinating one, and while Rogoglioso certainly manifests a near encyclopedic knowledge of Greek cultic life, she does on occasion threaten to undermine her thesis by references to outdated authorities or questionable traditions. For example, after detailing how the dove served as a parthenogenetic symbol for the Greeks, she adds, 'The ancient connection of the dove with oracular virgins is retained by the Rosicrucians, who claim to be inheritors of the Greek esoteric tradition' (151). Of course, all such secret societies have claimed an ancient and unbroken lineage (satirist Ambrose Bierce wryly commented that the Freemasons were founded during the reign of Charles II only to be 'joined successively by the dead of past centuries'), but unless such a claim has been ratified by scholars, it has no business in this book and serves only to bestow a sensationalist aura upon the subject. Also problematic are her frequent quotations from the work of Johann Jakob Bachofen, a nineteenth-century antiquarian most known for postulating an ancient and universal Goddess religion, and the translations of Egyptian texts carried out by E. A. Wallis Budge. While Bachofen was certainly influential in the development of Goddess spirituality, many modern scholars tend to eschew his methods and conclusions, and though the works of Budge were groundbreaking in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, they have since been superseded by better translations.

The Cult of Divine Birth in Ancient Greece does prove fascinating reading, however, offering an interpretation of Greek religion that, despite occasional overreaching, seems quite plausible, revealing a central story behind so many ancient stories. If Rogoglioso's interpretation proves correct, the

implications extend beyond Greek mythology, which makes this an exciting volume indeed.

Encyclopedia of Arkansas
History & Culture

Guy Lancaster

The Matter of the Gods: Religion and the Roman Empire. By Clifford Ando. Pp. 239, Berkely/London, University of California Press, 2008, \$46.93.

Writing a review of a 2008 book when its author has in the meantime produced a great number of other papers, and indeed books, developing and expanding, like concentric rings, the thoughts all expressed in these collected essays, makes one retrospectively consider this work as the dense stone that, by falling, generated such successive effects. It also means that any opinion on this 'stone' is hardly representative of an opinion on the author and scholar who has since offered much else upon which a more complete and balanced judgement should go by, and indeed has been expressed by many in praiseworthy and appreciative terms in recognition of Ando's capacity for depth of questioning and innovations on the subject.

This said, it is beyond doubt that these essays are not for the uninitiated. Gathered in the present sequence mostly from previously published materials – this fact, acknowledged in footnote at each chapter beginning [2 p. 21, 3 p. 43, 4 p. 59, 7 p. 149], can easily escape attention –, they assume rather than explain a wide range of knowledge of historical characters and sources for a very broad period spanning from the foundation of Rome to the barbarian invasions. Wrestling with notions emerged in recent scholarship concerning the study of Roman religion, Ando does not waste any time explaining facts, but remains struck by the interpretative problems that Roman cults and traditions pose. With equal ease, Ando fast forwards to several works and concepts in St Augustine and, from a more legal point of view, to aspects of the Byzantine Empire which he uses both as a foil for the understanding of the Roman pantheon and as points of criticism for an interpretation of ancient religion that, filtered through the Christian perception and theology, has reached us skewed and diminished by it. All these factors, combined with a complex prose style, result I believe in a difficult book whose overall argument is difficult to perceive and reconstruct for the reader, if not through sudden windows of clarity showing through them important and innovative concepts.

One such central concept is picked out as Ando's 'argument' in the THES, and quoted on the back cover: 'A. argues that the Romans acquired knowledge of the gods through observation of the world and that their rituals were maintained or modified in light of what they learned'. The essence of the 'argument' is found at p. 13, as a culmination of Ando's

discussion of the meaning (or rather the plurality of meanings) of 'religio':

'For what we need urgently to understand is what the Romans had, if not faith. The simple answer is: knowledge. [...] knowing what to do – *scientia colendum deorum*, the knowledge of giving the gods their due – was grounded upon observation'.

This epistemological shift to giving a modern scientific basis for Roman religion orthopraxy I find truly puzzling. In Ando's description, Romans were dealing with reality and with the consequent convenient attitude (i.e. words and actions forming a specific ritual) to adopt towards their divinities as a set of experiments in successful behaviour, whose practical consequences could be measured according to levels of achievement of concrete, expected results. The problem is that this reconstruction of Roman attitudes to life and religion, safely withdrawing from a theological viewpoint, does not take into account the unpredictability that life, which in no way resembles a laboratory, presents to a worshipper thus equipped. The crises to this scientific method *ante litteram*, often presenting themselves to the Roman people and the Roman senate in the form of defeats and mishaps, throw their files into confusion regarding the workable policy of their cults. They fall back, as Ando himself describes, on oracle-telling (a practice itself complicated by the plurality of voices allowed to speak with such authority) and sacrifice, the results of which are all but predictable, and the manners truly contested. I cannot see how this Roman attitude is comparable to Augustine's, who tried to reject the principle of other 'Christian histories that saw God as favouring Christian Emperors merely because they were Christian' (p. 175), and which Ando describes as having 'a like impulse and a similar metaphysics'.

Another topic that recurs throughout the book is the question of the use of sacred images, which, as a Byzantinist, I had specific interest in (cf. p. 21 n. 1 for a nod at the continuity of this question into the Byzantine world). Problems of representation are encapsulated for Ando in the episode of the transfer of the black stone of Cybele from its pilgrimage site in Pessinus to Rome, a translation of a cultic object that

is referred to as the arrival at Rome of the Goddess 'herself'. Moreover, her cult did continue in both locations even after this act had taken place. Ando pragmatically argues that worshipers were perfectly capable of re-duplicating their understanding of the situation by seeing the black stone both as the goddess herself, and not as the goddess (in her entirety or essence, presumably), thus effectively reacting to the reduplication of relics as posing no obstacle to the practice of their cults (see p. 42). Ando's epistemological step here is very interesting in tackling the ontological and theological problem of sacred images in a way that effectively explains their continued use in religious contexts of different times and places.

Another key instance of translation or transfer that interests Ando is that between ancient, pagan Rome and the New Rome established and consecrated by Constantine at Byzantium: the birth of Constantinople. He devotes to this question what seems to me the most interesting and synthetic chapter of the book, by the fascinating title of 'The Palladium and the Penta-teuch'. Here questions of naming, both divinities and the cities over which they need to watch, problems of

meeting between different cultures and languages, the symbolic status of topographical assets for political and religious propaganda, are all brought together by looking at Constantine's new foundation and the ritual actions by means of which he succeeded in establishing it. Burying the Palladium, symbol of ancient Rome, under his pillar and performing rituals that included processions to mark the path between exodus and new entrance quite physically was necessary to seal the emperor's action for posterity, this time emptying ancient Rome of its cultural significance and religious status in an unprecedented manner.

The richness of this book is perhaps in its many stimuli, each followed up by the author in subsequent literature and at the centre of flourishing scholarly networks on Late Roman Religion. The epistemological level as the key for unlocking a new understanding of the ages of transition between the Roman pantheon and the Christian God is here invoked, but not, I think, as yet perfectly attained.

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The Oxford Encyclopedia of Ancient Greece and Rome. Edited by Michael Gagarin. Pp. cxliii, 3,159 (7 vols), Oxford University Press, 2010, £615.00/\$1,045.00.

This is a splendidly produced reference work. The binding and paper seem durable, the maps and illustrations have come out clearly and well, and the typesetting is generous, so that, despite the text occupying two columns per page, the reader never gets an impression of density.

The enormous number of preliminary pages belongs only to vol. 1; the other volumes repeat only the abbreviations and maps. These preliminaries consist of lists (entries, maps, genealogical tables), a preface, an excellent 75-page chronology (fourth millennium BC to AD 590, the election of Gregory I as Pope), and a 'directory' of contributors (all of whom, as one would expect, are leading lights in their fields). Then we get the abbreviations and maps, which are repeated in every volume. The final, seventh volume ends with a 'Topical Outline of Contents' (dividing the contents up into categories such as 'Religion', 'War', 'Literature', and their attendant sub-headings) and a 218-page index. These are all useful and carefully edited supplements to the actual articles; navigation around the encyclopaedia is easy. Further tools are supplied at the end of every article: a short, up-to-date bibliography, and cross-references to other articles within the encyclopaedia.

In the small universe of encyclopaedias of the ancient world, the standard has long been set by 'Pauly-Wissowa', as it is familiarly known: A. Pauly

and G. Wissowa (eds), *Realencyclopädie der Classischen Altertumswissenschaft*. But since this consists of 66 volumes, published between 1894 and 1972 (with subsequent supplementary volumes), it is massively unwieldy and expensive, and the content has by now often been superseded. Hence *Der Kleine Pauly* was published, in five volumes (1964–75), and *Die Neue Pauly* in 2003. In terms of extent and cost, *Der Kleine Pauly* is the only one that compares with this *Oxford Encyclopedia*, but it is of course in German.

For English-speakers, the standard reference word for the ancient world has long been *The Oxford Classical Dictionary*. *OCD*⁴ is now in preparation. At first sight, there is a puzzle here: OUP publish both books, and they are of comparable lengths: *OCD* runs to 1.7 million words, and our *OEAGR* to 1.5 million – fewer words despite its vastly greater length: the current *OCD* is a single volume consisting of 1,640 pages. The key to the difference lies in the next statistic: *OCD* has 6,200 articles; *OEAGR* 1,100 articles. *OEAGR* is not aiming for comprehensiveness; its entries tend to be not compilations of facts, but proper essays, with a bit of interpretation and development. There is room for such a work, then, and every library that can afford it will want to own it.

A glance at a couple of articles will give a flavour of the work. 'Eleusis and the Eleusinian Mysteries' is a masterpiece of compression by Kevin Clinton,

the most important researcher of the subject alive today. In about three pages (with an illustration of the famous tablet from the Archaeological Museum, Athens), he covers the history of the rite and much of what we can know of what went on. 'Deification, Greek' accepts the possibility of divine rulers in the Greek world, even though 'Imperial Cult, Roman' seems to suggest that this originated in Rome. The article on 'Jesus' is longer than most, by James Dunn. Most of the article is a synopsis of his teachings and post-mortem influence, but this is preceded by a satisfactory discussion of the sources and the historicity question. (I note that 'Jesus' is not listed as an entry in the 'Topical Outline of Contents', a bad omission.)

And so on. It's impossible for such a book to please everyone: scholars have their own views to defend,

after all. The article on the Presocratic Parmenides, for instance, pays no attention to Patricia Curd's views, which at the moment seem likely to dominate Parmenidean scholarship, and spends as much time on his influence as on his philosophy; but then the author is an expert on his influence and, to judge by other articles, the authors were asked to address influence as much as interpretation.

No book can be all things to all men. But as a reference book on the ancient world, this is unbeatable. In many instances, it will be the first and only port of call for preliminary research; or it will supplement *OCD* as a more thorough and leisurely account of all the more familiar topics relating to the ancient world.

Lakonia, Greece

Robin Waterfield

A Culture of Freedom: Ancient Greece & The Origins of Europe. By Christian Meier. Pp. xxiv, 320, Oxford University Press, 2011, £18.99.

While the economic linking of Greece and Europe in recent times grows ever more tenuous, few can deny the impact of ancient Greece's rich literary, philosophical, artistic, and political contribution to human, let alone Europe's cultural origins and development. Christian Meier, a prominent German, classical historian, presents an interdisciplinary overview of how and why ancient Greece influenced what the book's subtitle refers to as the 'Origins of Europe'. Lest anyone worry that Meier unduly privileges the impact of Greek civilization without acknowledging how Greek thought was influenced by other ancient cultures (particularly the Persians) or how ancient Greek society was far from establishing any political ideal (as its societies were rife with violence, patriarchy, slavery, and so on), Meier is too careful and trenchant a thinker for such overgeneralizing. Yet, despite these acknowledged influences and flaws, he still wants to contend what is unique about ancient Greece that should be celebrated and acknowledged for its impact on European thought and life. As Meier writes: 'Thus any history of Europe must start with the question how the Greeks came to be, how this exceptional, unusually strong, and broadly influential culture could arise, survive, and flourish, and how it was constituted' (p. 46).

What results is an interdisciplinary and historical overview of a range of fascinating and inter-related topics from Greece's murky foundations up until major developments in the 5th century BCE. The work is thus a unified mélange composed of concise, well-formed layers of ancient Greek history, life, culture, statesmen, philosophers, and artists. Particularly fruitful and enjoyable chapters (which also showcase the transdisciplinary strength of the book)

include: 'The Greeks and the Orient'; 'Homer and Hesiod'; 'Gods and Priests'; 'The Wars'; 'Lyric Poetry, the Symposium, and a Reorientation towards Virtue'; 'The Beginnings of Political Thought: The "Middling Class"'; and 'The Beginnings of Philosophy and Science'.

Was ancient Greece's penchant for individual freedom, a democratic thrust, and support and need for a robust *polis* so unique that Greek culture should be lionized and prioritized as the most important foundational influence on the origin and development of Europe? Whether it is the exclusion of God from the EU constitution or arguments from some Christian circles that Christianity is fundamental to European identity and its mature formation; or Meier's view of ancient Greece's contributions to Europe, any stance or list needs to be nuanced and necessarily diverse. A careful scrutiny of any claimed hegemonic entity also needs to highlight that entity's strengths and weaknesses, along with ceding that such dominant cultures or religions were influenced, constrained, and enlightened by outside factors and voices. One should also admit that obtaining such hegemony is often due less to any perceived will of the gods (or God) than from a medley of ambition, luck, fortuitousness, ruthlessness, and a knack for absorbing earlier ideas and practices.

This is not to say that cultures and religions are void of distinguished attributes or essences. Commenting upon the influence of the Orient upon the Greeks, Meier memorably pens: 'The key was not what was received, but the unique character of the recipients' (p. 73). His comment reminds one of China and its famous absorption and reconstituting of external systems of thought and practice (most

notably Buddhism from the first century CE onwards). Yet, such recognition also highlights how any full picture must be plural and motley rather than a monopoly by any one group, nation, or religion. Such arguable claims, however, need not detract from one's enjoyment of Meier's book, in which one learns (or re-learns) about so many diverse topics of ancient Greece from a scholar whose lifelong work gives him the depth, breadth, and space to synthesize, clarify, and examine a wealth of research and knowledge. As the work is lucidly written (Jefferson Chase translates Meier's 2009 German text and the volume also helpfully includes photos, illustrations, and maps) only adds to its value and readability.

Ultimately, all of us need to be reminded of the great (though morally-checked) legacy that ancient

Greece has bequeathed Europe and the world. We all still need to teach and read our Aristotle and Euripides, for example, but also employ feminist, postcolonial, and subaltern voices to challenge a world that privileged the select (whether human or divine) at the cost of the many – a timeless, universal theme. Such reminders, hopefully, will temper anti-Greek denunciations in certain financial sectors and enliven the non-violent Greek protest movement in their cause to maintain Greek autonomy, while also strengthening the implementation of ancient Greek virtues like wisdom, temperance, and justice.

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The Mystery of the Last Supper: Reconstructing the Final Days of Jesus. By Colin J. Humphreys. Pp. xiii, 244, Cambridge University Press, £14.99.

The NT Guild will bridle restively at this book for Sir Colin Humphreys is not a member; he is indeed a metallurgist at Cambridge University, and there will surely be those who will argue that the cobbler should stick to his last. They should however read this book attentively, and with an open mind. Professor Humphreys is endeavouring to piece together the last few days of Jesus' life, making use of the well-known puzzles that they involve, including the question of what happened on the Wednesday of that week, which looks rather empty. Humphreys' suggestion is that there is far too much going on to fit it all in on Thursday and Friday mornings, so he argues, circumstantially, but I think persuasively, that the Last Supper in fact took place on the Wednesday. Humphreys fits easily into that wider contemporary move of rediscovering historical reliability in the gospel narratives. He is even able to reconcile the apparent discrepancy between the Synoptics and the Fourth Gospel, whereby Matthew, Mark and Luke treat the Last Supper as a Passover meal, while John has Jesus die just as the Passover Lamb is being slaughtered (which is of course symbolically of immense importance to the evangelist). Another major difficulty is that there simply seems to be insufficient time after a Thursday Last Supper for all that has to happen to Jesus before he dies (as all agree) on the Friday afternoon. One by one, Humphreys tackles all these obstacles, and the bigger they are, the harder they fall. All four gospels, he points out, are in agreement on the order of events, and none of them claims that Jesus' trial was illegal (as they seem to be if Mishnaic law was operational in the first half of the 1st century). The great strength of his approach is that i) he uses all available evidence ii) he takes a multi-disciplinary view, going beyond just the

NT narratives, iii) he employs the latest astronomical evidence to construct ancient calendars. This last becomes particularly interesting in chapter 4 when he turns to the contemporary Jewish calendar, although it is mildly confusing to the reader that in this chapter the diagrams about the (all-important) visibility of the moon are printed the wrong way round. Chapter 5 offers a confident dating of the crucifixion, with some very careful argument (although some scholars may feel that he rests too much weight on the date of Paul's encounter with Jesus) to Friday April 3rd, in the year 33. He also makes use of the Synoptic reference to the darkness, and argues, impressively enough, that it was caused, not by an eclipse but by a dust-storm followed by a full moon rising in the obscurity left by the *khamisin*; he argues further that this accounts for the reference in Peter's speech in Acts 2 to the moon being 'blood-red', which is not just a fulfilment of the Joel text that is cited there. There would have been, he suggests, just such a moon visible from Jerusalem on that day, just when people would have been looking for the moon, in order to start their Passover meal, between 6.20pm and 7.11pm. But what day? Humphreys makes two important points. The first is that ancient Israel used a lunar calendar, learnt in Egypt, that went from sunrise to sunrise (not sunset to sunset as in the later calendar), for the month started not with the visible new moon, but with the invisibility of the old one (and the invisibility takes place at sunrise, not sunset). There are one or two unexamined assumptions here, but it also solves a few problems, such as the double dating of Passover in the Pentateuch, to both 14th and 15th of Nisan. The second is that this missing calendar was known and used in Israel in Jesus' time. The Samaritan calendar, for example,

starts the new month of the calendar at the moment of the conjunction of sun and moon (which renders the moon invisible at just that time). This has the consequence that, on average, the Samaritan month starts a day before the Jewish month; and there is some evidence that the same calendar was operative also at Qumran, among the Zealots, and, significantly, in Galilee (although, to be honest, the evidence for that is not especially decisive). Finally, all the evidence is brought together in chapter 11, with the 'hidden clue' in Mark 14:12, which only makes sense, Humphreys argues, if Mark is thinking of a sunrise-to-sunrise day; for on the sunset-to-sunset calendar, the moment when 'they were sacrificing the Passover' cannot be also the 'the first day of Unleavened Bread'. In other words, he argues, Mark is at this point thinking in terms of the pre-Exilic calendar used by the Samaritans, the Zealots, and some Essenes. Secondly, he argues, there is another 'hidden clue' in the shape of the man carrying a water-jar, who must be an Essene; and the Last Supper, so the argument runs, must take place in the Essene Quarter. Thirdly, the fourth gospel speaks of the 'Jewish Passover', hinting at

two different timings for the festival, of which Jesus' version would start at sunrise on Wednesday April 1st in AD 33, and it was on the Wednesday evening, accordingly, that Jesus celebrated the Last Supper. On the basis of this, in the final chapter, Humphreys reconstructs, it has to be said, a detailed and fairly plausible timetable (including a handy reference to the Roman *gallicinium*!). Moreover, the language of Matthew 27:1–2 and Mark 15:1 suggests that there were (as there should have been, according to Mishnaic law), *two* trials starting at day-break, after which the trial before Pilate would have been necessary because the Sanhedrin lacked capital authority. There is a remarkable simplicity (always a good sign) about this solution to the problem, which seems to cope with all the known difficulties. Will it command general assent among scholars? Probably not, for NT readers are as reluctant as the rest of us to have our cherished beliefs upset; but there is a case to answer here.

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Critique and Apologetics: Jews, Christians and Pagans in Antiquity. Edited by David Brakke, Anders-Christian Jacobsen, Jörg Ulrich. Pp. 327, Frankfurt, Peter Lang, 2009, \$109.95.

The essays in this volume are the product of a 2007 conference which grew out of a research project begun by the Theology Faculty at Denmark's Aarhus University in 2004. The project – and the subsequent volume – expands the apologetic genre by including Jewish and traditional Greek and Roman religious apologetic, alongside the more familiar Christian examples. The texts examined range in date from the Second Temple Period to Augustine. Contributors questioned the possibility of defining a literary genre of apologetics and of associating a particular discourse with a particular kind of text.

The collection opens with a reconsideration of the apologetic category by Anders Klostergaard Petersen. If the genre is understood statically, Petersen maintains, then it fails to explain the diversity of texts; a more flexible definition of 'genre', however, allows for broad inclusion of texts distinguished by the intensity of their defence. Petersen concludes with a useful typology of apologetic material. Judith Lieu turns to the social context of apologetic material, challenging the monolithic identities 'Jews, Christians and Pagans', as well as the conflict model assumed in the volume's title. Oda Wischmeyer surveys Greek and Roman critiques of Judaism from the 4th century BC to the 2nd century AD, discovering a variety of motivations behind the texts. Looking at the early Christian apologetics, Anders-Christian Jacobsen focuses

on four types of charges made against Christians by their opponents, on the discursive strategies employed to answer these charges, and on the intended audience of the apologies. Eve-Marie Becker concentrates her attention on the potential conflict between Jews and Christians witnessed in Revelation 2–3; she tries to distinguish between polemical and satirical elements within the text. Barbara Aland considers Gnostic texts in light of Christian apologetic texts, concluding that because of different audiences and theologies the Gnostic texts are not apologetically motivate.

Moving beyond the traditional early Jewish apologetic texts, Friedrich Avemarie searches rabbinic material for evidence of apologetics; rather than polemic, he finds dialogue. Jakob Engberg compares martyr narratives with apologetic literature, two categories which he finds share many of same concerns. In 'Apologetics and Orthodoxy' Jörg Ulrich shows how apologetics creates 'orthodoxy' yet in turn depends on orthodoxy. Addressing the relative absence of information on cultic practices in Christian apologetic literature, Lorenzo Perrone argues that Christians did not wish their worship to be compared to pagan practices. John M. G. Barclay observes the distinction between apologetic texts and texts which include apologetic rhetoric in his exploration of Josephus' *Contra Apionem*, which is

in his view the only fully-apologetic ancient Jewish text. In her contribution Maijastina Kahlos criticizes Lactantius for not discriminating among different types of polytheistic religion in his defence of Christianity; she is also sceptical of contemporary scholars who uncritically accept the assumptions of Lactantius and other Christian apologists. Finally, Karla Pollmann reflects on the apologetic elements in Augustine's *De Civitate Dei* and *Genesi ad Litteram*.

This collection broadens the scope of research for ancient apologetics and challenges assumptions about the genre through the crucial distinction between apologetic as genre and apologetic as method. While many questions are raised in the volume, many more are answered.

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Alden Bass

The Christian Rejection of Animal Sacrifice. By Daniel C. Ullucci. Pp. x, 227, Oxford University Press, 2012, £45.00.

The coincidence of the rise of Christianity with the disappearance of animal sacrifice has attracted increased scholarly attention of late, with works by George Heyman and Maria-Zoe Petropoulou joining the works by older hands. Ullucci engages all these thinkers to advance a powerful case contesting the 'critique' model that would explain this disappearance as the result of interventions in a linear development, starting well before Christianity, in texts by 'elite cultural producers' within the Greek, Hebrew, and Latin traditions, who claimed that the gods did not need anything, let alone the blood of sacrificed animals, and were more pleased by corrections of behaviour and attitude by their devotees. This critique was supposedly extended and completed by early Christian apologists, who replaced animal sacrifice entirely with a pure, 'spiritual' worship, arguing thereby their own superiority. Such a strong defence was necessary, because early on the first thing that was noticed about Christians was that they did not participate in sacrifice to their city's patronal deities, and later in emperor worship. This led naturally to charges of lack of civic consciousness and patriotism, of impiety, and even atheism. They appeared 'inferior' and dangerous, attracting the gods' wrath upon the city, and not 'superior'. Ullucci challenges the evidence for the 'critique' model and eventual 'centrist' Christian view (following St. Paul and Hebrews) of Jesus' death as a once-for-all sacrifice that replaces and renders redundant all previous sacrifices, substituting a scatter-shot pattern of early Christian interventions 'accumulating' into a 'toolbox' that provided materials for when the Christians finally got their story straight.

The strength of the book consists in Ullucci's interventions as a 'cultural producer' himself, explaining anthropologically the phenomenon of animal sacrifice through 'reciprocity' – basically an insurance system, similar to Aristotle's description of a friendship between unequals, whereby a weak or poor individual makes a modest 'gift' to a strong or rich individual. The point is not the gift but the relationship that is set up if the powerful individual accepts

the gift. Both sides 'misrecognize' the true nature of the social process that is going on, whose key points go unmentioned. The relationship's expectations remain deliberately imprecise or unstable; given the vicissitudes of fortune, one or the other might make an unforeseen request upon the other, and the relationship guarantees that the request will be seriously considered. This was the universal security system in pre-modern societies, and animal sacrifice is the projection of this same relationship onto the 'strongest patrons', the gods. Of course, the gods don't 'need' the meat sacrificed, but they are flattered and appeased by the attention, and will do what they can to protect their devotees.

Apart from this, Ullucci seems at times to engage in almost wilful ignorance or cultural amnesia about where animal sacrifice gets its power. Death of any sort is impressive; it is the most serious act we can commit, and in almost all circumstances outside of sacrifice it is a crime. Greek tragedy developed out of the 'he-goat song' about an animal bound for sacrifice. The death of such an animal puts us in mind of a human death, and whether the latter is a random thing or falls within some sense. The wisdom tradition in all cultures teaches that the virtuous are spared misfortune and an early death, while the vicious incur both; but we all know of situations where this appears not to be the case. When the gap between the wisdom ideology and empirical experience becomes too great, the mind rebels and produces an 'anti-wisdom' work in the midst of the wisdom tradition, such as the book of Job. Tragedy itself belongs to this 'anti-wisdom' protest, showing a 'great' person who experiences a reversal of fortune for a negligible offense. It sets the mind thinking, opening up philosophical vistas that less free cultures dare not enter. On such accomplishments the Greeks based their sense of cultural superiority. Ullucci is impervious to such resonances of animal sacrifice, that indeed had their origin in 'reciprocity' but quickly turned upon (or built upon) the security it offered to look over onto the other side.

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Patrick Madigan

The Gnostics: Myth, Ritual, and Diversity in Early Christianity. By David Brakke. Pp. xiii, 164, London/Cambridge MA, Harvard University Press, 2010, £22.95/\$29.95/€27.00.

Brakke's main thesis is that a 'monarchical episcopacy' to oversee all the churches and philosophical study groups, in which intellectuals sought to inculcate belief in the salvific power of the resurrected Jesus with the Gnostic paradigm of an inaccessible, totally transcendent 'Invisible Spirit' who was distinct from but in the Jewish scriptures confused with a lower ignorant, and possibly malicious 'creator god', only emerges in the second or third century. For example, Bishop Victor was the first such bishop in Rome while Bishop Demetrius emerges in Alexandria while Origen was engaging in his speculative efforts for 'advanced' initiates to overcome inconsistencies or conflicting signals in the gospels which were themselves only about a century old. Christians had to accommodate or prepare a defence against the rival Gnostic claim of salvation offered through 'acquaintance' (*gnosis*) – rather than 'faith' – through a messenger sent by the 'Invisible Spirit' into the material realm that the 'higher god' had never intended to exist. The Gnostic myth fit in well with the Christian claim that the 'Old Testament' is best interpreted allegorically, overcoming its embarrassing anthropomorphisms, as prefiguring truths better and more clearly expressed in an emerging 'New Testament'; further, they could patch in Jesus as this messenger who provides 'acquaintance' with the otherwise inaccessible 'Father' at the moment of his crucifixion – itself a testimony to how powerfully demons still control this lower world which will be destroyed at Jesus's Second Coming. Where they had to correct the Gnostic myth was in denying a division between the creator god and an inaccessible 'spiritual god' – insisting that creation only took place 'through the Word' rather than 'by the Word' – and to relocate the

cause of the evil in our world as due to a 'Fall' that occurred through creatures freely turning away from the single spiritual god who created them – thus vindicating (against Marcion) the Jewish scriptures generally and *Genesis* in particular as not misleading or literally incorrect.

Brakke does not really explain where the Gnostics – who he believes existed as a specific group – came from, only the influence they had on such Christian intellectuals as Valentinus and Basilides. He dismisses the widely-held view that Gnosticism arose among distraught and disaffected Jews after the brutal Roman suppression of their revolts in the East, but he could have done more with what we now know about how suppressed, persecuted, or excluded groups, who are locked within a culture with no escape and who see no other way to gain access into or achieve upward social mobility within a dominant culture, begin to use language in a reverse way, *not* to communicate but on the contrary to block or exclude those they perceive to be excluding *them*. They create an 'alternative superiority', turning their exclusion to an advantage, here elaborating a confusing pleroma or 'entirety' involving a multiplicity of 'aeons', lower gods, and spirits, and a claim at the centre to a special, salvific 'acquaintance' that compensates for and reverses in vengeful fashion the exclusion, the denial of status or worth they are experiencing from the dominant group. The marked ethnic or racial character of this group's self-identification suggests, if not disaffected Jews, a pre-Islamic tribe of Arabs that knew the teachings of Judaism and Christianity but felt put off or rebuffed in their attempts to join.

Heythrop College

Patrick Madigan

Theodore's People: Social Networks and Religious Conflict in Late Roman Syria. By Adam M. Schor. Pp. xv, 342, Berkeley, University of California Press, 2011, £34.95.

Schor has developed an intriguing thesis to explain a phenomenon that has puzzled theologians and historians who have studied the uncharitable and acrimonious behaviour of bishops who accepted the conclusion of the Council of Nicea (325) on the equality of the 'Son' or 'God the Word' with the 'Father', when they later came to discuss the thorny problem of the relation of divinity and humanity in Jesus. 'Egyptians' under Cyril and 'Syrians' under Theodoret began and remained rival camps of 'Alexandrines' and 'Antiochenes' who mutually excommunicated one another and were never really reconciled by the decision of the Council of Calcedon (451), eventually falling into three independent Churches.

Availing himself of the contemporary social-scientific approach to interpreting the significance of religious statements, Schor casts his net wider to encompass the two experiences of 'patronage' (Cyril) and 'mediation' (Theodoret), which became root metaphors and the basis for an entire self-sustaining and self-reinforcing community structure, so as eventually to seem self-evident and 'common sense', with an unfolding of security, friendship, and 'success' – in short, 'resonance' at all levels of personal and collective experience – metaphors which they then dragged from the sociological to the theological level to explain the 'salvation' Christ wins for us, and which they had experienced according to these distinctive

patterns. This would explain the 'certainty' of the rival groups and the reason they were so peculiarly wedded to their own wording and emphasis in parsing the Christological structure.

Of course, there were logical considerations that also came to the fore. Theodoret was excessively committed to the Greek notion that God must by nature be immutable (and thus impassible). He correctly saw that there must be 'two natures' in Christ, to explain how the 'mediation' Christ achieves could re-connect the human and the divine, but he insisted that these natures are incompatible and must therefore be 'unmixed' or 'unconfounded'; he consequently had difficulty accounting for the unity in Jesus or how he could act as a single subject. This position led to Nestorius' claim that Mary was the 'Mother of Christ', but not the 'Mother of God' (*Theotokos*). For Cyril God was a single active force who, in the Word, lowered himself to undergo incarnation, suffering, and resurrection; the union of natures signified a real sharing of attributes (*idiomatōn*), such that God was able to make contact with humanity; this better defends Jesus as a unified subject. Schor is correct, however, in proposing that the intensity of the oppo-

sition indicates that a difference of individual and social identities, built upon a single-focus or a multi-focus emphasis or root metaphor, was likely in play.

Ironically Schor uncovers a 'resonance' in Theodoret's formation and experience as bishop of Antioch that should have made him more flexible and open in this situation. Trained in the sophistic school of Libanius, he imbibed a Greek pride in 'exactness' (*acribia*), but in his ministry as pastor and 'mediator' came to see the advantage of charitably accepting sometimes a more 'ambiguous' formulation that was, however, acceptable and indeed transforming for the fragile, wounded, and less-well-educated Christians who were in his care. His goal, after all, was to help them pastorally, not necessarily to educate them to appreciate the fine points and skilful dissection his distinctions allowed. Had Theodoret been able to bring such humility and the resulting spirit of compromise to his dealings with his fellow bishops – notably the 'Cyrillians' – perhaps the later ecclesiological division could have been avoided.

Heythrop College

Patrick Madigan

The Case Against Diodore and Theodore: Texts and their Contexts (Oxford Early Christian Texts). By John Behr. Pp. xix, 526, Oxford, Oxford University Press, 2011, £140/\$265.

Dean and Professor of Patristics at St. Vladimir's Seminary in New York, John Behr has here introduced, collected, edited and translated essential documents for those interested in the controversy surrounding Diodore and Theodore. Behr's deft handling of the manuscript tradition and text critical work is evident throughout as he traces the reception history of 'all the extracts from the writings of Diodore and Theodore as cited by their opponents and supporters, in their historical order, from the death of Theodore to his condemnation at the Council of Constantinople in 553' (vii–viii). Behr's compilation is the first comprehensive collection of these Diodoran and Theodoran extracts.

Behr begins by establishing a theological backdrop for understanding the development of early thinking on the identity of Christ. After examining the views held by Eunomius, Marcellus and Apollinarius, he traces what he considers the 'traditional perspective' (27) through Gregory Nyssen, Ignatius, Hippolytus, Origen, Athanasius, and Gregory Nazianzen. Behr admits his account is 'different,' showing that traditionally, the passion was seen to reveal Christ's divine identity (28). Behr argues that for Diodore and Theodore, however, Christ's identity was revealed in the 'human *historia* of Christ' (44). Behr explains this difference by underscoring their distinguishing the

historia of the Old Testament from that of the New, but strains to explain the reasoning behind this distinction.

In chapter two, Behr treats Diodore's and Theodore's relation to the 'strife-ridden city of Antioch' (47), presenting an account of the ecclesiastical politics in which they were embroiled. Behr's narration of the fourth and fifth century controversies continues the nuanced approach of Lewis Ayres' *Nicaea and Its Legacy* (2004) and Behr's earlier work, *The Nicene Faith* (2004), by navigating the diverse theological camps of the period. Behr explores the influences of Diodore's and Theodore's distinct theological approach that identifies the revelation of God in Christ in 'the birth of the man Jesus,' rather than 'through the crux of the passion' (82).

Behr traces the development of 'The Campaign Against Diodore and Theodore' in the third chapter. First, he explores the ecclesiastical tensions Diodore experienced with Apollinarius and Gregory Nazianzen. Next, he examines the fallout from Ephesus and the decisive role played by Rabbula of Edessa in catalyzing the controversy against Theodore. Through figures such as Proclus, John of Antioch, and Cyril of Alexandria, Behr shows how Diodore and Theodore came to be associated with Nestorius' teachings but were not officially condemned until

later. In the wake of Chalcedon, Diodore and Theodore 'fell into the shadows for the remainder of the fifth century' (100), but in the sixth century they re-emerged largely due to the theological preoccupation of Justinian. Justinian's effort towards reconciliation with the miaphysites culminated in the condemnation of Origenism (543) and 'The Three Chapters' (544/5). Behr shows how Leontius' early attempt to unmask 'Nestorianism' in his opponents, Cyril of Scythopolis' *Life of Saint Sabas*, and the strategic resistance to Justinian employed by Pope Vigilius influenced the nature of the official condemnation on the Three Chapters. Theodore was officially condemned, but Diodore was nowhere mentioned due to the focused attention on the Three Chapters (127). Another century would pass until Diodore's name would be included alongside Theodore and Nestorius as condemned figures, in canon eighteen of the Lateran Council of 649.

In the fourth chapter (Part II), Behr convincingly argues against Marcel Richard's conjecture that the source of the excerpts in the polemic is a twofold florilegium compiled by the Apollinarians and subsequently used by Cyril. Instead, Behr posits that Cyril of Alexandria was the original compiler of the common threefold florilegium, which he used in his refutation of Diodore (*Against Diodore*), Theodore (*Against Theodore*, in two books), and Nestorius (*Against Nestorius*, in five tomes). The importance of this demonstration is that the reception history of

these extracts in the *Blasphemies*, Timothy Aelurus, Leontius of Byzantium, and the emperor Justinian can all be traced to the work of Cyril, rather than the 'bitter enemies' (156) of Diodore and Theodore who, according to M. Richard, had tampered with the extracts while compiling them.

In chapters five, six and seven, Behr presents the original texts employed in the controversy and preserved in the writings of various fifth and sixth-century figures, the *Collectio Palatina*, the Council of Constantinople (553) and Pope Vigilius. After briefly introducing each block of extracts, Behr presents the edited excerpts in their original languages (Syriac, Armenian, East Syriac, Latin, and Greek), with scant notation and an English translation on the adjoining page. The appendix provides a short introduction followed by the fragmentary remains of Theodore's most controversial and 'important dogmatic treatise' (432), *On the Incarnation*, from a Syriac translation (*Cod. Add.* 14669).

Though Behr does not overturn the current scholarly view of the controversy, he clears the way for a sharper vision of the controversy's constitutive texts and their contexts. This rigorous piece of scholarship not only illuminates the sources employed in the polemic against Diodore and Theodore, but also provides a handy compendium of their extracts, ripe for further analysis.

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Benjamin D. Wayman

Ephrem, a 'Jewish' Sage: A Comparison of the Exegetical Writings of St. Ephrem the Syrian and Jewish Traditions. By Elena Narinskaya. Pp. xix, 357, Turnhout, Belgium, Brepols, 2010, \$94.00.

Based on her Ph.D thesis at Durham University, Naranskaya here explores the evangelical and rhetorical strategies employed by St. Ephrem the Syrian in his hymns and poems, but especially in his commentaries on the Book of Exodus. Ephrem was born in Nisibis in 306 and died in Edessa in 373; what is intriguing about Syriac Christianity is that it developed alongside a nascent rabbinic Judaism that was outside the assimilative, 'modernizing' or streamlining tendencies imposed by Alexander's goal of an *oecumené* through Hellenistic culture. Both Jews and Christians spoke Aramaic; the Jews, recovering from the loss of the Temple and military defeat by the Romans, were numerous, economically established, and comparatively self-confident in their new temple-less rabbinic transfiguration. Further, the Jews controlled most of the canon (Syrian Christianity depended for quite some time on Tatian's *Diatessaron*, a harmonization of the gospels); Christians depended on Judaism for their scriptural texts, and were hard-pressed to carve out a distinctive and sat-

isfying identity for themselves against their more prestigious and intimidating older brothers. Many Jews came over to Christianity, but they also saw no reason why they should have to give up being Jews. The synagogue had tradition, family, business contacts which had to be maintained, and older and more beautiful liturgies, of which many of the Christian rites were adaptations. In this exclusively Semitic zone, with no pressure to adapt to an overarching imperial Hellenistic culture, the phrase 'Judaizing Christian' seems almost a redundancy. Christianity had emerged from Judaism, contextualized obedience to the Law under acceptance of Jesus as the messiah, and admitted gentiles, many of whom, apart from the requirement of circumcision and the burden of full observance of the Law, might well have gone on to become Jews. Christianity was in danger of being sucked back as a 'sect' of Judaism; for numeric, historical, cultural, and economic reasons, Judaism was the dominant partner in this relationship.

It is thus no surprise that we see Ephrem absorbing and ratifying, indeed celebrating, through study of the Hebrew texts and exposure to the oral traditions then coming together as the *Midrashim* and the *Targumim*, the rabbis' own account of the relation between God and Israel, from the promise made to Abraham down to its fulfilment through Moses as the messiah who leads the Jews out of slavery in Egypt into the Promised Land. The only difference is that Ephrem inserts Jesus as present from the beginning in all previous 'revelations', and pre-eminently in Moses who stretches out his hands to bring victory to Israel – adopting thereby the sign of the cross. Through a misuse of their freedom, however, since their disobedience on Mount Sinai the Jews have turned aside from God's revelation, a consequence of which is their downward political history as divine punishment. Actually, many of the rabbis would not have quibbled with this latter view, so that Ephrem's rheto-

ric ran the risk of being 'too successful'; the rabbis would in principle accept Jews who held Jesus to be the messiah, so long as they did not also hold that Jesus *replaced* circumcision and the Law; in other words, proselytes would have to become or remain observant Jews. We see here an under-appreciated sociological or cultural pressure that pushed Christianity to declare the full divinity of Jesus, his equality with the Father, at the first ecumenical council. The foundational doctrine of Judaism is the unbridgeable transcendence of God above creation; the rabbis could only accept a subordinationist or Arian form of Christianity. Declaring Jesus to be fully divine or equal to the Father meant that Christians would no longer be welcome at the synagogue. A separate identity was assured.

Heythrop Journal

Patrick Madigan

'We Have No King But Christ': Christian Political Thought in Greater Syria on the Eve of the Arab Conquest (c. 400–585). By Philip Wood. Pp. xi, 295, Oxford University Press, 2010, \$101.14.

This is a treat for those puzzled about how and why the Arabs could suddenly unite around Mohammed early in the 7th century, turn upon and sweep over the Eastern Roman Empire, take Constantinople, and nearly conquer the West as well. Mohammed did not fall from the skies, and Islam had precedents in the form of heterodox variants of prestigious imperial Christianity serving as a catalyst for the dispersed, despised, and marginalized peoples living as raiders and slavers between the two great Roman and Persian empires, for forging (or inventing) a collective self-identity, reversing an inbred sense of social inferiority into an opposite sense of true orthodoxy and superiority, and finding therein the power to unite and rival militarily the legions of the envied but also resented centre of civilization that also used religion to control, domesticate, and exploit these frontier people, absorbing them as colonies and sacrificing them as fodder for its own expansionist policies. Miaphysitism – a more accurate term than 'monophysitism' – was the anti-Calcedonian doctrine that Jesus had a single nature, not a potentially schizoid dual personality that Greek orthodoxy strapped itself to, then having to worry about such things as how his 'divine' and 'human' wills always worked as one, since both were free. Miaphysitism was free of such concerns, and the non-Greek speaking (and hence socially excluded from the ever more overheated and self-regarding Constantinople) Syriac-speaking bishops and ascetics of Greater Syria and Mesopotamia found in this variant a more, rather than less, 'orthodox' expression of what they now

discovered or imagined to be their 'ancestral' faith, brought to them directly by an apostle from Jesus, rather than by a superior and perfumed missionary from the imperial court. Hence the title of this work; their 'king' is Christ, not the emperor. They could build a mirror-image, but also a rival version, of the social-political-ecclesiastical hierarchy where they never felt fully accepted, and reverse their status from the lowest to the highest; they were an 'orthodoxy-in-waiting' for when the emperor would, in a projected apocalyptic finale to world history, see the light and convert to the authentic miaphysite interpretation of Christianity as the basis for his absolute claims and universal mandate. This worked (and still works) to create an independent Syriac-speaking 'Church of the East' that initially enjoyed more prosperity under the Arabs than under the Romans (because the Arabs were chafing under the same love-hate relationship involving envy but also a bitter sense of exclusion), but in a second ripple performed the same miracle for the Arabic-speaking population as it had for the Syriac-speaking clans; under the Ghassanids the desert nomads were able to taste what would be possible for them if they aped their imperial masters and united around a superior 'orthodoxy'. The tables would be turned. They could have their cake and eat it too; they could learn from and imitate their master, and defeat him at his own game.

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Muhammad: a Very Short Introduction. By Jonathan A. C. Brown. Pp. xviii, 140. Oxford University Press, 2011, \$6.24.

Brown divides his work into three chapters. The first gives the 'sacred history' or official account of the life of Muhammad as a synopsis of the *Sira*. The second gives the results of modern Western attempts to uncover how the *Sira* arose. The third chronicles the hyperbolic expansion of the person of Muhammad during the Islamic Middle Ages from being an illiterate and very human vehicle for an uncorrupted reception of the single pure revelation, into a semi-divine being and the perfect human being, combining the two essential virtues for a tribal leader of military courage and calmness in arbitrating disputes, the highest created reflection of the divine unity, and the *telos* of the cosmos. Although he provides all the data and reviews Western attempts to account for the astounding response to Muhammad's preaching and its resultant success at unifying the tribes and sweeping militarily across the Middle East, Brown is reluctant to tap the anthropological, psychological, and sociological resources available through the contemporary 'social scientific' approach to scriptures. As a consequence it's as if he is presenting with one arm tied behind his back. He pulls his punches and fails to connect all the dots. His account seems strangely lame and weak, almost deliberately self-hindered. Who is he afraid of offending?

The first point to make is that the nomadic Arabs traditionally had a low self-image, in this case having internalized the view the 'Other' had of them. The Arabian peninsula is one of the driest, least hospitable places on earth; date palms are the only 'crop' that will grow around the occasional oasis. Nobody else wants to live there, and the people who do live there are looked down upon. The second is related: they never felt invited or welcomed to join the '*oecumenē*' or one world Alexander the Great was founding from his military conquests; he never bothered conquering them, for they had no cities. On the contrary, the Arabs felt excluded and held in contempt by both the Byzantine and Persian empires that grew in his wake. At the same time they copied and imitated the greater civilizations to their north by having versions of the Jewish 'Temple' (the Kaba) to which there were annual pilgrimages even in pre-Islamic times, as well

as soothsayers and holy men on the pattern of the Jewish prophets and Christian and Zoroastrian saints who dominated their oral lore and which complemented their poetry celebrating tribal heroes and making fun of rival clans with which there was regular on-going feuding for the scarce resources. There is a recurring low self-image even in the Koran (they begin biologically as a 'bloody clot', a more demeaning description than in other scriptures), a shame in their apparently constant temptation to polytheism (and related tribalistic rivalry), the consequent disunity with which they compound their already marginal geographical and derivative cultural condition, a consequent need for craftiness in dealing with one another and a willingness to be harsher with their fellow Arabs in military victory, as if again internalizing and confirming the 'Other's' view of themselves such that they need not show the same respect as towards Greeks or Persians.

This background provides the explanation for the 'psychology of reversal' with the exhilarating revelation relayed by Muhammad. He becomes their new champion or hero, making a single tribe out of all Arabs by identifying and banishing the polytheism that had caused their disunity. They are no longer rejected by God, as they had been rejected by men. Through God's compassion to his least worthy people, he has shown through the 'warning' of his new and final prophet how to cross the line and become his 'righteous servants' so as to appear as worthy persons on the day of judgment. Both individually and collectively Muhammad's 'revelation' led the Arabs to 'touch bottom', confront the cause of their misery, experience an unprecedented release from fear, from cultural-theological insecurity, and a reversal of a sense of inferiority into its opposite. But this culturally-induced 'high' could brook no contradiction or even critical examination by non-believers. Once having tasted the elixir of this uniquely addictive drug, they would never again suffer being deprived of it.

Heythrop College

Patrick Madigan

Shiism and Politics in the Middle East. By Laurence Louër. Translated by John King. Pp. xii, 154, London, Hurst & Company, 2012, £29.99.

This book looks at contemporary Shiite politics in the Middle East, concentrating on Shia called 'Twelvers' and omitting a consideration of such minority movements as the Druze, the Alamites, Zaidism, and Ismailism. The Twelver Shias argue that Muhammad

insisted that his successors be related to Ali, his cousin, and the husband of his daughter, Fatima. They believe that there are twelve Imams, calling the twelfth Imam, the *mahdi*, who did not die a normal death but was occulted by divine intervention from

this earth and will return at the end of time. As opposed to the Sunni Muslims who do not believe in a mediator between God and humanity, the Shia see the need for professional clergy, particularly since the occultation of the twelfth Imam in the ninth century. The *ulama* or religious scholars came to represent the missing Imam and since they are trained in quranic exegesis, they are able to construct new religious doctrines to meet the needs of their particular era. Whereas some experts feel that Iran's foreign policy has enormous influence on Shiite politics in the Middle East, the author, one of the leading experts on Shiite politics in the Middle East, questions that view. Instead, Louër astutely observes that regional political factors account for the direction of Shiite politics in states such as Lebanon, Bahrain, Syria, and Iraq. This book consists of four chapters, a bibliography, and a very helpful glossary of key terms in their Arabic rather than in their Persian form.

Chapter One gives us a historical overview of the role of the clergy in Iran and Iraq. For centuries the religious scholars or *ulema* possessed mainly spiritual power up until the time of Ruhollah Khomeini who in 1970 came up with the revolutionary notion of *wilayat al-faqih*, which stated that the clergy have the power and right to govern the state. The supreme religious authority also possesses *marja'iyya*, the 'Source of Emulation' or supreme religious authority in doctrinal matters. Today, candidates for *marja'iyya* status are usually in their seventies and in-fighting often erupts over who deserves the status of *marja*. Regardless of the country involved, all Shia Islamic movements derive from the efforts of lay activists', dubbed '*effendi*' and who do not allow clerics to make political decisions, and have antipathy particularly for clerics who wield political power at the highest level.

The second chapter deals with the complex issue of transnational networks. Over time religious authority became centralized in Najaf so that seminarians who desired to attain a prominent social role in Shiism took courses at the seminaries in Najaf. Hence many key players in Shia Islamic movements received their seminary training at Najaf in the 1960s and 1970s. The *ulama* regarded the al-Da'wa movement as mainly a preaching movement whose end-goal was to take Islam beyond the borders of Iraq to Lebanon and the Gulf states. In this way al-Da'wa morphed into a transnational movement with Islam functioning as a catalyst, bringing political action to the next level. Then the author reflects on the Shirazists, a transnational movement founded by Hasan al-Shirazi in Syria and Lebanon which movement then became a political factor in Kuwait, Saudi Arabia, North America, Oceania, Central Asia, East Africa, and Europe. Both the al-Da'wa and the Shirazists movements caught on because of transnational family ties

which were key to the circulation of political and religious ideas.

Chapter Three focuses on the Islamic Republic of Iran. The revolutionary initiative in Iran under Ruhollah Khomeini spread to other countries in the Middle East via the personal networks put in place by the al-Da'wa and Shirazists movements. What happened is this: the Iranian revolution became the point of departure for the fight against regimes that oppressed Shia in Bahrain, Iraq, Lebanon, and Saudi Arabia. Lebanon itself may be regarded as a special case. Why so? The foreign policy of the Iranian government itself, not the Shirazist movement, helped establish the Hezbollah in Lebanon as a transnational movement. The final chapter looks at the post-Saddam era, in which Iran's foreign policy has become more pragmatic. No longer did Iran aim to export its political system. Instead, alliances were formed based not on ideological considerations but on tactical ones. For example, Iran established its presence among Shia in Iraq despite the Iraqi Shia organization. In May 2007 the Supreme Islamic Iraqi Council (SIIC) placed itself under the religious authority of Ali al-Sistani saying, in effect, that al-Sistani was a more important dignitary than the *marja'iyya* of Iran's Ali-Khamenei. This was a snub to Ali-Khamenei since it meant that the Shia world would now follow the *maraj* of al-Sistani. From this point on the Shia movement in Iraq has become domestic in its thinking. The author then speaks to the conflict between Sunnis and Shia in Bahrain, the reasons why the Shia supported the monarchy in Saudi Arabia, and the situation in Lebanon vis-à-vis the Hezbollah.

In conclusion, the author argues that domestic and regional issues motivate the various Shia movements today, distancing themselves from religious authorities, and asserting their autonomy over against Iran, Iraq, and the institution known as the *marja'iyya*. Correspondingly, the assertion of autonomy *also* involves a decisive shift toward secularization, implying that religion no longer functions as the organizing principle of society. Another element driving the process of secularization concerns the widening of the gap between the *ulema* and the *effendi*. The author of this book has a profound and detailed knowledge of Shiism and politics in the Middle East. This book will only cement her international reputation as an extremely competent and astute commentator on the political situation in regard to Shiism in the Middle East. John King's translation from the French edition is superb. The publishers are to be congratulated for translating this book into English.

Auburn University, Alabama Richard Penaskovic

Apocalypse in Islam. By Jean-Pierre Filiu. Translated by M. B. DeBevoise. Pp. xv, 260, Berkeley/London, University of California Press, 2011, £15.99.

This book is unlikely to become a staple in Muslim-Christian ecumenical dialogue. It should, however. There is one 'sacrament' is Islam, and that is the final Judgment. This will bring about the vindication and ultimate victory of Islam over those who have resisted the preaching of the prophet, indeed those who have persecuted those who have submitted ('Islam' means 'submission') to the word of the 'seal of the prophets' as contained in the work put together two centuries after his death, the Qur'an – just as Muhammad was initially rejected by the commercial elite in Mecca but ultimately attained military victory and conversion from those who ridiculed his claims to have received a new – both superseding and final – revelation. Those who want to get past the old *canard* that the Qur'an is an imitation and pastiche of Jewish and Christian scriptures, expansions and midrash of easily recognizable episodes from earlier texts which it does not claim to 'fulfil' (as the Christian gospel does) but exaggerates in order to claim superiority, to overtake in an evident spirit of ideological rivalry and triumphant reversal, exploiting while pandering to an endemic Arab inferiority complex and massive Nietzschean *résentiment* that requires a fantasy world-wide eschatological victory before the final Judgment – will find little support or consolation here. Muhammad imitated and 'trumped' the Jews who would not accept him as the Messiah by making his God even more transcendent than theirs and imposing a 'Law' that was more rigorous and distinguishing than theirs. He derived his Christology from a schismatic Nestorian monk and 'trumped' the Christians by relegating Jesus to a John-the-Baptist role as his precursor while borrowing and exaggerating distinctive Christian practices.

Like the Christian book of Revelation, Islam developed an apocalyptic narrative in which 'signs of the Hour' count the beats to the final Judgment. There will be a decay in the Muslim faith and a distortion of Muslim values, as has been brought about through modern technologies and the global forms of communication. Such attacks and defeats are really 'good', however, because they will provoke the appearance of the 'Mahdi', a descendant of the Prophet or, for the Shi'a, the last 'Imam' hidden in occultation, who will do battle with the heathen at the head of the armies of Islam. Jesus will come down to earth in Damascus to combat the Antichrist, who will be followed by 'Mog and Magog', and then finally the 'Beast' – identified with Israel or the Jewish people, whose defeat after terrible worldwide suffering will usher in resurrection and Judgment.

This traditional scheme has been the object of intense scrutiny and elaboration over the past twenty years due to events that appear threatening or embarrassing to Islam, and which thus pressure a de-crypting of the initial 'signs' to this apparently unavoidable sequence. The conclusion is that the 'end' is closer than we think – and a rich crop of apocalyptic literature providing a 'key' for reading the 'signs of the times' has appeared throughout the Islamic world, with each writer spreading his net wider and neutralizing recalcitrant data with an ever more far-fetched conspiracy theory. The extent to which this preoccupation has commandeered the way news events are reported and interpreted, and even the way political decisions are made in the Near East, is astonishing and under-appreciated by the West. This process has spawned a generation of unscrupulous and inventive exploiters enflaming fanatical recruits with a message that offers them a way of fusing the confusion and misery of their personal lives with a wider explanatory cause that promises to transmute their humiliation, desperation and despair into the solace of having sacrificed themselves in order to destroy a diabolical enemy and thereby bring history to its assured culmination of world-wide Muslim salvation. This message has gained in social prestige and intellectual respectability, and is exerting powerful new pressure on intellectual life in the Middle East. As Filiu writes: 'With perceived imminence of the end of times, hatreds have been rendered inexpiable and compromise inconceivable. The absolute violence and appalling cruelty of Islamist apocalyptic fictions are sustained by the prospect not only of more and larger massacres, but also of genocide. The disappearance of the Jewish people, either by conversion or extermination, is celebrated in advance, and with a fervour that is more commonly associated with eulogists of ethnic cleansing than with doctors of religious law.' (p. xiii) To have a worthwhile religious dialogue, one must first of all be brutally honest about one's own traditions and motivations, reigning in clear eruptions of resentful vengeance and vicarious compensation, castigating them as the pathetic substitutes for real achievement they are. Ideology must not be allowed to trump or distort truth; rather, 'you shall know the truth, and the truth will make you free.'

Heythrop College

Patrick Madigan

After The Sheiks: The Coming Collapse of the Gulf Monarchies. By Christopher M. Davidson. Pp. xiii, 298, London, Hurst & Company, 2012, £29.99.

This study focuses on the Gulf monarchies of the Arabian Peninsula, such as Saudi Arabia, Bahrain, Oman, Kuwait, Qatar, and the United Arab Emirates. In the teeth of the Arab Spring these countries have remained stable monarchies despite the violence and unrest in recent years. The author argues that the pressures below the surface in the Arab republics are now present in the Gulf States and that the unrest in Egypt, Libya, and Syria will serve as a catalyst for the demise of the Gulf monarchies in the next two to five years. Davidson bases his forecast on an array of empirical data and on recent studies such as Beblawi's research on the 'rentier state.' In a rentier state the government doles out to its citizens public sector jobs, services, free housing, money, and other government subsidies, thus buying political acquiescence. In the Gulf States expatriate workers do most of the work, while the indigenous population depends on the rent derived from hydrocarbon exports such as oil and gas. However, the life of the citizens or nationals may not be so rosy once the various governments/monarchies in the Gulf States run out of money from the exportation of oil and gas, as has happened in Dubai. All of the Gulf monarchies utilize the *kafala* or sponsorship system, in which unskilled workers are sponsored by their employers who assume responsibility for their legal status and their visas. This system has many flaws inasmuch as an unscrupulous employer can force domestic workers to work against their will, thus preventing them from returning to their country of origin.

Chapter One outlines the history of the Gulf States and their economic development with a focus on the discovery of oil and its ramifications. Chapter Two deals with domestic factors that help us understand how the Gulf monarchies survive, for example, the exploitation and co-opting of religion, which varies in each of the Gulf monarchies, depending on their particular situation. Davidson notes that loyal clerics have used quranic verses to legitimize absolute, political power. This should come as no surprise in states where clerics are well-paid, government employees, whose sermons are chosen from an official list of approved topics. Also, there exists a bifurcation or great divide between citizens or nationals and expatriates. Practically any and all citizens can readily assume a relatively high social standing by reason of their passports or identity papers. As a rule national women must marry national men, although men may marry whomever they wish. Women who marry foreigners are ostracized by their own families. Moreover, a strict dress code is operative in the Gulf States. In the wealthiest Gulf States like Qatar, women who are nationals wear black *abaya*; men wear a white *thobe*, thus distinguishing themselves from expatri-

ates, who in Saudi Arabia constitute one-quarter of the entire population. However, the younger set sport Western style attire during their leisure time.

Chapter Three considers several strategies used to improve the status of the Gulf monarchies, both regionally and internationally. The Gulf monarchies have curried favor with Western powers that can guarantee their security, joined organizations such as the Arab league, and have lavished development aid on Arab countries in North Africa, in the Middle East, (Lebanon, the Palestinians), in Africa (Somalia, the Sudan, Kenya) in Asia (Afghanistan, Pakistan), as well as in the Balkans. Additionally, the Gulf monarchies have invested heavily in the U.K. (buying Harrods department store, financing the London Shard, the tallest skyscraper in Europe) and the Chrysler building in New York City. They have supported art galleries, museums, forging partnerships and branch campuses with top-notch universities such as the Sorbonne in Paris, Oxford, and Georgetown. Chapter Four details the various challenges and internal pressures facing the Gulf monarchies: an increasingly large indigenous population most of whom are under the age of twenty-one, declining oil and gas reserves, a need for more domestic energy, high unemployment, the accumulation of vast wealth by the ruling families, repressive forms of censorship, the ongoing cost of development aid, the financing of showcase projects, the squandering of national resources, and the discrimination against minorities such as the Shia and *bidoon* or people without a nationality.

Chapter Five points out the external pressures facing the Gulf monarchies such as: the isolation of Iran achieved by strengthening ties with Israel, in part, to appease the United States, and the attempt to make tourists and investors feel welcome in the Gulf States at the expense of Islamic values and traditions. The author notes that in some Gulf States during the month of Ramadan, alcohol can be consumed and food may be eaten during the day. Also, prostitution is on the rise in some areas and the accoutrements of Christmas are displayed, e.g., Christmas trees decorate the shopping malls in December. Moreover, the Gulf monarchies have hosted foreign military bases, and, equally disturbing, is the amount of money expended in purchasing military hardware from the West. Another symptom of concern is the rivalry and tension that continues to exist among the various Gulf countries. This does not augur well for the future. In Chapter Six the author notes that the Arab Spring in Syria, Egypt, Libya, Yemen, and Tunisia have made it increasingly difficult for the Gulf monarchies to paint opposition movements as a bunch of radicals and terrorists. In this way the Gulf monarchies have

re-invented themselves as a healthy alternative to the various opposition groups that have sprung up in the last few years. In Saudi Arabia itself cracks in the system are now surfacing, e.g., the wealth gap between rich and poor, high youth unemployment, poverty, and the great divide between Sunni and Shia Muslims. Finally, the attempt to limit dissent and freedom of expression in the Gulf monarchies is impossible with the advent of social media like Twitter and Facebook, cell phones, and the Internet.

This book is worth its weight in gold and what Davidson portends has, in fact, already partially happened. During 2012 the President of Yemen, Ali Abdullah Saleh, has stepped down when a national referendum elected Abed Rabbo Mansour Hadi as the

new President. In 2011 the crown prince of Abu Dhabi found government jobs for 6,000 Emiratis who were without work. Sheikh Muhammad bin Zayed did this in order to quell public social unrest. Unfortunately, this is a band-aid approach and will not encourage long-term economic development. I agree with Davidson's thesis. The winds of change will only increase exponentially in the Gulf monarchies, unless the ruling families take this book to heart and put into practice the lessons learned. Do not hold your breath that this will occur. Power corrupts and absolute power corrupts absolutely, as Lord Acton noted many years ago.

Auburn University, Alabama Richard Penaskovic

Cyprian and Roman Carthage. By Allen Brent. Pp. xv, 329, Cambridge University Press, 2010, \$91.53.

Cyprian's story plays in a time of imperial crisis. When Decius Trajan became emperor in 249, he intended to justify his victory over Philip I not simply as *pax*, but as *pax deorum* that would secure peace in nature and throughout society. The pagan cult and pagan gods reflected 'sacramentally' on the historical process of recovery. The power of the official religion of the Roman state would deliver nature and society from metaphysical chaos, and divine and rational order would be increased to its full potentiality. A golden age *saeculum nouum* would result. Imperial greatness would be recovered by means of imperial leadership and its forms of official, public worship. The desired response of the gods would be achieved through rites of divination and augury. Reinforcing universal citizenship decreed by Caracalla in 212, Decius would summon all citizens to central shrines for propitiary sacrifice to the gods. Each citizen would receive a certificate (*libellus*) as proof of participation. Shirkers were liable to the full force of imperial power.

For Roman Carthage's bishop Cyprian, God's peace and unity in society were accomplished through baptism and Eucharist. No other worship was effective or permitted. Even so, many Christians 'caught up in the universal enthusiasm of the moment [sought] relief from their fear and anxiety through pagan means that they had learned from their forefathers' [7]. These sought the *libellus*, despite its theological inconsistency with Christianity.

Rather than offer sacrifice, Cyprian controversially went into exile and administered the Church through priests and deacons whom he had commanded to remain at their posts, claiming his own prominence would make him exposed in ways that his clergy would not be. His letters from exile indicate burgeoning controversy in the Church at Carthage. Could those who lapsed from their faith by succumbing to the imperial edict be received at Eucharist? What comprised apostasy? There were degrees of this

scandal: *libellatici*, accomplished through bribe or proxy; *thurifeti*, through burning of incense; *sacrificati*, through full rites, whether eagerly or reluctantly. The crucial sacramental and therefore soteriological questions: What form should reconciliation take, and how, and mediated by whom – by a presbyter? a bishop? to be determined *ad hoc* or in council? or by a new means, unanticipated by Cyprian, by sacramental grace administered by a confessor or martyr by virtue of his confession or martyrdom alone, without formal ordination to any ecclesiastical office? Cyprian said all who sacrificed were apostates, whether they had done so eagerly or after imprisonment, whether they had sacrificed in part (incense, but not animal sacrifice) or bribed officials to give them the *libellus* even when they had not sacrificed at all; whether they were saving themselves, or whole households of family and slaves. Unfortunately, not all his clergy agreed. On these tenterhooks hang the tale.

It is worthwhile for such a meticulously researched and carefully written and cross-referenced study to be so handsomely produced. Rare is such section-and-sub-sectioning of chapters, frequently footnoted with locations where subjects are treated in further detail. Repetitive, yes, but this much on this topic, on these several pages, might be all one needs to know for the moment; on the other hand, this much more in these several portions of subsequent chapters would be useful in these different ways. Withal, there is no evident skimping on bibliography or indices. Plus there are plates! Plates! Each is listed in a table of contents with its own bibliographic details. Throughout the book feels useful, legible, and clear. Because the eight tightly argued, expansively explained, digressively explored and carefully organized chapters are presented with such careful attention to the sorts of questions scholars ponder, Brent's work is likely to become a default point of entry to further research. Its provocative chapters could stand alone in bibliogra-

phies; especially usefully so, since even courses for majors cannot be presumed to enrol students already equipped with deep knowledge of the sequence of Roman emperors in the second and third centuries. Brent and his team have every reason to be proud. Even if one may not agree at every turn, Brent's method can be put to valuable pedagogic use. I might have ordered the narrative differently. To capture imaginations perhaps only somewhat familiar with issues regarding

Cyprian's episcopacy, then exile from, and then martyrdom in Roman Carthage, I might have presented the vividly evocative Egyptian *libelli* first, with such questions as, What are these? What do they say? What might they mean? For whom were they written, and to what purpose?, all questions which are implicitly asked and comprehensively answered here.

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Laura Holt

Augustine of Hippo. By Virgilio Pacioni, OSA. Pp. xxv, 313, Leominster, Gracewing, 2010, £14.99.

This is a translation (by Brian Williams and Philip Rand) of a work originally published in Milan in 2004; its sub-title is 'His Philosophy in a Historical and Contemporary Perspective.' In between the Introduction and the Conclusion there are nine chapters on aspects of Augustine's thought, plus a short biographical outline and a chapter that maps a path through the diverse approaches and emphases in the critical interpretation of Augustinian philosophy from his death until the present day. A multi-lingual bibliography ends the book. Pacioni develops his analysis and presentation of A's thought in the light of recent scholarship, most particularly Italian (although he also draws upon studies in English, German and French). Special reference is made to the findings of Cipriani and Malatesta. The author, who is a visiting professor at the Pontifical Lateran University's Augustinian Patristic Institute, corrects misunderstandings and false interpretations of Augustine that are due to a failure to take into account the range of his work, the influences upon him, the authors he especially has drawn upon (for example, Varro is shown to have exerted a deep influence on A's anthropology), and the issues that faced him.

In this work we learn about A's questions, encounters, reading, the leading influences on him, his writings and his wide-ranging reflections as he penetrated ever more deeply into the mysteries of Christian faith

and related these to the concerns of those he cared for (for example, his friends and the congregations he served). The author traces the development of A's thought as the company he kept changed and he shows how A saw reason, authority and faith working together. Among the vast corpus of A's writings there is an interweaving of many different investigations and insights: biblical, spiritual, psychological, anthropological, logical, metaphysical, epistemological, political and pedagogical. There are chapters devoted to A's hermeneutical method, his anthropological teaching, his theory of knowledge, free will and morality, the nature and existence of God, time and history and political philosophy. Pacioni supplies frequent and sometimes lengthy quotations from A, not only from the more familiar works, but from the whole range. One can only marvel at the magnificent range and depth of A's thinking. Pacioni is a wonderful guide to this towering figure in the church's history, blending effectively elegant and clear writing, probing analysis, deep scholarship, discerning interpretation and cogent argument. Those new to Augustine will find this a very useful map across the territory of Augustine's work, while readers already familiar with his thought are sure to find new and stimulating insights in this synthesis.

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John Sullivan

Byzantium in the Iconoclast Era c. 680–850: A History. By Leslie Brubaker and John Haldon. Pp. xxiv, 918. Cambridge University Press, 2011, £100/\$165.

The first thing the reader notices about this volume is its size (253 mm × 180 mm × 50 mm). Its scale, no doubt, is due in part to the lack of attention this period has received from English speaking scholars for the last half century. Moreover, the authors' – Leslie Brubaker (Birmingham) and John Haldon (Princeton) – endeavour to study iconoclasm in the 'wider cultural and social/institutional context' (pp. 2–3) of the Byzantine Empire is an attempt to view iconoclasm within the context of Byzantine ideology, economy, politics, i.e. to re-evaluate and re-position iconoclasm, not to focus on it as the dominant issue of the era. Much of its

detail, therefore, especially chapters 6–11, has to do rather with the *context* of iconoclasm, or the conditions within which iconoclasm arose in the eastern Roman Empire. This is needed because much of the history of what we know about iconoclasm, the authors' argue, has come to us from the 'victors' (p. 2), or the iconophiles, who were ultimately successful in rejecting iconoclasm. They were the ones 'who wrote, or perhaps re-imagined, the history of the period according to their own lights and their own political-theological program' (p. 2). As a result, the authors maintain, iconoclasm 'attracted an inordinate degree

of attention for the simple reason that the ninth century “victors” in the conflict moulded the historical perception of their past in such a way as to make it the dominant issue for later generations of Byzantines, and in consequence for modern historians . . .’ (p. 9). Their book, on the other hand, is intended to promote the view that iconoclasm is a ‘social phenomenon’ (p. 4), ‘one of a number of elements relevant to the evolution of Byzantine culture and society in the eight and ninth centuries’ (p. 9); and, as such, it is an element of the larger web of Byzantine society, without which it (and perhaps the whole debate about the use and veneration of images) would have never occurred. In the end, the purpose of the book is rather grand: to put to rest ‘the iconophile version of the history of the eighth- and ninth-century’ (p. 799). In chapter 1, the authors state that ‘it can be argued that the relationship between individuals and the holy was redefined at the same time as that between individuals and their ruler’ (p. 10). It is in this ‘phase of ideological re-orientation’ that, Brubaker and Haldon argue, we find the roots of iconoclasm. Against the commonly held opinion that Leo III introduced iconoclasm in (or shortly after) 726 with an ‘edict’ (for which, the authors argue, we have ‘no evidence’, cf. 80ff), Brubaker and Haldon make a fairly convincing case in chapter 2 that Leo III ‘was not an “iconoclast” in the sense imposed upon him by later iconophile tradition’ (p. 155). (One is likely inclined to disagree with their interpretation of the *iussiones* mentioned in *Liber Pontificalis*. For, granting that such a directive was given, and that similar requirements were laid upon patriarch Germanos, then generalizing from this to the notion of edict for the empire does not seem an unsubstantiated inference, but rather a logical implication of the Emperor’s wishes. Nevertheless, this would not be an edict proper, but one in effect, as it were; thus, technically speaking, the authors are correct in affirming that ‘there is no reliable evidence for an imperial edict’ [p. 151]). The other two points argued in this chapter – that there was ‘no real opposition to the emperor’s policy’ and that there isn’t any ‘evidence for the systematic removal of images under Leo’ – are much more persuasive in my judgment. And these alone, especially the latter, seem to support well their claim that (though perhaps an iconoclast nevertheless) Leo III does not appear to be the iconoclast we’ve supposed him to be. A similar case is made of Constantine V in chapter 3, where the author’s argue for an escalation in his iconoclasm over a roughly twenty year period, which therefore places the radical iconoclasm he is known for much later (*scil.* 765) than commonly affirmed, and, thus, just a decade before his death in 775. From that point the book focuses on the 38 years of ‘iconophile intermission’ – under Leo IV, Constantine VI, Eirene, Nikephorus and Michael – and the 29 year ‘second iconoclasm’ – under Leo V,

Michael II and Theophilos – and the artisanal production (e.g., architecture, manuscripts, icons, silks, metalwork) of those periods. Following a brief account of the ‘triumph of orthodoxy’ and the restoration of the icons under the two year old Michael III and his mother, empress Theodora, the text turns to an examination of social and political history of the period – economics, settlement patterns, evolution of the social elite, rural and agricultural populations, provincial governance and military administration. The perspective put forth is that during these periods we witness not only the advent of iconoclasm and the responses to it, but also the development of the Orthodox Byzantine State, medieval Byzantium. The final chapter turns to the question of iconoclasm itself, anticipated in chapter 1: ‘what was iconoclasm about, and why did it occur?’ (p. 773). For since before c. 680 it was not characteristic for images ‘made by human hands’ (p. 775), as opposed to holy relics, to be associated with miraculous powers, as was common with the relics, the principal concern ‘is why sacred portraits became widely accepted as a means of accessing the divine comparable to relics around the year 680’ (*ibid.*). Following the research of Paul Speck ‘Wunderheilige und Bilder: zur Frage des Beginns der Bilderverehrung’ (1991) and R. M. Price *A History of the Monks of Syria by Theodoret of Cyrus* (1985), Brubaker and Haldon promote a sceptical view of the authenticity of the section in Theodoret’s *Religious History* that addresses the use of images of Symeon the Stylite. Thus the ‘most concrete textual indication’ is found in *Anthologia Palatina*, dating to c. mid to late sixth century, in which Agathias describes an image of the Archangel Michael. Moreover, the ‘only material evidence for the potential veneration of images’ is a ‘fresco of the enthroned Virgin and child’ in Alexandria, discovered by M. Rodziewicz. Lacking precedent in the tradition, which indicates to them that iconoclasm was not instigated by theology *per se*, the answer given by the authors’ to the question just posed centres on the ‘late-seventh-century insecurities’ (p. 782) in the Empire and the ‘need for purification’, also recognized by the iconophiles, which, since the iconoclast form ‘excluded people from easy access to the sacred’ (p. 787), could not be maintained. Concerning the latter point, the reader cannot help but feel that the question has not been satisfactorily addressed.

In addition to its good organization, munificent illustrations and the fact that it reads well, the great value of *Byzantium in the Iconoclast Era c. 680–850: A History* lies in the authors’ motivation to rethink iconoclasm, and, in so doing, to encourage further research in this under-appreciated field. Overall, it is quite a remarkable book, and highly recommended.

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Michael Rhodes

The Conversion of Scandinavia: Vikings, Merchants, and Missionaries in the Remaking of Northern Europe. By Anders Winroth. Pp. xiv, 238, London/New Haven, Yale University Press, 2012, £30.00.

Winroth avails himself of the social-scientific approach to the study of historical developments, in this case the conversion of Scandinavia. Challenging the stereotypical master narrative of zealous evangelists and active missionaries converting an at best passive, at worst resistant, native heathen population, he is able to substitute a fascinating description of the distinctive political dynamics that characterized all of Western Europe after the barbarian invasions, but lingered longer in Scandinavia which developed later. This process went through essentially three stages. The first stage was the chieftain-based form of political organization, in which chieftains vied for the loyalty of powerful warriors to become part of their retinue through gift-exchange, the chieftain giving regular feasts in his great hall as well as expensive and exotic gifts derived from the plunder of his raids. Many chieftains were 'kicked out' of Scandinavia by more powerful rivals, and resorted to raiding the coasts of Ireland, England, Europe, and the Baltic primarily to acquire the wealth to exchange for the loyalty of a larger coterie of powerful warriors. They would then return to Scandinavia and challenge the chieftains there who had previously defeated them. Religion was a powerful social cement for the crucially important personal bonds between a chieftain and his warriors, and an exotic religion such as Christianity, associated with the most powerful and prestigious rulers of southern Europe, such as the emperors in Byzantium and Aachen, was another 'gift' to be shared with his warriors, with the chieftain frequently serving as godfather at their baptism. Christianity, however, had another characteristic that made it attractive to these chieftains, who were not passive but actively sought Christianization: it could only be prac-

ticed and administered by clerics (in contrast to the 'do-it-yourself' approach of pagan cults), and only in consecrated churches, which empowered a chieftain who introduced Christianity into his territory to monopolize religious bonding by outlawing all other cults, depriving rival chieftains of this traditional means of 'gifting' their warriors. An increase of power was thus the attraction here, rather than religious zeal or a desire for conversion; and the chieftain slowly moved towards becoming a 'king'. Christianity's monotheism and exclusivism had the effect of substituting a law-based, tax-founded form of relationship between sovereign and subject for the more ephemeral person-based loyalties around which the earlier social system had been organized. Following the Christian rather than the pagan pattern, Viking society moved incrementally toward the modern state.

Several other observations are in order: the later contest involving caesero-papism was almost inevitable, as chieftains-become-kings viewed religion primarily as a tool by which to acquire and increase power at the expense of other kings, and viewed positions among the bishops and abbots as 'gifts' to be distributed to important families in exchange for their loyalty. Second, the Viking raiding and pillaging had the indirect positive effect of taking the gold and silver kept 'inert' as long as it mouldered in church and monastic treasuries, and melted it down to produce 'liquid' currency in the form of otherwise-unavailable coins, making possible the surge in commerce in the High Middle Ages and the emerging world-domination of Europe during the modern period.

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Patrick Madigan

Ravenna in Late Antiquity. By Deborah Maukopf Deliyannis. Pp. xix, 444, Cambridge University Press, 2010, £65.00.

At least compared to other Italian cities of similar importance, Ravenna is not much visited. Someone who was there recently has assured me that tourists are still thin on the ground. This is a great pity, for as Dr. Deliyannis remarks in this detailed study, there are more mosaics from the fifth and sixth centuries surviving in that city than anywhere else. Perhaps it was because it was relatively inaccessible, a fact which may possibly still put off travellers, but was regarded as a distinct advantage by Gothic rulers and Byzantine exarchs alike. It was also never sacked, which must have helped preserve its heritage. Not that it did not have its ups and downs. Though it now stands well over a mile inland, it was originally a coastal town, the home port of the Roman Mediterra-

nean fleet, and its surrounding countryside was extensively cultivated to provide supplies for the ships' crews: the region was, apparently, especially known for its asparagus. But with the decline of the fleet in the fourth century came the decline of Ravenna, and of its neighbouring town of Classis.

Their fortunes changed dramatically when, in 402, the Roman Emperor moved his capital from Milan to the Adriatic city, Rome itself, of course, having long been abandoned to its entrenched senatorial elite. Deliyannis argues, however, that it was Theodoric who made it indisputably a capital city, leaving Rome – and its senators – to its and their own devices: he only went there once. But why did Honorius choose Ravenna? Deliyannis suggests that its very inaccessi-

bility, which made it readily defensible, may have been a major factor, but so surely was its port with its easy links to Constantinople. She also proposes that its run-down state may itself have played a part. If Honorius had in mind to establish a new Western capital for the imperial administration, then Ravenna was an excellent choice. It had been largely abandoned by its population, leaving a site ready for rebuilding, rather as Byzantium had been three-quarters of a century earlier.

And what rebuilding – a series of churches, baptisteries, palaces, the so-called mausolea of Galla Placidia and of Theodoric, structures which still entrance sight seers some fifteen hundred years later. Minute descriptions of these dominate Deliyannis's volume. 'The monuments', she says, 'are presented as tangible sources of information about the city in which they were created and whose history they both reflect and helped to shape' (p. 20). Whether the author has achieved quite so close a symbiosis between architecture and history as this passage claims one may doubt, but there is a great deal of both in the text, amply illustrated by plans of the city (including one of its current street plan, helpfully overlaid with the major archaeological sites), plans of the buildings, photographs of details of capitals as well as of the inside and outside of the monuments described. It has to be said that for very many of these the quality of reproduction is not great, but this deficiency is to some extent compensated for by a number of splendid colour plates – and, indeed, by the dust jacket with its depiction of the interior of San Vitale.

One reason for the plethora of churches in Ravenna was that it was for long, as the capital city of a Gothic king, a centre of Arianism as well as what the author calls, understandably if a little confusingly, Orthodoxy. On the basis of the architectural lay-out she concludes that, at least in Ravenna, there was little or no difference between the Arian and Orthodox liturgy of baptism: diverse theologies were not given diverse architectural expression. Perhaps this is not altogether surprising. More surprising is that the same may be said of the iconography. As she remarks of the Arian baptistery, 'The only features that can be clearly identified as "Arian" about these mosaics is the fact that they are different from those in the Orthodox baptistery' (p. 187). She adds, however, that there is an 'ethnic spin' in the depiction of one of the figures in the Arian mosaics. He is shown with a moustache and sideburns but no beard, a Gothic practice, apparently, and definitely not a Roman one. But if in the earlier period Arian divergences are difficult to discern, she does detect an anti-Arian iconography in the structures of the Justinian era.

For myself, I would perhaps have preferred slightly less meticulously detailed description of the architecture, and rather more on the mosaics; further, as if running out of space, the final chapter on Ravenna from 600 to 850 is a touch breathless. But that said, Deliyannis's book is likely to remain the definitive study of Italy's most fascinating city – at least for devotees of Late Antiquity – for a long time to come.

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Michael J. Walsh

On the Historical Development of the Liturgy. By Anton Baumstark. Intro., trans., & annotation by Fritz West. Collegeville, MN, Liturgical Press, 2011, \$21.74.

Anton Baumstark (1872–1948) virtually created the field of comparative liturgy. His best-known book, with that title, developed from a series of conferences given at the Benedictine monastery at Chevetogne in Belgium in 1933, appeared in book form in 1939, and was translated into English in 1958. This book developed from conferences Baumstark delivered in 1921 on the development of the Roman rite at the Abbey of Maria Laach and were published as a book two years later. Trained in classic and oriental philology, Baumstark was a prodigious scholar in the literature, art, and liturgy of the whole church – Oriental, Eastern, and Western. He understood the liturgy as an organism that developed almost independently from the devout who produced and were nourished by it. His revolutionary principle, opposing the thesis of Ferdinand Probst, was that 'uniformity is not the point of departure but the result of liturgical evolution'; that is, the liturgies evolved from variety towards uniformity, not vice versa. There was initial diversification in the

scattering of the Christian communities in the first three centuries up to the Peace of Constantine in 312/13, but once legal the two Roman empires, East and West, enlisted, invested, and incorporated the liturgy as the central expression of their imperial victory, expansion, unity, and prestige. The process of evolution reversed direction and progressed towards uniformity, reaching a culmination in the ninth century when the two imperial rites assumed their final forms. These two rites were secure or freed from the need to protect themselves from dying out, and could thus undertake the challenge of evangelization. The Byzantine rite was open from the start to using the vernacular – indeed, it created an alphabet and founded the literature of the incoming Slavic peoples. The Western rite impressed by the high balanced cadences of its lofty poetic Latin. Overgrowth could and did appear afterward, according to Baumstark, so that the Carolingian era presents a kind of ideal to which we should continually attempt to return. As the

translator, Fritz West, puts it, 'the Franco-Roman . . . liturgy . . . gained its inner strength from combining the classical ideals of Rome with the depth of German feeling. Specifically, the Carolingian liturgy combined Roman restraint, moderation, and sobriety with German valour, virility, and martial spirit. All this is personified in the person of Charlemagne, who brought the liturgy from Rome to Aachen, instigated the Carolingian Renaissance, and combined in himself Roman and German traits: valour and sobriety, power and restraint, and strength and moderation. Notably, Charlemagne appreciated the value of the

liturgy as a cohesive force for unifying the Holy Roman Empire.' (p. 24).

This organic unity was lost in the Reformation to the Protestant churches, who carved out a truncated, unbalanced, and distorted version; on the Catholic side the Sacred Congregation of Rites was frozen into a preservationist mode, forestalling organic adaptation. But Baumstark feels that the Roman rite, unlike those of the East, has a propensity to reflect upon itself, which is a necessary prelude to proper reform.

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Patrick Madigan

Saint Anselm of Canterbury and His Legacy (Durham Medieval and Renaissance Monographs and Essays, vol. 2). Edited by Giles E. M. Gasper and Ian Logan. Pp. xii, 461, Durham University, Institute of Medieval and Renaissance Studies, and Toronto, Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 2012, \$95.00.

The essays in this collection are based on papers that were originally presented at a conference of the same title at Canterbury in April 2009, commemorating the nine hundredth anniversary of Anselm's death. The collection is not advertised as the proceedings of the conference, however, and those having attended will easily notice that it gives a lopsided idea of the spectrum of contributions presented: the conference featured a fairly even balance between papers on 'Anselm of Canterbury' and those about 'his legacy', whereas the emphasis in this volume is decidedly on Anselm's legacy. The twenty-one essays accepted for publication have been divided into five sections on a chronological basis, starting from Anselm's impact in his own time and ending with the twentieth-century reception of his thought. However, a reader interested in Anselm himself need not be entirely disappointed, as many of the essays on his legacy also include substantial discussions of his views, and one essay, the keynote presentation by Marilyn Adams, concentrates on the thought of Anselm himself. Most of the essays can be characterised as either historical or as pertaining to intellectual history, but there is considerable variation in the approaches.

Part I, 'Anselm and His Communities', consists of four essays on assorted topics. Susanne Schenk analyses a letter that Queen Matilda of England sent to Anselm in 1104. Schenk argues, convincingly, that Matilda used Anselm's prayer to Mary Magdalene as her model, cleverly adapting the rhetorical strategies in it. Samu Niskanen, summarising the results of his recent book, reassesses the evolution of Anselm's letter collections until ca. 1130. Véronique Gazeau addresses the question of whether Anselm as an abbot and archbishop was perceived as a person of authority and on what grounds. In the fourth essay, Sally Vaughn turns to Anselm's (and Lanfranc's) efforts at the monastery of Bec to train church administrators, and offers a survey of the careers of Bec's students in England from the Conquest until ca. 1160.

The three essays in Part II, 'Twelfth-Century Perspectives', discuss the influence of Anselm's thought on a number of twelfth-century authors. Jay Diehl seeks to show that Aelred of Rievaulx's approach to language bears traces of an Anselmian influence; on this effort the reviewer remains sceptical. Judith Dunthorne offers a lucid analysis of how Hugh of St Victor's views about freedom and the will relate to the corresponding views of Anselm. Mark Clavier endeavours in the third essay to show that Anselm's 'rhetorical theology' and his practice of 'ruminative meditation' had an influence on Richard of St Victor's way of doing theology. Clavier presents some interesting points about the interpretation of the *Proslogion*; however, Anselm's rhetorical aspirations in the treatise may actually be much more complicated than the essay suggests.

Part III, 'Thirteenth- and Fourteenth-Century Perspectives', includes four essays dealing with Anselm's influence on scholastic thinkers and scholastic debate. Michael Robson's highly informative essay focuses on clarifying how the Anselmian corpus became an important source for Franciscan theologians during the first half of the thirteenth century. Robson pays special attention to Odo Rigaldi and his assimilation of *Cur Deus homo*. Bernd Goehring offers a clear analysis of Anselm's notion of truth as rightness, and examines how Henry of Ghent integrated this notion in his comprehensive account of truth. John Slotemaker discusses the development of Anselm's trinitarian theology and the significant role that Anselm's views played in late medieval debates on the topic, and Volker Leppin presents reflections about the form and argument of Duns Scotus' *De primo principio* in relation to Anselm's *Proslogion*.

Part IV, 'Vernacular Visions', consists of two essays on the Middle English translations of Anselm's devotional writings. Margaret Healy-Varley discusses the pseudo-Anselmian *De custodia interioris hominis* and a Middle English version of it,

Sawles Warde, while Evelien Hauwaerts provides a survey of the extant translations of Anselm's *Meditationes sive Orationes*, also offering many text examples.

Part V, 'Twentieth-Century Perspectives', includes five essays on the reception of Anselm's thought as well as three essays of varying nature. Ian Logan inspects Karl Rahner's 'proof' of God's existence and relates it to Anselm's argument in the *Proslogion* as he understands it. Bernd Goebel offers a critical examination of Hans Blumenberg's negative evaluation of Anselm as a thinker, examining the *Proslogion* argument and Anselm's account of the purpose of man's creation in *Cur Deus homo*. Emery de Gaál discusses the central role of Anselm's influence on the formation of Hans Urs von Balthasar's aesthetic theology, but de Gaál's learned essay may be difficult for many readers to follow. Giles Gasper examines the significance of Anselm for Michael Ramsey as well as the probable sources of Ramsey's insights about his great predecessor at the see of Canterbury. The one essay focusing on Anselm himself, 'St Anselm on the Goodness of God' by Marilyn McCord Adams, is outstanding. Basing her contribution on

Anselm's whole oeuvre, Adams offers a perceptive analysis of what Anselm understood the divine goodness to consist of, and how he saw human destiny and Christian life. Eileen Sweeney uses Anselm's discussion about giving and receiving in *De casu diaboli* to clarify some issues in the recent debates about the phenomenology of the gift (Sartre, Marcel, Marion). Sara Uckelman offers a survey of the reception of Anselm's logic in recent decades, elucidating the various reasons why the value of Anselm's contribution has been underestimated by logicians. The last essay, by Martin Lembke, is a piece of philosophical theology in the style of the analytical philosophy of religion. Lembke first offers his version of the Leibnizian cosmological argument and then seeks to employ Anselm's notion of God to develop the argument into a 'cosmontological argument' for God's existence.

In an introductory essay the editors relate the published contributions to previous scholarship and to the history of Anselm's reception. On the whole, this is a rich collection that includes many strong essays.

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Toivo J. Holopainen

Some Later Medieval Theories on the Eucharist: Thomas Aquinas, Giles of Rome, Duns Scotus, and William Ockham. By Marilyn McCord Adams. Pp. 318, NY, Oxford University Press, 2011, \$43.00.

Philosophical and scientific theories earn their standing through their heuristic value in explaining the perplexities in experience that serve as origins for their development. A theory capable of being applied in areas beyond that of its originating experiences is considered all the more worthy of gaining wider allegiance although it often happens that new applications are accompanied by alterations or qualifications in the original. Newton's understandings of time and space were adequate within the limits of experiences taken into account in the development of the original model for the physics of his age but needed redefinition when applied to the expanse of broader experiences Einstein's theory came to encompass. Centuries earlier a paradigm shift occurred as well in the medieval period when Aristotelian principles were employed in explaining the sacraments, especially the Eucharist.

The European universities of the high middle ages, most of which were ecclesiastical institutions under church aegis, were deeply impacted by the reappearance of Aristotelian philosophy onto the cultural scene. Thomas Aquinas was among those in the forefront fostering the move from employing neo-Platonic metaphysical and psychological concepts with those of Aristotle in the development of theology. In the Introduction 'Aristotelian Preliminaries', the author begins with a succinct but thorough analysis of the central tenets of Aristotelian metaphysics and cosmology,

especially the role that the categories of material beings and the hylomorphic explanation of the make-up of physical objects play in the system of the Stagirite. She also specifies the differences by which aspects of the theory were understood by those that make up the book's sub-titles as well as others such as William of Champeaux. Two other aspects of the effect are brought in, the theory of universals and an analysis of the category of place – which, while it might seem extensive in this chapter in relation to the treatment of the other categories, is a needed propaedeutic to the examination of the accounts of how Christ can be both in heaven by the Father's right hand and simultaneously really present on altars worldwide as well.

The text is then divided into three parts: 'Why Sacraments?'; 'The metaphysics and physics of the real presence'; and 'What sort of union?' In the first, Ms. Adams explains the need for sacraments from the perspective of the literal description of the fall of humanity as given in *Genesis* which is the point of departure for the theologians examined in the book. While contemporary biblical scholars would demur on taking the account of the fall literally, it is still agreed that the central point of the text is concerned with describing the human condition as inherently defective and damaged, regardless of how it came about, and that as humanity does not possess the capability of rectify the situation of its own accord it

can only depend upon divine remedies to do so. 'Medieval theologians worked with several explanations of how the Incarnation and passion of Christ were supposed to rescue Adam's race from the consequences of sin.' The claims and counterclaims involved in the Ransom Theory, Satisfaction Theory, Sanctification Theory and the evolution of material rites and the traditional reasons given for their usefulness from Judaism to Christianity as proposed by Anselm, Abelard, Peter Lombard, Hugh of St. Victor, Bonaventure, Aquinas, Giles of Rome, Duns Scotus and Ockham are treated in this section.

As for the Holy Eucharist, Aquinas notes that unlike the other sacraments which produce their effects in the souls of the recipients, the real presence occurs not only *ex opera operato* (as do the others) but would remain there even if the priest immediately expired after having said the words of consecration. The author notes that, in a view going back at least to Lombard, this is Christ's way of fulfilling his promise to be with us always (corporeally) after his ascension to the Father and why this sacrament is the apex of the Christian pilgrim's worship experience. As with the other sacraments, it too had to effect what it figures and this is to materially make the bread and wine the body and blood of Christ while still maintaining the visible accidents of the former. Theologians following on Lombard would have it as their challenge to submit this to extensive philosophical analysis so as to explain how this belief could be held consistent with the rest of what was taken to be true within the parameters of Aristotelian metaphysics, cosmology and logic.

In the next chapter Adams takes up the issue of causality in the sacraments. As causality is a central element of Aristotelian metaphysics medieval theologians developed a number of explanations as to the cause of the sacraments, especially the Eucharist, the corollaries that followed as well as respond to objections that were raised against them. While all agreed that God is the ultimate cause of the origins and powers contained within the sacraments, the fact that they are dispense as material rites opens up a number of perplexities. As to the *material* part, one needs to explain how natural objects such as water, bread, oil, wine, etc., can come to possess the transcendental, grace producing/grace dispensing powers sacraments are said to possess. As religious *rites* they involve human agency in their being dispensed to and received by the faithful complicating thereby the attempt at forming a thorough causal explanation. What causal function does the sacramental minister contribute in the ritual process? Of equal importance a complete theory must also take into account their efficacy as to the condition of the souls of the recipients. Such overlapping issues created a number of different and contending theories. Analyzing these in any detail would require a review almost as long as the chapter itself and so the report is

limited only to identifying the circumstances from which the problems arose and an indication of the solutions proposed, e.g., divine assistance theory and inherent power/absolute quality views. The bulk of the chapter focuses on Aquinas resolutions to the questions and the various distinctions he makes as to the kinds of causes in the development of his theory.

The subsequent eight chapters are devoted mostly to explaining the Eucharist according to Aristotelian principles especially as developed by Thomas and Giles of Rome and the problem of place treated at length by Scotus. The primary problem was in explaining the kind of change that occurs at the consecration, for the real presence demands an account more thorough than reducing the Eucharist to an accidental one or merely a symbolic remembrance whose effect is dependent on the causality of the recipient's understanding and reaction (*ex opera operantis*) as to its signification. Two theories vied for allegiance among theologians, *impanation* and *transubstantiation*. Transubstantiation proved the more plausible as it employs the Aristotelian understanding of substantial change but in a way that goes beyond anything that the Stagirite could have conceived, namely an absolute 'whole being conversion' of one thing (bread and wine) into another (body and blood of Christ). Further perplexities ensue as to how the accidents of the former substance remain after the change has occurred and the question of multi-location of Christ's body as being both in heaven and on altars. The various explanations given to these by different theorists constitute the material of subsequent chapters.

Adams book is not only an excellent survey of the various tangents that thinkers of the period took in attempting to deal with a number of claims made by church authorities (e.g., Cardinal Humbert of Silva Candida that both in Sacrament and reality Christ's body is 'held and broken by the hands of priests and . . . crushed by the teeth of the faithful' [p 260]) or questioned the length of time or conditions under which the Eucharistic transformation remained after consecration had occurred. Space constraints prevent going into these in any depth.

As some of these theories overlap and intertwine with one another, the reader may find it expedient to keep a note pad of the various positions so as to keep clearer track of wherein they agree or disagree and the reasons given. This is a very dense book, requiring careful and repeated readings and thus quite daunting for the theologically faint of heart. But for those willing to face the challenge they will be rewarded by an appreciation of the range of questions and issues medieval theologians faced and the detailed philosophical and theological precisions they employed in attempting to resolve them.

François d'Assise: Écrits, Vies, Témoignages; Sources franciscaines. Edited by J. Dalarun. 2 vols., Pp. 3418, Éditions du CERF/Éditions Franciscaines, Paris 2010, \$148.63.

Les Vies de Saint François d'Assise. Edited and translated by J. Dalarun, D. Poirel, J.-F. Godet-Calogeras, J.-B. Lebigue, J. Poirel. Pp. 844, Éditions du CERF/Éditions Franciscaines, Paris, 2009, \$88.66.

François d'Assise vu par les compagnons. Edited and translated by J. Dalarun & F. Delmas-Goyon. Pp. 230, Éditions du CERF/Éditions Franciscaines, Paris 2009, n.p.g.

This series of publications, produced to mark the 800th anniversary of the Franciscan order, is a major contribution to scholarship. It provides access of a very extensive group of sources, most of them key texts on the order's early history, to a wide audience. Result of a long project, it consists of four books. Two of them, published in 2009 contain the works of Thomas of Celano ('*Les Vies de Saint François d'Assise*') and the reminiscences of the group around brother Leo ('*François d'Assise vu par les compagnons*') while a massive two-volume publication in which these texts are reprinted in conjunction also offers the writings of S. Francis and a wide range of other sources ('*François d'Assise. Écrits, Vies, témoignages. Sources franciscaines*'). The guiding spirit behind this impressive achievement was Jacques Dalarun, who – with the patronage of André Vauchez – had assembled a team of specialists as translators and advisers. among them members of the Franciscan order like Michael Cusato, Fortunato Iozelli or Jean-François Godet-Calogeras as well as academics well known for their achievements in the field of Franciscan studies like Timothy Johnson, Sylvain Piron, Marie Anne Polo de Beaulieu or Ludovic Viallet, to name but a few.

It was important for the editors to set appropriate parameters for their project because translations of texts on S. Francis and the order's early history into the modern vernacular have been produced before. In his preface André Vauchez reminds the readers of Frédéric Ozanam's 1852 translation of Franciscan poetry into French which gave the impetus to similar publications. More recent translations into Spanish, German and English also come to mind, however, comprehensive collections of all key sources are very rare. Furthermore, despite their inevitable affinity in purpose and contents, none of these publications is an exact reproduction of an earlier one. They differ in the selection of texts which were included, in the degree of philological attention given to the sources, in the extent of the historical comments provided, in the number of tools (indexes, tables, bibliographies) offered to the users and in the way in which the material is introduced. Inevitably, these considerations had to be addressed by Dalarun and his team. Despite the earlier publication in French by Théophile Desbonnets and Damien Vorreux the group of editors and advisers decided to embark on an entirely new project which was guided by the standards set by the two Franciscan scholars, the core ques-

tion being: how would their edition have looked like, had it been published in 2009/2010 rather more than forty years ago? This decision is justified by the result. Even though the collection cannot be complete in the absence of visual sources, frescoes, paintings, sculptures, window glass and similar hagiographic material, the scope of the texts allows an assessment, a synthesis even, of the historical figure Francis of Assisi. This edition of sources translated specifically for the present publication must be doubly welcome to a francophone audience because it takes account of the fact that the knowledge of Latin has become a rarity even among university students while it acknowledges the continuing appeal of S. Francis which extends beyond the boundaries of confession and creed. There is a very important additional factor: the introductions and comments which take into account more recent scholarship and present a fresh approach to the 'Franciscan question' which goes back at least as far as 1898, the year in which Paul Sabatier discovered the *Speculum perfectionis*.

The problems posed by texts of different nature and provenance were already obvious to the friars in the thirteenth century when the order's leadership attempted to create its own version of the past and made an effort to control it, an attitude which culminated in the decision by the 1266 general chapter to destroy all earlier *Vitae* of S. Francis following the completion of Bonaventure's *Legenda maior*. Even if determined attempts were made to comply with this decision, the proliferation of lives and legends, ranging from the official biographies by Thomas of Celano to the reminiscences by brother Leo and other friars who had spent years in the company of the Poverello even into the libraries of other religious orders made it difficult to enforce. There was also another factor: complete control was impossible given the divergence of views within the order between those who regarded pastoral activities as the community's main objective, accepting the consequences this imposed on the practice of poverty, humility and simplicity and those who wanted retain the original ideals, to follow the example set by the founder. On the contrary, hagiography and the debate about the order's history became one of the battlegrounds between different factions within the community following the clericalisation of the order in 1240 and into the fourteenth century.

The attempts to control the past on the one hand and the reaction to this policy on the other, which

took the form of a proliferation of reminiscences and legends, obscured the appearance of Francis of Assisi as a historical figure. The attempt to distinguish fact from myth, to trace the history of legends and stories, many of which appear in different shapes in different collections, has occupied generations of historians since the end of the nineteenth century. The publication produced by Dalarun and his international group of specialists with its hierarchy of introductions and comments on individual texts guides the reader through this maze of sources. As a first step this maze had to be defined: all texts published by Desbonnets and Vorreux in 1968 were included but the collection was significantly extended. These additions were not restricted to Franciscan sources which had not hitherto been translated into French, although this, too, was among the criteria for inclusion. New discoveries, mostly unknown versions of known writings or fragments, were added to their number and two types of text excluded in the earlier edition were admitted: liturgical writings and miracle stories.

This diverse material needed to be structured, an issue particularly pressing for the two large volumes *François d'Assise. Écrits, Vies, témoignages. Sources franciscaines* which contain well over a hundred sources, although an initial organisation of the texts is already suggested in the title: writings by S. Francis, Lives and other testimonies. The arrangement within these three major groups was more complicated, however, a clear way was found here by introducing the saint's writings with those of which autographs exist, to group like with like, e.g. letters or normative texts, and then to apply a chronological structure as far as possible. Thus the section of the Lives begins with Elias's encyclical letter announcing the death of Francis, followed by Gregory IX's bull of canonisation and Thomas of Celano's *Vita Prima*. This is a plausible arrangement even though by no means all texts can be dated precisely, often the dates are only vaguely known as in the case of the *Sacrum Commercium*. Since the long tradition of research on the Franciscan manuscripts is continuing, a further refinement of the chronology is quite possible and this in turn would require a different organisation of a collection of sources of this kind. Jacques Dalarun is aware of this and in his general introduction he declares that despite its scale this publication is not to be regarded as definitive.

This is true also in respect of the introductions, which form a sequence of essays, reflecting current historical debates. Apart from the general introductions by André Vauchez and Jacques Dalarun, there are similar essays for each of the three sections. This means that the two volumes at the centre of this project also offer an excellent survey of the current state of scholarship on the order's early history.

Vauchez neatly identifies Francis's original contribution in the long history of religious movements: not the idealisation of poverty but the ability to demonstrate the relevance of the Gospel to contemporary society, partly with the help of unusual means of communication, among them the use of the vernacular to give public expression to religious feeling. Despite an aside that the 'Franciscan question' is a theme which has lost its relevance (volume I, p. 50), Dalarun does refer to the importance of the testimony provided by brother Leo which he claims forms a separate tradition within the Franciscan sources, beginning with the Greccio letter of 1246. Following his important attribution of the 'Umbrian Legend' to Thomas of Celano, dating it to the years 1237–1239, and after the discussion in his introduction to *François d'Assise vu par les compagnons* (2009), where the 'Anonymous of Perugia' and the 'Legend of the Three Companions' are analysed in the context of other central sources on the Franciscans, this may not come as a surprise. Dalarun offers a plausible theory on the relationship between the texts at the centre of the 'Franciscan question'. According to him the decision by the general chapter of 1244 convened at Genoa to collect information on the life of S. Francis led to the preparation of a packet of texts by the saint's three companions Leo, Rufinus and Angelus. This contained the Greccio letter and the 'Legend of the Three Companions' as well as other texts which did not survive. The author of the 'Legend', one of the signatories of the Greccio letter, knew the text of the 'Anonymous of Perugia' and used it as a source while the 'Legend' itself became the source for the first part of Thomas of Celano's *Vita Secunda*. Dalarun's theory then continues with the establishment of a link between the group of texts included in the collection of 1246 and the *Speculum Perfectionis*: the mid-thirteenth century stories were rewritten during the dispute with pope John XXII and the *Speculum Perfectionis*, allegedly written by the three companions, was the result. Written within twenty years after Francis's death, the 'Legend' was still based on biographical information, although the focus was not on the historical person but on the life of the future saint. As far as the texts' value as a source for biographical information is concerned, Dalarun gives preference to Thomas of Celano's *Vita prima*, simply because a large number of Francis's contemporaries still had fresh memories at the time of its creation; this would have made the inclusion of unauthentic information more difficult. A summary of the historiography to date is presented by Dalarun in *Les Vies de Saint François d'Assise*, complete with a biographical sketch of Thomas of Celano and a survey of previous editions. The high biographical value of the *Vita prima* is underlined, not least because its author applied a strictly chronological

structure to its first section. However, this overall assessment is qualified by two observations, firstly the lack of precise knowledge on the Poverello's early years which threatened to give an imbalance to the biography. This may have led Thomas – secondly – to fill the gap with autobiographical detail from Francis's Testament or to adapt topoi from other authors. The abundance of information on the saint's last years allowed the biographer to avoid such devices in the second section of the *Vita prima* while the third section could only be fragmentary since there simply had been no time to collect the miracles in a systematic way. The result was a stylistically polished text which inspired other friars to follow suit. Dalarun's recent study of the 'Umbrian Legend' has recently confirmed Sabatier's and Abate's assumption that Thomas of Celano was its author, representing an intermediate stage between the *Vita prima* and the *Vita secunda*, here printed as the 'Mémorial dans le désir de l'âme'. The text is given a new title because the *Vita* and the miracles form one unit, a pattern which began with the *Vita prima* and continued up to Bonaventure, affecting all the texts included in the 2009 volume 'Les Vies de Saint François d'Assise'.

Dalarun's introduction offers other important insights into the relationship of the biographical and hagiographical texts. Since the proximity between Francis and Elias is a key message of the 'Umbrian Legend', it is plausible to assume that it was written in the last phase of Elias's generalate, perhaps with a view to strengthen his position. With the deposition of Elias this text lost its purpose and this explains why it has been largely forgotten. This historical contextualisation is helpful even if the observations are not always new. The 'Anonymous of Perugia', more appropriately called 'Du commencement ou du fondement de l'Ordre' after its *incipit*, is also seen as a text reflecting the current situation in the order, a reaction to the deposition of Elias in which Francis is not linked with a particular individual but with a group. However, their main purpose was to provide material for Thomas of Celano: the tasks were divided, the group collecting the material, the distinguished biographer shaping it into text. This is more than a vague notion; the editor can show that the 'Legend of the Three Companions', itself indebted to the 'Anonymous of Perugia', provided the information on the saint's early life in the *Vita secunda* or the 'Mémorial', as the *Vita* and the miracles are called jointly in this edition. This was information which was clearly not available to Thomas of Celano when he wrote the *Vita prima*. Leo's testimony, related to the order's minister general Crescentius of Jesi in 1246, was the first lot of new biographical information since 1228. This allows the creation of a more intimate picture of S. Francis. For the para-

graphs dealing with Francis's last years and his death, the author was able to draw on his own material, the 'Umbrian Legend'. Dalarun's reflections go beyond the content analysis of the *Vita secunda* 'Mémorial'. He is also able to point to a political agenda, promoted by brother Leo as well as Thomas of Celano. The background is the bull *Ordinem vestrum* (14 Novembre 1245) which ignores Francis's Testament and establishes a legal device – ownership by the papacy – which allows the Franciscans to have property, even real estate. The emphasis on Francis's love of poverty, his uncompromising stance towards the first provisional structures built near the Portiuncula and in Bologna, is plausibly interpreted as a response to the tendency to accept privileges. The Francis of the *Vita secunda* does not properly fit into the transformed Franciscan order. Thus the order of the 1244 general chapter to collect information was an opportunity for those who were reluctant to follow a policy which they thought jeopardised the Franciscan ideal.

This is an important publication, carefully prepared – despite the pressure to complete the texts for the Franciscan anniversary. It offers a unique collection of sources with important introductions and a separate guide for each piece. The introductions to the texts – not necessarily written by the translators – usually provide information on the manuscript tradition, on earlier editions of the text and the contemporary context and sometimes also a survey of the historiographical debate. Length and detail vary according to the length and significance of the text and the authors' preferences. Not all texts are printed in their entirety, of Salimbene's – admittedly massive – chronicle there are only extracts and the lack of a subject index in the two volumes published in 2010 is noticeable. The tendency to rename some of the texts (e.g. from 'Anonymous of Perugia' to 'Du commencement de l'Ordre') is understandable given the amount of textual analysis undertaken here, however, this may not be entirely helpful in solving the 'Franciscan question' because it adds to an sometimes already overburdened terminology. Faced with these four impressive volumes the reviewer wonders why so many of the texts were printed twice, in 2009 and then again in 2010. Would it not have been better instead to have the original and the French translation on facing pages? This would have served the same purpose and possibly increased the readership. Here the final word must be given to the general editor, Jacques Dalarun, who defines the 'Franciscan question' ultimately as the 'question of Francis': 'Si notre volume permet de regarder cette question-là en face, alors nous n'aurons pas perdu notre temps.'

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Jens Röhrkasten

The Poor and the Perfect: The Rise of Learning in the Franciscan Order, 1209–1310. By Neslihan Şenocak. Pp. xiv, 276, Ithaca/London, Cornell University Press, 2012, \$49.95/£30.95.

This book offers much of value for those interested in the history of the Franciscan Order, especially in the first hundred years of its existence. It also casts a good deal of light on how learning was seen in the medieval church as two-edged: as an integral element in the spiritual life, but as the same time as posing a significant threat to living the way of the Gospel. Francis of Assisi wanted his followers to display poverty (carrying only a tunic and a psalter), simplicity, humility, obedience and charity, relying on holy wisdom, not the wisdom of the world. Lay brothers were not to learn their letters. His brothers in faith should not own books, nor should they possess property. His followers went from twelve in number in 1209 to five thousand by 1221. Yet, as the author, who teaches history at Columbia University, shows, 'within only thirty years, his movement evolved into a Europe-wide order with hundreds of permanent houses, schools, and libraries, an order that produced some of the finest theologians and philosophers of all time' (p. 2). How did this shift occur (and so suddenly)? Her book is 'essentially a story of how and why learning became part of the Franciscan way of life, and the consequences of this integration' (p. 2).

Şenocak's clearly written, well-organised and cogently argued study is built on her deep immersion in the sources, many of which are quoted extensively in Latin in the footnotes. She engages also with the developing historiography on Franciscanism, offering a revisionist interpretation of this on some issues, for example, the similarities and differences between Franciscans and Dominicans, the tendency to exaggerate the influence of the 'Spiritual' wing of the movement and to read thirteenth century developments in the light of fourteenth century sources, and the early acceptance of learning as desirable. The story she tells sets the emergence of the Franciscan movement within the wider context of medieval history, especially the story of the relationship between faith and learning. She shows how the English province of the Franciscans had the best educational network and the prominence within the order's leadership positions of scholars from England. We learn about how the ban on books (considered incompatible with apostolic poverty) quickly was sidestepped, about papal endorsement of the order (since it was at first seen as part of the fight against heresy, although this was not to be a central contribution for long), about the increasing clericalisation of the order and about growing connections with universities; here Paris played a pivotal role for the evolution of Franciscan attitudes to study. So successful was the integration of learning within the

order that, later in the thirteenth century, Franciscans were asked to provide education for secular clergy and for monks, as well as offering religious teaching and pastoral care for lay people.

The fear that learning opens the door to pride and also to lower regard for the humble, unlearned brothers, and thus to be shunned, soon gave way to arguments that learning was a necessary prerequisite for preaching (and teaching others to preach), as well as for hearing confessions and for other pastoral work. This shift occurred despite the evidence that many Franciscans (as was true of members of other religious orders and secular clergy too) were reluctant to return to pastoral work after study; some referred to pastoral activity as 'donkey work' (p. 152). Within a relatively short period learning came to be interpreted as a major element in spirituality and even as a sign of sanctity. At the same time, a preoccupation with the prestige and respectability of the friars within society – perhaps to counterbalance the initial predominance of poor, unlettered, scruffy and unkempt brothers – soon meant that the order sought to attract scholars and men of eminent reputation. Many who joined the order did have a genuine desire for learning, but inevitably such purer motives were mingled with others; for example, learning was certainly favourable for employment and associated economic security and social advancement. There was a close link between learning and access to church offices. 'From the 1230s onward, popes employed Franciscans in a variety of prestigious offices, as chaplains, penitentiaries, legates, inquisitors, and, above all, as bishops and archbishops' (p. 179). Franciscan scholars were given several privileges: they were allowed meat; they were given free lodgings near the university; they had frequent access to the masters in theology; they were allowed books and access to libraries; they were exempt from attending all or part of the divine office; they often had their own room and a personal secretary.

More grandiose claims began to be made by some Franciscans. 'Along with making the pursuit of learning into an element of the saintly life,' some also asserted that 'the Franciscan life was the ideal state in which learning could be pursued' (p. 120). This was because of the other principal virtues that were central to the Franciscan charism, for example, poverty, humility and simplicity. But a side-effect of introducing the systematic study of theology in the order's mission was that 'they thus rendered the order's extraordinary fabric of equal brotherhood vulnerable and prone to transformation into a socially hierarchical structure' (p. 244), with the lay brothers and the unlearned at the bottom. This tendency was

reinforced by the significant, and often malign, influence of Joachim of Fiore (1135–1202) on Franciscan self-understanding and interpretation of their mission. Joachimite teaching about stages in salvation history and the special role of evangelical perfection led many Franciscans to believe that they constituted God's special troops, superior to other Christians, thereby undermining the humility that was so important to St Francis. Not only did this

cause great resentment among secular clergy, other signs of laxity and abuses cumulatively weakened the original vision and many Franciscans themselves lamented the fact that learning was being valued more than simplicity and humility. This led to serious tensions within the order.

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John Sullivan

The Franciscans and Art Patronage in Late Medieval Italy. By Louise Bordua. Pp. xiv, 242, Cambridge University Press, hardback '04, paperback '11, £22.85.

The construction and artistic decoration of the churches of San Francesco in Assisi and Santa Croce in Florence have generated lively debate among art historians in recent decades. This discourse – focused on two magnificent churches in Umbria and Tuscany – is broadened and receives an injection of new life from the research of Dr Louise Bordua, who studies the Franciscan churches of San Fermo Maggiore in Verona, San Lorenzo in Vicenza and the basilica del Santo in Padua. The four chapters of this attractive volume address the development of the Franciscan order and its art at the three churches; documentary evidence for these churches is particularly strong in comparison with Assisi and Florence. This text is richly accompanied by 74 illustrations of these churches. The order's bond with the local commune led to the provision of subsidies for building programmes. The commune of Vicenza granted a generous subsidy to the friars from 1290 onwards (p.18) and the commune at Padua made annual grants towards the construction of the new basilica, which was the second most important church in the Franciscan orbit. The friars attracted payments, legacies and other gifts from an army of benefactors; there are some instances of friars acting as donors, as happened at Assisi. Dr Bordua, a reader in the History of Art at Warwick University, cites a number of examples regarding the friars' contribution to the building of their churches. In each of these cities the friars were given churches or chapels which they enlarged or decorated in artistic schemes favoured by their order with a focus on the founder and his disciples esteemed for their sanctity. San Fermo Maggiore, for example, was a double basilica served by the Benedictines, whom Innocent IV removed on 10 May 1249, replacing them with the Franciscans. Although there were only six monks in residence, they did not implement the papal instructions until 1260 (p. 33). The friars in Vicenza exchanged their first church of San Francesco for San Lorenzo, one of the seven chapels annexed to the cathedral, in 1280. The friars in Padua moved to Santa Maria Mater Domini, where the body of St Anthony of Padua was interred. In the

early fourteenth century the friars embarked upon an artistic programme for the decoration of the basilica in Verona. The portrait of the wealthy lay benefactor, Guglielmo Castelbarco (†1320), is on the right side of the triumphal arch bearing a model of San Fermo Maggiore (p.40, plate 10). Daniele Gusmerio, formerly guardian of the friary, was a key figure in the artistic design of the church and is depicted on the left side of the triumphal arch in the upper church with the following inscription: *windows, painting, nave, choir and other things I, Daniel the pauper of Christ offer to you Christ* (pp.40/41, plate 12). The friars' work in making reparation for the shortcomings of their benefactors are glimpsed at San Lorenzo in Vicenza, where Friar Pace da Lugo supervised the construction of portals at San Lorenzo in Vicenza. His name and role as supervisor were acknowledged on the right entrance post of the façade portal of the church (p. 73, plate 37). He defended his confrère, Friar Nicolò da Vicenza, who spent two years working on two stone portals at San Lorenzo and was paid at a low rate (pp. 71, 79). He was required to haggle with the procurators of San Marco in Venice to release the funds that had been donated by Pietro da Marano (†1340), a wealthy courtier and adviser to the Scaglieri. The carving of the portals of San Lorenzo shows the friars acting as clerks, messengers, apologists and manual workers (p. 88). The basilica del Santo in Padua offers ample documentation and some instances of civic patronage and family chapels. From 1265 the commune of Padua made an annual offering of 4,000 lire for the construction of the basilica. A document from the previous year attests that friars worked alongside masons in the construction of the basilica in Padua (pp. 81, 100). Fifteen families held rights of usage to chapels in the basilica by the end of the fourteenth century; in a single case a chapel was shared with a confraternity. The extant documentation reveals that the friars were more involved with the endowment of these chapels than their decoration. The family was habitually granted burial rights and permission to paint or carve their emblem or coat of arms in the chapel. It was required to equip these

chapels and provide vestments, missals, etc. for the daily celebration of Masses for deceased members. Dr Bordua's findings distance her from the view that artistic programmes were determined by the order in a central manner and disseminated from Assisi. The evidence points to local consultation between the friars and their donors (e.g., pp. 33, 70, 115, 149).

Julian of Norwich: Theologian. By Denis Turner. Pp. xxvi, 262, New Haven/London, Yale University Press, 2011, \$29.97.

Mother Julian of Norwich is one of the Church's great mystics; and she appears to speak more intensely and relevantly to our own time than to any since her own. People do not generally think of her as a first-class theologian, the peer in that respect of Anselm, Bernard, Bonaventure or Aquinas. But Denys Turner argues, convincingly to my mind, that she deserves this accolade, for all that her work does not fit at all comfortably into the available theological taxonomies (systematic theology of the Scholastic stamp, monastic devotional commentary on the biblical text, mystical writing). When she was ill, and appeared to be dying, she had sixteen 'shewings', some in the form of visual images, some as words apparently spoken to her directly by the Lord, and the remainder as insights or 'understandings'. These provided the raw material for her theology, which consists in the 'Short Text' of *A Revelation of Love*, which is the first writing in English of which we can be sure that the author was a woman; and the 'Long Text', which she composed twenty or more years later. Meanwhile, she lived as an ' anchoress', a solitary life in a cell attached to a parish church.

The concept of the 'behovely', as Julian calls it, is a very important one in systematic theology, equivalent to what the scholastic writers would call '*convenientia*'. The closest modern equivalent, so far as I can see, is the 'appropriate'. According to the standard Catholic view (and this would presumably apply *a fortiori* to classical Protestants – some liberal Protestants, following Hegel, would differ), we cannot, in this present life at least, fully comprehend the meaning of such revealed mysteries as those of the Trinity and the Incarnation. But we can demonstrate that they are not self-contradictory; furthermore, we can show their relevance to the human condition, and even have a remote but very fruitful glimpse of their positive meaning. (This was emphasized especially, against 'fideism' at one extreme and 'rationalism' at the other, by the First Vatican Council.) Occamist or 'nominalist' theologians, as opposed to Thomists – Scotists lie somewhere in between –, obsessed as they are with logic, are inclined to confine themselves to demonstration that the mysteries are not contradictory; after that, what

Research into these three churches enriches the debate about the artistic decoration of Franciscan churches in the later thirteenth and fourteenth centuries.

St Edmund's College, Cambridge Michael Robson

God chooses to reveal about the divine self and intentions for humanity is simply to be ascribed to God's absolute power and sovereign will. No room is left here for *convenientia*, sp appropriateness or 'behoveliness'; which appears to the 'nominalist' temper improperly to constrict the unlimited range of divine choice.

Julian's 'showings' led her to meditate above all on the paradox of the infinity of the divine love and the reality of human sin, and the place of the Cross between them in the eternal scheme; the trend of her reflections is to show that the whole scheme is after all 'behovely', however difficult this is to conceive at first sight. 'The compassionate gaze' of God 'enclosed, foreclosed, the falling' of humanity 'itself. And Julian is sure that it is a better world in which the problem is solved than any world would be in which, because there had been no problem in the first place, there was no need for the solution' (210). But Julian had to win through to that conviction, which did not come easily to her. Dr. Turner is right to emphasize Julian's tough reasonableness, her refusal to be content with over-simple solutions to the problems which haunt her – the infinite love of God (which assures her that 'all manner of thing shall be well'), in juxtaposition with the magnitude of evil, and the fate of the damned. She remarks, of the Long Text, that she has not completed it to her satisfaction: 'This boke is begonne by Goddes gifte and his grace, but is not yet performed, as to my sight.' But that seems, again, appropriate, when what are at issue are mysteries inexhaustible to contemplation. One is reminded of Karl Rahner's dictum, that it is more or less blasphemous to treat Christian doctrines like little parcels of meaning to be unpacked, when they are rather like holes knocked in a wall opening onto an infinite view.

Dr. Turner writes very well; though he is a little too inclined, for my taste, to exploit in a sentimental way the factitious quaintness that Julian's 'middle English' can hardly fail to have, from our perspective in a much later year of Our Lord.

Calgary

Hugo Meynell

The Homiletic Writings of Archbishop Wulfstan: A Critical Study. By Joyce Tally Lionarons. Pp viii, 194, London, D. S. Brewer, 2010, \$66.00.

Professor Lionarons has written learned work on Archbishop Wulfstan's many homilies; her book is a worthy addition to the series *Anglo-Saxon Studies*. Wulfstan was a prominent churchman in the late 10th and early 11th centuries, but apart from his writings, little is known of his life or background. The author's focus is on determining what the Archbishop actually wrote; she expands the estimate of his writings through an analysis of his style and a study of the various poetic devices (alliteration metaphor etc.) he uses in his sermons. Another interesting topic is how the archbishop used his texts; on some occasions he seems mainly to have edited his sources rather than write something original.

Lionarons also examines major themes in the homilies, including the sacraments with a special focus on Baptism and Penance, reform of the clergy and laity, the Danish invasions, and the coming of the

Antichrist. The author devotes an entire chapter to each of these topics, which gives to her book a sense of thorough research.

A historian might wish for more context in the discussion of Wulfstan's themes. For example, how widespread was the concern for the coming of the Antichrist and the Apocalypse? What was the moral condition of the church during this period? Wulfstan used the word 'heretic' to describe any who were not Catholic, including pagans, but I wonder if there were any specific heretical groups during this period. The author lists such material in her excellent bibliography, but does not refer to this in her text.

Nevertheless, an excellent commentary and analysis of Wulfstan's work.

Colorado State University, Pueblo John Griffin

Archbishops Ralph D'Escures, William of Corbeil and Theobald of Bec: Heirs of Anselm and Ancestors of Becket. By Jean Truax. Pp. xi, 293, Burlington/Farnham, Ashgate, 2012, £19.99.

Truax follows her mentor Sally Vaughn (and more distantly Richard Southern) in looking at the three archbishops of Canterbury between the two 'greats', Anselm and Becket, to uncover to what extent trends and traditions begun with the invasion by William and the appointment of Lanfranc and then Anselm were continued by their three successors, and to what extent things had changed, which led finally and tragically to the 'blow up' between Henry II and Becket. Truax's main thesis is that the Normans started a 'Gelasian' tradition of 'cooperation' between king and archbishop – with the archbishop and the Church generally doing everything possible, including suffering periodic humiliations and exiles, to minimize the violence and maintain peace and unity in a society regularly upset by rivalries between heirs to the throne, rebellions by disgruntled barons, and disappointed candidates for vacant positions in church and state generally. Every institution, not excluding monasteries and cathedral chapters, seemed primarily motivated to defend its 'liberties', which meant their independence from control or taxes by other civil or ecclesial groups, and to exercise their traditional 'prerogatives' over other such groups, which were of course equally determined to defend *their* 'liberties'. A succession of noble churchmen sacrificed themselves for 'damage control', to keep the situation from descending into

an interminable civil war which, even as it was, occupied large swathes of the time period under study. Anglo-Normandy and the King of France were regularly at war, and there were imperial and anti-imperial factions vying for control of the papacy, with a resulting sequence of elections and a plurality of candidates claiming to be 'Pope', leading to schism, excommunication, interdict, and even combat. Truax sees this 'Gelasian' model gradually being superseded by a 'Gregorian' model promulgated by the great reforming Pope who saw the need to extricate the Church as much as possible from lay investiture and ecclesial fealty to civil overlords. This was a bloody battle, which would only really be won with the overthrow of the feudal system as a whole by the French Revolution. Truax's sympathies clearly lie with the 'Gelasian' model, but she neglects to ask the question about the price the Church, and society generally, had to pay, treating the symptoms rather than the causes for this outdated vestige of a barbaric age well past its 'use-by' date. When the end finally came, hatred inspired by the endemic injustice and corruption of the political system made its demise more painful than it had to be.

Heythrop College

Patrick Madigan

The English Benedictine Cathedral Priors: Rule and Practice, c. 1270–c. 1420. By Joan Greatrex. Pp. xv, 416, Oxford University Press, 2011, £80.00.

This is at last the sequel to Joan Greatrex's invaluable book: *Biographical Register of English Cathedral Priors of the Canterbury Province c. 1066–1540* (1997), with the added bonus that it includes the researches of Alan Piper (with Lynda Rollason) into the biographies of the monks of Durham, published as volume III of *The Durham Liber Vitae*. Dr Greatrex has thus been able to make comparisons between Canterbury, Durham, Worcester, Norwich, Rochester, and Ely. For some there is more evidence than others but the comparative method means that gaps can be filled with much more than mere conjecture. The aim was to take the Rule of St Benedict, consider what its ideals were and then to see how practice related to theory in the chosen monasteries, which were unusual in the Benedictine family because they had to accommodate to episcopal schedules and to life in towns.

The period has been chosen because in 1421 Henry V attempted to persuade the order to reform, a failed move briefly described in the conclusion. The introduction explains in general how the monasteries became cathedrals, what main differences this status made, and then briefly describes what in general is known about the recruits. The next section discusses the admission and clothing of aspirants. Here there is a most interesting account of selection methods, what trousseau was needed (there are lists of *necessaria*, for Ely and Canterbury), the first year (probation) including training the memory and recommended reading, and then the clothing ceremony. Section three discusses the routine of the monastic life up to and after ordination, with a discussion about lectors and lectures in the cloister and what we can know about the intellectual pursuits both in and outside it. Dr Greatrex has tried to discover how up-to-date the teaching was (very, is the answer). A proportion of these monks went to university, so she considers their numbers and funding, the provision of books for them and their discipline. She points out that there is evidence for continuing study even when monks came back from their university and even when they never attended.

The fourth section is a comparative study of the duties of senior monks, particularly as obedientiaries; each office is considered in turn, including those in charge of dependent cells. Then there is a section on the liturgical year, with a summary of what we know about the music used. The provision of music for liturgy is discussed, with details about organs and much of interest about extant music. A delightful touch is that for the singing of the 'O' antiphons each was assigned to a particular monk, and often attached to a particular office. So at Norwich 'O radix Jesse'

went to the gardener. This part also tells what is known about pittances, 'treats' and gifts within the cloister, as well as discussing gifts to outsiders. An interesting fact, new to this reviewer, was that Lenten fare could be more expensive than ordinary food, perhaps because some of it had to be bought in. The ceremony of mandatum on Holy Thursday is discussed. In Worcester individual monks washed the feet of two poor men and each monk had a sum of money to give the man. This may have happened elsewhere also. Other celebrations like Rogations also involved special food, with processions and offerings of alms. There is a section also about how the monks fulfilled their obligation to say masses for benefactors, how rotas were made and how boys from the almonry school might replace the clerks who in theory were servers. The role of monks as confessors is also detailed, as well as monks as preachers.

The routine by which blood-letting was practised is revealed, showing it as a small pause in the routine for monks who had to have time to recover. In the course of this section recreations are also discussed, showing, for instance the regular *ludi* at Durham, to Bearpark, though pointing out that these were not purely for holidays. The prior had to tour his properties.

Finally Dr Greatrex considers the way the old, the sick and the dead were treated. There are terrifying figures about deaths from plague. Dr Greatrex discusses the commemoration of the dead and how it was organised, with a short section on the sending of death notices, for instance. In addition to all this there are two appendixes, to show what can be known about reading on Grammar (with all its ramifications) and History. The whole work is equipped with a voluminous bibliography, and an excellent index.

The amount of scholarly work involved here is prodigious but Dr Greatrex has been very careful to explain just how much we cannot know, particularly about the inner, spiritual lives of these men, whom we mostly meet in administrative and financial records and far less in what they wrote and thought. Her conclusions are rather sombre; she thinks, like David Knowles, that the last generation of Benedictines may have suffered from *accidie*. There is no evidence of serious loss of numbers but they do not seem to have been reform-minded. She refuses, however, to accept a picture of terminal decline, and the account given here, up to 1421 certainly, does not suggest it. Perhaps we are all too deferential to Knowles. He was a great man but he certainly had a sharp personal axe to grind about the way the Rule ought to be interpreted. Dr Greatrex does not explain how the Ben-

edictines were supposed to escape involvement in the world; there is a further book to be written, following this one, about the next phase and about the forces which allowed Henry VIII to despoil all this. But this

by itself is a wonderful achievement and will no doubt remain standard for many years.

Durham

Margaret Harvey

The Late Medieval English Church: Vitality and Vulnerability before the Break with Rome. By G.W. Bernard. Pp. x, 304, Yale University Press, 2012, \$30.40.

This is a remarkable book, important reading for any serious scholar of the late medieval English Church. Very remarkable is the extent of Professor Bernard's reading, as evidenced in the endnotes, which cover 51 densely packed pages (pp. 238–288) and extend to a wide range of primary sources as well as the full spectrum of recent scholarship. Recent writers are not just mentioned but their findings and conclusions are evaluated – both sympathetically and with criticisms – in these endnotes as well as in the chapters of the book.

The 'Hunne affair' sets the scene in the first chapter. The death in December 1514 of Richard Hunne, a prosperous London merchant suspected of Lollardy, in his cell in the Lollards' Tower within St Paul's Cathedral, London, remains mysterious. Did he take his own life, as the official verdict recorded, or was he murdered, as later accounts suggest? The intriguing episode reveals much about the late medieval Church and is used as the springboard for the eight chapters that follow.

The approach in the early chapters is decidedly 'top-down', beginning with the monarchy. Thus chapter 2, entitled 'The Monarchical Church', begins with the clear statement: '... the late medieval English church was a monarchical church, that is to say, in practice, kings exercised a great deal of control, a largely determining control, over the activities of the church' (p. 17). King Henry V is seen as the key initiator of this royal control of the church and he was largely followed by his successors in the monarchy. Bishops are the focus of chapter 3. They were administrators more than scholars or pastoral figures, Bernard argues, with demanding roles somewhat like 'modern university vice-chancellors' (p. 71). Cardinal Wolsey receives more praise than is usually accorded to him. Clergy are the focus of chapter 3. Their role was widely accepted even if they were criticized for their behavior. They were numerous: the bishop of Exeter ordained 1,005 clergy on one day in 1305 (p. 76)! And numbers were still high on the eve of the Reformation. The parish clergy are evaluated as an integral of local society (p. 81): thus the reader is led into the next two chapters.

Chapters 5 and 6 focus on the laity and are entitled respectively 'Lay knowledge' and 'Lay activity'. At the start of chapter 5 Bernard emphasizes again the importance of the monarchy: 'The late medieval English church was very much a monarchical church'

(p. 87). Many scholars would argue for a more 'from below' approach; even so, the laity are treated sympathetically and in their own right. Liturgy, confession and communion are the topics of chapter 5, thus rightly reminding readers that practices which may seem closer to 'activity' were also intellectual. The chance survival of the inventories of vestments and other liturgical items, which were compiled by the parish churches of Norfolk in 1368 (pp. 95–6), reveals the astonishing extent of popular support for elaborate liturgies. Chapter 6 focuses on confraternities, chantries and pilgrimages. Their social and humanitarian dimensions, as well as their more obviously religious aspects, are brought out well. In both these chapters the varying interpretations of recent historians are particularly well drawn out.

The sequence of the last three chapters, entitled 'Criticism', 'Monasteries' and 'Heresy', may appear strange. Yet somehow they fit together. There was criticism of the clergy but more on account of their failures than of anticlericalism as such: the laity wanted a better clergy rather than their abolition or fundamental reformation. In this respect Bernard departs from the early views of A.G. Dickens and a long-established Protestant historiography. Religious orders, too, of both men and women, lacked the energy and creativity of an earlier period and were open to criticism – as Chaucer and other writers exemplified. Even so this negative side should not be exaggerated: the ease with which members of religious orders accepted the dissolution of their way of life under king Henry VIII remains hard to explain. Certainly there were elements of weariness and worldliness, yet the massive religious, social and economic implications of this dissolution became apparent only after it had occurred. Criticism could be more radical, which in late medieval England came most notably from Wyclif and the Lollards. They provided the most radical and coherent criticism to be found anywhere within late medieval western Christendom and their teachings anticipated much of the sixteenth century Reformation. They have been the focus of much scholarship in recent years. Nevertheless their importance in late medieval England should be kept in proportion: they remained very much a minority group, rather than mainstream.

The short 'Preface' (pp. vii–x) nicely describes how Barnard came to write this book, his conversion

from the traditional Protestant view of the late medieval English church to the much more complex account that he now gives us. The work concludes with a very brief 'Epilogue' (pp. 236–7). Here a fuller account of the author's own conclusions, to complement the wide range of possible interpretations which he provides so well in the rest of the book, as well as to indicate more fully why the English Reformation occurred notwithstanding so much contrary evidence

which Bernard has provided in the book, would have been welcome. The Index (pp. 289–304) is full regarding persons and places but sparse on subjects. Surprisingly there is no Bibliography: in view of the remarkable range of primary and secondary sources cited in the book, an ordered listing of them all would have been welcome.

The Gregorian University, Rome Norman Tanner

Templars and Hospitallers as Professed Religious in the Holy Land. By Jonathan Riley-Smith. Pp. xi, 151, University of Notre Dame Press, 2010, \$25.00.

In his prologue to *Templars and Hospitallers as Professed Religious in the Holy Land* Jonathan Riley-Smith refers to the enduring impression that the military orders of the Templars and the Hospitallers were 'very similar to one another' – an impression which had already been given by the orders' contemporaries in the late thirteenth century. One of the main objects of his book, based on the Robert M. Conway Lectures he delivered at the University of Notre Dame, is to show how they differed.

Certainly the two orders, both dating from the early twelfth century, had much in common. Their members were professed religious, but they had the right, customarily denied to priests, to bear arms. Both first distinguished themselves in Palestine and Syria at the time of the Crusades, even if, from the middle of the twelfth century, most of their members were running the estates in the West on which the Orders were largely dependant financially. They both differed from the secular Orders of Chivalry in that the military Orders were subject to the Church and cannon law, while the Orders of Chivalry were subject to their princely founders and their successors. Yet the purposes for which the Templars and the Hospitallers were founded also differed. As their name implies, the Hospitallers, the earlier of the two, originally specialised in nursing and in running the hospitals for which they have been famous through the ages. Not only were the hospitals of remarkably high quality at all times, but they made no religious distinction between their patients. The infirmaries were open to Christians, Jews and Muslims, and would even appear to have observed their various dietary requirements. Even if, as Professor Riley-Smith puts it, 'nursing always remained a priority' for them, from the fourteenth to the eighteenth centuries, the period in which they moved first to Rhodes and then to Malta, they nevertheless 'saw themselves

more in the role of warriors than of nurses'. The Templars, on the other hand, were warriors from the start. Although open to a large section of society, their order was, on the whole, more aristocratic than that of the Hospitallers, and certainly more authoritarian. The Templars' chapters-general had far less authority than their grand masters – and this in contrast to the Hospitallers, whose chapters-general were more powerful and consequently more effective.

Although Riley-Smith's analysis of the organisation of the two Orders stops short of the tragic end of the Templars, he does indeed refer briefly to their suppression in 1312 and adds: 'The common opinion that the Templars were innocent of all the charges levelled against them is now being challenged, and it is being suggested that in some commanderies postulants were forced into a blasphemous rite of passage involving the denial of Christ'. His account of the Order, moreover, does much to explain its fragility in the early fourteenth century. The Templars were markedly conservative and resistant to change. The powerful grand masters seldom visited them. This left the system open to abuse. The Hospitallers, on the other hand, were always seen as closer to the Church and with a greater respect for its traditions. They were rewarded accordingly, inheriting a number of the Templar estates, but they also succeeded in justifying the trust of the Church. The infirmaries they built, in Cyprus, Rhodes and Malta, were exemplary.

Written by the greatest living expert on the Crusades, *Templars and Hospitallers as Professed Religious in the Holy Land*, with its notes and its rich bibliography, will be of the greatest use to students of the field and should be on the reading list of anyone taking a course in medieval history.

The Warburg Institute, London Alastair Hamilton

Meister Eckhart: Master of Mystics. By Richard Woods. Pp. xv, 204, NY/London, Continuum, 2011, \$22.95.

The Order of Preachers has not been without its share of men and women mystics since it was founded in

the 12th century by Dominic Guzman. Among those who come immediately to mind are St. Catherine of

Sienna, St. Thomas Aquinas, and Meister Eckhart von Hochheim. Catherine was more called early to the mystic life by visions granted in her childhood rather than one she intentionally sought. Aquinas ecstatic visions occurred later in his life, culminating in one so transcendent that he came to view all things, including his works as straw. He died three years later to join the Lord he had sought and served since age five. Canonized fifty years after his death in 1274 he has continued to enjoy renown among Roman Catholics and even non-Romans (the Anglican Church celebrates his feast in its liturgical calendar) that while it may have ebbed in some epochs was never totally eclipsed among church thinkers since. Catherine was canonized in 1461 and declared a Doctor of the Church in 1970.

No such honours were accorded to Meister Eckhart. A Dominican of the generation that immediately followed the Angelic Doctor, Eckhart had harder row to hoe in this regard. Unlike his mentors and guides like St. Albert the Great and Aquinas whose reputations grew out of their academic careers, most of Eckhart's life and works were more pastorally focused, leaving a large legacy of sermons and spiritual advice rather than mostly systematic philosophical and theological writings, although he made laudable contributions in these areas as well. Both these areas of endeavour inspired later generations of spiritual guides such as John Tauler and Henry Suso.

In later life, both Eckhart and Aquinas were formally accused of heresy. The latter's high standing as an often employed expert by the papal court offered him a measure of protection against such charges. Unfortunately for Eckhart's reputation, certain of his teachings were condemned by a papal bull in 1329. In spite of the fact that contemporary efforts to rescind the edict have not yet born fruit, Eckhart's writings, spiritual treatises and sermons, both in their original and translations, are enjoying high popularity. Pope John Paul II paid at least one public compliment to him. The web page of one major US bookseller's list some 150 titles of primary and secondary sources devoted exclusively to his contributions or where they played an influential role in the works of others.

The books first five chapters deal with the life, circumstances and foundational sources in this great 'thinker's way to God.' A devotion to intellectual development was the required first stage of the process that would lead to the soul forming a more perfect union with God and the many and varied elements that went into his world view are treated in these chapters. Woods maintains that while Eckhart was eclectic as to the sources he tapped, not only Christian and Jewish but Islamic ones as well, and the philosophical influence gaining dominance in his day (the Aristotelian cosmology and metaphysical logic successfully promoted by Albert and Aquinas), Eck-

hart's major structural foundation was Christian Neo-Platonism which he amended by including charitable action and divine grace as essential elements of the mystical experience. It is not surprising that he would have favoured such a model. Not only was it employed among the early patristic writers of both the east and west, including Augustine, but it was not compromised by the deism inherent in the Stagirite's system with which his medieval devotees had to contend. As a system for explaining the experiences of this world, Aristoteleanism held many advantages over the more ethereal noetic of Platonic and Plotinian systems. For those mystically interested in the other-worldly, however, a paradigm that saw the natural world as a pale imitation of more perfect realm of ideal realities was bound to elicit greater appeal.

The deficiency such systems share, whether philosophical or religious, is in their trying to explain what eye and ear has not seen nor heard in words formulated to denote tangible realities. As with his philosophical and theological predecessors, Eckhart is caught in a linguistic double ambiguity. Even the most elaborately defined words of ordinary language fail to completely convey the fullness of the concepts they denote, and the ideas themselves are but pale imitations of the reality they image. If this is true of natural things, how much more so is this ambiguity complicated when applied to the supersensible through paradox and metaphors? In such forms, misunderstandings easily arise and it is not surprising that he fell afoul of more literately minded ecclesiastical superiors who had less appreciation for the allegorical and analogical. Eckhart's German writings were further complicated by the fact that he had to employ terms that did not mean the same, or were nuanced differently, from one region to another.

The remaining chapters examine the elements involved in walking the 'wayless way' of Eckhart's mystical path. He does not aim at helping the initiate achieve the kind of ecstatic state enjoyed by some – these are given by God as he chooses not as one 'deserves' through practices – or of proposing a singular asceticism by which one can achieve some measure of a mystical state. His focus is on achieving holiness. His approach is apophatic. Individuals have different points of departure according to their own conditions which they must take into account as they begin the journey. There is, however, no question as to what the process is supposed to achieve. In his *Talks of Instruction* he writes: 'A man should be pervaded with God's presence, transformed with the form of his beloved God, and made essential by Him, so that God's presence shines for him *without any effort* . . . first there must be thought and attentive study, just as with a pupil in any art.' The shining presence is made known to others by the works it motivates.

It follows, then, that the *sine-qua-non* attitude that must be adopted by the novice is one of detachment (treated in Chapter 6), not only from the things of this world but from one's very self. Only then can the trap of being distracted from God through acquisitiveness of material things or, worse, the Narcissistic delusion of fully owning oneself be avoided. He does not propose a flight-into-the-desert rejection of natural things, but that one deal with them with the understanding that God is in them as he is in each individual. Without detachment, one cannot achieve the 'blank mind' that Eckhart proposes as the most desirable state of prayer.

Chapters 8, 9 and 11 deal with contemplation, prayer, and suffering respectively. These are the ways by which detachment is nurtured and increased. The first two the learner can actively engage, the latter passively accept. Unlike some penitentials of the epoch who actively sought pain for its own sake,

Eckhart recommends accepting it in conformity with the divine will and recognizing that God suffers along with us as well. As a shared human/divine experience it is a way of growing closer to God and a disposition to future better health and wellness that affects not only suffering individuals but radiates out beyond them as well.

It is not surprising that as one who drew from so many religious and secular sources, Eckhart has come to enjoy a measure of popularity not only among Christians but Muslims, Hindus and Buddhists as well. That topic would be deserving of a chapter in its own right, not only a paragraph in the epilogue, but the author does include titles in the bibliography that can be accessed by anyone interested in examining this aspect of Eckhart's contribution more fully.

Barry University

Charles Cassini

Abbot Joachim of Fiore and Joachimism: Selected Articles. By E. Randolph Daniel. Pp. xii, 360, Farnham/Burlington, Ashgate, 2011, \$122.98.

The volume under review consists of eighteen articles, four of which are published here for the first time while one (no. ix) had been printed twice before. One of the items, no. xvi, was co-authored with Kathryn Kerby-Fulton. A review article on recent editions and studies of Joachim of Fiore and his teachings serves as introduction to the book. This is followed by an analysis of the abbot's only partially known treatise *De unitate seu de essentia trinitatis* which proposed a threefold pattern of history in analogy to the Trinity. The three *status* of Father, Son and Holy Spirit seem to be irreconcilable with a two-phase development discussed in other treatises, two *tempora* consisting of the time up to Christ and from Christ to the end of time. Daniel can show that the two schemes are complementary, representing different perspectives of history. Joachim of Fiore did not attempt to divide history into successive, strictly autonomous phases but allowed concurrent evolutions. The third text in the volume, a critical edition of the treatise *De ultimis tribulationibus* based on four of the seven known manuscripts, introduces another of the abbot's prophecies. Despite his roots in Augustinian theology, Joachim is shown to have belonged to the innovators of the twelfth century; his interpretation of the Apocalypse as the ultimate goal of history rather than a mere allegory is presented as one of the elements which helped to create the new mentality which characterises the intellectual change of this time. The fifth article, 'A New Understanding of Joachim', begins with a helpful survey of the historiography up to 1999 to turn into an analysis of Joachim's views of contemporary history. The next study, 'Abbot Joachim of

Fiore and the Conversion of the Jews', begins with a biographical sketch in order to assess Gaufrid of Auxerre's claim that the abbot was born a Jew, a statement which can neither be proved or disproved. However, their role at the end of history rather than personal autobiographical concerns may have been a powerful motive for the abbot's interest in the Jews. Daniel's argument that they are seen as different because of their literal interpretation of God's promise is plausible. According to Joachim's treatise *Adversus Iudeos* this was about to change at the time of their conversion. Since this even was approaching, the Jews were to be treated with consideration and mercy by the Christians. Article no. vii on the abbot's views of the antichrist suggests that Joachim preferred a spiritual rather than a literal interpretation of the Apocalypse. The Calabrian abbot is not presented as a millenarian but as a theologian who expected a gradual evolution of the Church in the predicted historical cycles, a notion repeated in other articles in the collection, e.g. no. viii, 'Heresy and Abbot Joachim of Fiore'. Two contributions deal with English Joachimism, no. xvi, a study of the Columbinus prophecy, a text assumed to have been popular in England even though the authorship is unknown. Four versions of the treatise are given in the appendix to the article. In no. xvii, 'Henry of Kirkstede's *De antichristo et de fine mundi*', a discussion of the sources is followed by a comparison with similar treatises by other English authors and an edition of the text. Seven of the articles address the important question of Joachim's influence on the Franciscans (nos. ix, x, xi, xii, xiii, xiv, xv). The first, 'A re-Examination of the

Origins of Franciscan Joachimism' traces the Franciscan link back to Salimbene's chronicle while the next study, 'The Manuscripts of the Liber de Concordia and early Joachimism' attributes ms. Vat. lat. 4860 to a Franciscan, implying the existence of an early link between the Minorites and the teachings of the Cistercian abbot. Daniel's theme in article no. xi, 'Apocalyptic Conversion: The Joachite Alternative to the Crusades', is Joachim's criticism of the holy war, a subject which appears not to be linked to Franciscan issues at first sight. The study reveals an evolution of Joachim's reflections in which the crusades were initially seen as an important element in the unfolding of history. However, towards the end of his life the abbot regarded the holy war as a fruitless exercise because the full force of the Saracens was still to emerge. Their defeat would not be brought about by force but by argument, a task to be achieved by new religious orders of preachers. Peter of John Olivi is credited with the identification of the Franciscans as the missionaries who would fulfil this role. In this way Joachite prophecy became an important motivation for the Minorites. Article no. xii, 'Reformist Apocalypticism and the Friars Minor' places abbot Joachim firmly in the twelfth-century tradition of prophecy which also includes Gerhoch of Reichersberg and Hildegard of Bingen. Despite the promise in the title, the role of John of Parma, Hugh of Digne, Gerard of Borgo San Donnino and Bonaventure is not as clearly defined. As assessment of the role of prophecy for the early Franciscans follows in 'Reformers or Revolutionaries? Sabatier, Francis and Joachim'

which is published here for the first time. Following an interesting survey of the cultural and ideological context of Franciscan studies in the nineteenth and twentieth centuries, Daniel repeats an earlier conclusion which presented Joachim of Fiore as a reformer rather than a figure hoping for radical break in history. The attitudes of his Franciscan followers are seen in the same way. Another important subject is addressed in 'St Bonaventure's Debt to Joachim' where Daniel shows that Bonaventure used Joachim's *secunda diffinitio* rather than the *prima diffinitio* as previously thought. The conclusions allow Daniel to locate the development of Bonaventure's apocalyptic eschatology in the period after his accession as the order's minister general. The final contribution to the volume, 'Medieval Apocalypticism, Millennialism and Violence' offers an interesting survey of different types of apocalyptic belief between the early middle ages and the seventeenth century. The article includes summaries of long-term historical change where a greater degree of precision would have been welcome (to avoid e.g. references to a 'duchy' of Brandenburg or a 'foundation' of Austria, p. 280). The sequence of the articles is not strictly thematic throughout nor are the texts presented in the chronology of their first appearance in print. Unfortunately the mechanical reproduction technique used in the series does not allow an update of bibliographical references. Overall the volume offers a splendid introduction into medieval apocalyptic thought.

University of Birmingham

Jens Röhrkasten

Catherine of Siena: A Passionate Life. By Don Brophy. Pp. 304, London, Darton, Longman and Todd, 2011, £16.99.

In the *Divine Comedy*, Dante mentions the *Fontebranda* fountain in Siena. Soon after this was written, in 1347, a baby girl was born to a family in that district. Sixteen years later, this girl Catherine saw above the dome of Sienna's *San Domenico* church, a scene like the representations of the angels and saints which decorated the churches and cathedrals of medieval Italy. In the centre was Christ, dressed in the papal robes, and he made the sign of the cross over her head.

This sets the tone for the life of Catherine of Siena. She dedicated herself to holiness with startling vigour. Her parents were persuaded to give her a room in their house where she could throw herself into rigorous asceticism. She went on to be accepted as a Mantellata, one of the Sisters of Penance of St. Dominic, being accepted into the community as they sang *Veni Sancti Spiritus*. She continued in relentless fasting, solitude and contemplation, in the midst of which she had another vision. From amongst the heavenly host, Mary led her to Christ himself, who

placed a ring on her finger and said, 'I espouse you to me in faith'.

Around this time Catherine's understanding of her calling changes. She left the *Fontebranda*, and moved near to the central *Piazza del Campo*. She began to develop a reputation that extended beyond the Tuscan hills, and followers gathered about her, and were termed her '*famiglia*'. She went on to be a key figure in the socio-political controversies of the day. These included the papal abandonment of Rome. In 1305 Clement V had settled in Avignon on the lower Rhône. In 1367 Catherine went there, and was instrumental in the pope's return. She was also passionately involved in calling for church reform. The papal court had been nicknamed by Petrarch 'Babylon on the Rhône', and was well-known for selling church offices for profit. There is also another matter which is, perhaps, somewhat difficult for a contemporary observer to settle with Catherine's vocation. She tried to gather followers for Gregory XI's crusade, aimed primarily at holding back Turkish advances in the

Adriatic, but also, it was hoped, at reclaiming the Holy Land.

Her crusade letters will probably sit uneasily with some readers of this book. One from 1375 speaks of 'wicked unbelieving dogs who have possession of what is ours' (p. 116). Of course, with the gap in time between Catherine's life and ours, there are many points in which the reader may notice two very different ages coming-up against each other. For example, Catherine's merciless fasting from childhood gave her an aversion to food, and she would consume bitter herbs to induce vomiting because her metabolism was wracked with pain after eating. One great strength of this biography is that Don Brophy is able to navigate the boundaries between our age and Catherine's with a marked sensitivity to both sides, leaving the final judgement open, in the hands of the reader. As regards Catherine's eating problems, for example, he is able to acknowledge that recent research in this area would suggest that this rigorous fasting amongst women in the medieval age appears to be a form of what we call *anorexia nervosa*. Brophy's leaving open the final word on matters such as this shows a rare blend of both an awareness for the contemporary mindset, and a deep understanding of

catholic mysticism on its own terms. However, on the issue of Catherine's crusading letters, some readers may perhaps be left feeling that a similar point of tension between the values of her age and ours, is left somewhat unaddressed.

Perhaps this biography could benefit from more attention to Catherine's ideas. It is intriguing, for example, that an uneducated laywoman speaks of in language apparently clothed in philosophical conceptualities, speaking of God 'first/eternal Truth' (p. 162/172). However, Brophy's decision not to go into too much detail here, is justified by the sheer readability of this book. As biographies of medieval saints go, there are probably few as engaging for the contemporary reader as this, and if the reader wishes to know more, it is amply stocked with editorial notes and an extended bibliography, without using cumbersome scholarly footnotes in the texts itself. An emphasis on narrative, not critical evaluation, is probably more in keeping with the spirit of Catherine's own endeavours, and is, one feels from this book, probably the best way to communicate her remarkable passion to readers in the 21st Century.

King's College, London

Jacob Phillips

Creating Augustine: Interpreting Augustine and Augustinianism in the Later Middle Ages. By E. L. Saak. Pp. xv, 258, Oxford University Press, 2012, £65.00.

The Augustinian Hermits were founded in the 'Great Union' of 1256, but the key event in the history of the order occurred in 1327 when Pope John XXII granted the petition of the Prior General, William of Cremona, that the Hermits should be given joint custody of Augustine's body in Pavia along with the Augustinian Canons. This act granted prestige and legitimacy to the Hermits, and opened the door to their tracing their origin back to Augustine himself. Indeed, they would claim to have received the Augustinian rule *prior* to the Canons and to be a more authentic representation of the 'religion' of Augustine, who led and taught the most perfect form of Christian life, combining the *vita contemplativa* and the *vita activa*. This is a fascinating study of an order whose rapid rise and decline after the Reformation – and whose leading prestige and power during the 14th, 15th, and 16th centuries – has been largely lost to view. The rivalry of the Hermits not only with the Canons but also with the Franciscans involved the program of church reform and the widespread attempt to recover the true 'apostolic life', and thus the question of which order – and which founder (in their later construction and reception) – presented the closest approximation to Jesus. This was no recondite speculation in advanced spirituality, but an intensely practical and political issue involving the question whether the Church should be allowed to own property (which certain

branches of the Franciscans denied), the rivalry over jurisdiction between the Pope and the Emperor Louis of Bavaria, and the place of leisure time, curiosity, and study in the context of a general reform of the Church. The Hermits sided with the papacy against the emperor (and the Franciscans), and thus enjoyed a startling ascendancy. As Saak demonstrates, the Augustinian Hermits could legitimately be said to have ushered in both the Renaissance and the Reformation. The great Italian humanist Petrarch was close to the Hermits, and Martin Luther was himself a Hermit and first expended himself to reform them back to a rigorous observance before attempting to reform the entire Church.

That the Renaissance and Reformation went together can strike some as contradictory, but perhaps the deeper lesson is historical – that the western Church's 'forced marriage' with the warlike barbarian peoples through feudalism, absolute monarchy, and concomitant ecclesiological hierarchy and privilege, was coming to an end, its goal achieved; the early modern period had begun. It would take centuries more for this process to become complete, but with the Hermits the first steps had been taken. Saak is to be congratulated for having uncovered and restored a proper appreciation for their achievement.

Heythrop College

Patrick Madigan

The Tribunal of Zaragoza and Crypto-Judaism, 1484–1515. By Anna Ysabel D'Abrera. Pp. viii, 240, Turnhout, Belgium, Brepols, 2008, \$71.00.

Whereas an earlier generation of Jewish apologists, such as Yitzhak Baer and Haim Beinart, accepted the historical archives of the Spanish Inquisition as basically accurate, but attributed the attack on the *conversos* to a dramatic rise in Anti-Semitism, economic resentment, and racial scapegoating, the more recent generation of Ben Zion Netanyahu and Norman Roth call into question the archives as an accurate picture of the beliefs and practices of the 'New Christians'. In this latter view the majority of the *conversos* were assimilated and sincere Christians, and the charges of Judaizing were trumped up and without foundation, due to the negative motives mentioned above, that even the trained Dominican inquisitors were unable to free themselves from. D'Abrera has little difficulty showing the overwhelming evidence that the manuals and practices of the Inquisition, going back to similar inquisitions against the Cathars, were sensitive and sophisticated tools for separating truth from fiction, and thus that many *conversos* were indeed maintaining Judaizing practices. The real revelation of this book for Anglophone readers is the startlingly revised social picture it gives of the Iberian peninsula as Ferdinand and Isabella united Aragon and Castile, and power relations between various groups in the area were re-negotiated.

Jews had advanced to high positions in *Andalus* under their Islamic overlords, but after the long and difficult *reconquista*, remaining Jewish and occupying a high position was more difficult. Under social pressure, many Jews did convert – and they quickly formed an upwardly-mobile and closed group (to 'Old Christians' – unless they were noble or rich). This allowed them to again occupy the most powerful positions in the kingdom. Thus the *conversos* were

not marginalized and poor; on the contrary, it was the 'Old Christians' who came to feel marginalized and poor! The New Christians continued to live in the same places and socialize with their Jewish neighbours, they married among themselves and grew rich and prosperous – an elite and closed sub-group within the Christian population. In Castile Isabella employed three New Christians as her principal secretaries. The top five posts in the kingdom of Aragon were occupied by *conversos*. One *converso*, Alfonso de la Cavalleria, vice-chancellor to Ferdinand, obtained a dispensation from the Pope against a trial for his part in the murder of the inquisitor Pedro Arbues, supposedly boasting 'the King has more need of me than I of him.' (p. 47)

There is no necessary contradiction between saying these *conversos* were sincere Christians and that they carried on Jewish rituals and practices – the lighting of the Sabbath candle, the dietary regulations, etc. We would call them today 'Jews for Jesus'. The trouble was that, in the insecure political, social, and religious climate of the period, neither of the other dominant groups – Jews or 'Old' Christians – were willing to accept this. To Old Christians they were Jews who had never really converted, and to the majority of rabbis, they were traitors to the Law and their national heritage. Their economic ascendancy only added intolerable insult to this suspicion of fundamental mendacity and betrayal. The *conversos* had found a strategy for survival and success during a difficult period, but in the end they became the victims of this same strategy.

Heythrop Journal

Patrick Madigan

Holy Scripture and the Quest for Authority at the End of the Middle Ages. By Ian Christopher Levy. Pp. xvi, 320, Notre Dame IN, University of Notre Dame Press, 2012, \$19.00.

The late fourteenth and early fifteenth centuries were a challenging time for the catholic church. For forty years the papacy was divided by the rivalries of the Great Schism; alongside conciliar theory was consolidated as a challenge to papal monarchical authority. At Oxford the radical theology of John Wyclif caused an outcry, provoked a crisis within the English church, and (as contemporaries judged) generated the Lollard heresy. At the other side of Europe, in Bohemia, originating in similar theological challenges produced by John Hus but compounded by local political circumstances, the Hussite revolution sparked off a destructive cycle of warfare and religious radicalism.

Against this expansive background, Ian Christopher Levy deals with the core concern of this volume: the contemporary debates which reveal attitudes to scripture and its status and authority, and in consequence tackle the issue of the location of supreme doctrinal authority within the church. While less dramatic than the other contemporary crises, the point at issue here was in some respects the most significant and fundamental of them all, for it addressed the most basic issues of the legitimacy and institutional authority of the church as it had endured throughout history. At its heart was the question of how far Christianity contained an interpretative *magisterium* which could make normative doctrinal pronouncements which all

Christians (or at least, in terms of these specific debates, all Catholics) should accept.

As in much of Levy's other work, the starting point is Wyclif. Here, given the focus on the scriptures, things unsurprisingly spread out from the long-held view – one here fundamentally challenged – that Wyclif was an advocate of *sola scriptura*, demanding that all doctrines and practices be founded (or grounded) on biblical authority. Wyclif, however, only acquires this catalytic role for the volume in chapter 2; the first chapter, as a kind of prologue, surveys the range of 'Facets of Authority in the Late Medieval Church', with comments on the claims not only of scripture, but also of theologians and canonists, and the pope. This may be an introduction to the book; it is also an important introduction to the general debates about authority within the church as a whole, mainly in the twelfth to mid-fourteenth centuries.

The emphasis on Wyclif as an individual thinker sets the tone for much of the rest of the volume. Most of the chapters focus on individual thinkers, using them as the nodal points of analyses which then spread out further (sometimes much further). Thus, as an immediate respondent to Wyclif, 'The Ambivalent Friar: William Woodford' is the centre of attention in chapter 3; while the later critic of Wyclif, Thomas Netter, is dissected in chapter 4. These three chapters clearly fit together as part of a unified discussion of the situation in England. Chapter 5 spreads the net more widely, examining 'A Falling Out: Hussites and their Czech Opponents'. This looks at the complex partisan stances in the debates over scriptural and ecclesial authority generated in Bohemia by and in

response to the activities of John Hus, allegedly as a disciple of Wyclif. This is a significant and useful addition to the available English writing on the Hussite period, even if its chronological coverage tails off in the 1430s. Chapter 6 again reflects a significant shift in focus, turning attention to a thinker who is proving almost as problematic for modern scholarship as Wyclif: Jean Gerson. 'Approaching Final Authority: Gerson and the Conciliarists', tackles Gerson in the context of the Council of Constance and its *putsch* against the papacy, as he struggled to articulate an alternative theory of authority within the church which could actually provide a realistic and practical challenge to papalism. Conciliarism was all very well in theory, but it never actually worked out how it could be implemented in other contexts. As Levy appropriately entitles his final chapter, there was 'An Enduring Dilemma'. Here that dilemma is largely reflected through the writings of Reginald Pecock and his opponent John Bury.

This is a highly readable, valuable, and thought-provoking volume. It certainly consolidates its author's place among historically-minded theologians (or theologically-minded historians). It valuably illuminates debates and controversies, challenges long-held academic opinions, and shatters the myth of the monolithic medieval church. Undergraduates may find it difficult to deal with (which may be a good reason to include it on their reading lists), but those on whom they increasingly rely for 'the answers' will certainly need to read it.

University of Birmingham, UK R. N. Swanson

Books under Suspicion: Censorship and Tolerance of Revelatory Writing in Late Medieval England. By Kathryn Kerby-Fulton. Pp. lii, 562, University of Notre Dame Press, Notre Dame IN. 2006 (pbk 2011), \$29.01.

First published in 2006, Kathryn Kerby-Fulton's major discussion of books of perhaps questionable orthodoxy which were circulating in England between c.1350 and c.1450 has now been issued in paperback. It remains an impressive work, suggesting and revealing the complex theological undercurrents in texts produced in the period which generated many of the most-discussed works and authors in medieval English literature, and also gave birth to Lollardy, 'the English heresy'.

Among other things the book dispels myths, notably the one that, before John Wyclif raised his voice and summoned up a following of heretics (if they were his followers), England was strikingly free of the taint of doctrinal deviance. The case for the presence of heresy before Wycliffe, and of non-Wycliffite heresies into the fifteenth century, is consistently made throughout the volume. The book indeed opens (pp. xix–lii) with a lengthy 'Chronol-

ogy of Non-Wycliffite Cases of Heresy and Related Events in Post-Conquest England and Ireland, with Other Relevant Dates', which extends up to 1457 and the condemnation of Reginald Pecock (whose writings make occasional appearances in the analysis). Most are dated to before 1380, with the majority being 'related events' which makes the number of actual heresy cases in England rather limited.

In asserting and demonstrating that there was a current of heresy in pre-Wycliffite English thought and writings, and tracing its influence through into the fifteenth century, Kerby-Fulton offers a significant revision of the standard picture of late medieval English doctrinal awareness and engagement. It is a powerful argument, backed up by a truly impressive display of scholarship. Ten chapters deal with a wide-ranging run of texts; three additional 'case studies' are almost chapter-length themselves. The concerns of

the former are revealed in their titles, including 'Silencing optimism: the criminalizing of alternative salvation histories' (Chapter 1); 'Two thirteenth-century condemned books and their revival: Amourian eschatology [i.e. William of St Amour], antimendicant polemic, and Ricardian literature, 1358–1389' (Chapter 3); '“Extra fidem scripture”: attitudes toward non-biblical vision in Great Schism England and the vogue for Hildegardiana [the works of Hildegard of Bingen]' (Chapter 4); and the two chapters dealing with individual 'Oxford professors under inquisition' – Chapter 9 on 'Ockham, radical salvation theology, and the “creation of doubt” in Langland and Chaucer', and Chapter 10 on 'Uthred de Boldon's *visio clara*, Langland, and liberal salvation theology'. The three 'case studies' focus on readings of specific manuscripts to reveal 'Dangerous reading among early *Piers [Plowman]* audiences', homing in on Cambridge University Library MS Dd.i.17, British Library MS Cotton Cleopatra B.II, and Oxford, Bodleian Library MS Bodley 851.

The book's implications for understandings of late medieval English literary and religious history will take some time to work out, and to work into the mainstream, but the impact is already visible in recent publications. Immediately the volume demands a reappraisal of doctrinal understanding and uniformity in fourteenth-century England, as the background to the academic enterprise of Wycliffism and the more *lewd* theological awareness among the populace at large. More generally, it complicates the picture of 'vernacular theology' in England between 1350 and 1450, challenging extreme judgements on the impact of Archbishop Arundel's 1409 Constitu-

tions which sought to control preaching and the dissemination of vernacular writings on doctrine (a challenge explicitly stated in an appendix). By expanding awareness of the range of doctrinally challenging texts available in England in this period, the book undermines the status of Lollardy (however understood) as the only significant strand of dissenting religious thought in late Plantagenet and Lancastrian England; makes the boundaries between 'heresy' and 'orthodoxy' even fuzzier than they previously were; and further complicates the search for a 'mainstream'.

The potential fall-out is therefore considerable; the book's actual impact will depend on it being widely read across all of the disciplines which it addresses. Kerby-Fulton is best known as a literary scholar, and the volume is very much a work of literary scholarship – massively informed by reading beyond the discipline. Yet she writes of a field – the textual history of thought, and specifically of heresy, in late medieval England – where disciplinary boundaries are notoriously resistant to cross-fertilization. Historians especially need to be aware of the ideas presented here, to integrate them into their own studies. That the volume challenges a disciplinary mould is perhaps acknowledged in the Library of Congress class-mark assigned in the cataloguing-in-publication data. This extracts it from the literary 'ghetto' and places it among theology – but technically among 'mysticism', which may not be beneficial. The Dewey classification treats it as English literature.

University of Birmingham, UK R. N. Swanson

Arminius, Arminianism, and Europe: Jacobus Arminius (1559/60–1609) [Brill's Series in Church History vol. 39]. Edited by Th. Marius van Leeuwen, Keith D. Stanglin and Marijke Tolsma. Pp. xxii, 300, Leiden, Brill, 2009, \$212.84.

The Missing Public Disputations of Jacobus Arminius. Introduction, Text, and Notes [Brill's Series in Church History vol. 47]. By Keith D. Stanglin. Pp. xvi, 630, Leiden, Brill, 2010, \$211.00.

Revisiting the Synod of Dordt (1618–1619) [Brill's Series in Church History vol. 49]. Edited by Aza Goudriaan and Fred van Lieburg. Pp. xiv, 442, Leiden, Brill, 2011, \$141.00.

In view of the immense influence he had on Protestantism it is surprising to see from the bibliographical survey by Keith Stanglin in *Arminius, Arminianism, and Europe: Jacobus Arminius (1559/60–1609)* that Jacobus Arminius has been the subject of far fewer biographies and studies than most Reformers. Is this, one wonders, because there is less to say about him and his somewhat uneventful life? Discussions of his theology, certainly, tend to concentrate all but exclusively on his modification of the strict Calvinist teaching of predestination. Yet some of the twelve papers in *Arminius, Arminianism, and Europe* rightly bring out other of his concerns. William den Boer, for example,

reminds us that 'it is not the free will but God's justice that forms the leading motive of Arminius's theology'. Aza Goudriaan examines Arminius's use of Augustine. Predictably enough, Arminius was far readier to approve of early Augustine than of late Augustine, but his attitude nevertheless had its ambiguities. The question of Roman Catholic influences on Arminius is dealt with by Eric Cossee. The accusations of Arminius's enemies in this respect had little foundation and there can be no doubt that Arminius always remained a Protestant and adhered strictly to the teaching of justification by faith. Yet, besides his various dealings with members of the Catholic clergy

in his youth, he was a reader of Bellarmine (even if he denied ever recommending him to his students) and was far more moderate in his discussions of the pope than his more orthodox colleagues.

Arminius, Arminianism, and Europe contains interesting articles about Arminius's influence and the later Arminians, the Remonstrants. Kęstutis Daugirdas, in his essay 'Biblical hermeneutics of Socinians and Remonstrants in the seventeenth century', shows that Fausto Sozzini's *De auctoritate sacrae scripturae* was particularly influential among them. This, however, was not because of Sozzini's views on the Trinity but on account of his approach to the Bible and the method he recommended. For Sozzini 'attributed the authority of the Scripture largely to its historical reliability', and it was this historical and rational treatment of the Bible that appealed to Remonstrants such as Episcopius, Etienne de Courcelles and Philip van Limborch. While Andreas Mühl-ling's fine study of the 'Hohe Schule Herborn', a centre of Ramism also distinguished by the presence of the theologian Johannes Piscator, a determined opponent of Arminius, has little direct bearing on Arminianism, Maria-Cristina Pitassi documents the effect of Arminius's teaching in Calvinist Switzerland. In the early eighteenth century Geneva started to stray from its earlier orthodoxy, secularizing its academy, authorizing Lutheran services, reducing the weekly number of sermons and generally opening up to currents of the Enlightenment thanks partly to the influence of Jean-Alphonse Turretini, a close friend of Jean Le Clerc, and the increasing diffusion of Arminius's works. And if the immediate effect of Arminianism in England after the Synod of Dordt has received ample scholarly attention, David Steers has devoted an impressive article to Arminius's very considerable influence on Protestant Dissenters in both England and Ireland in the eighteenth century. This is especially striking in circles of Presbyterian non-subscribers to the Westminster Confession of Faith. John Abernethy, Benjamin Hoadly, Samuel Haliday (converted to Arminianism, interestingly enough, in Geneva), Henry Winder and many others were drawn by a more moderate variety of Calvinism. The collection ends with two articles by Marijke Tolsma on the portraits of Arminius through the ages and a bibliography of Arminius's writings by Keith Stanglin and Richard Muller.

In his long introduction to *The Missing Public Disputations of Jacobus Arminius* Keith Stanglin reminds us not only of how few full-length studies of Arminius there have been but also of how many of his works have remained unpublished. Perhaps the most important is his set of lectures on Galatians in the Archives Tronchin in Geneva. To these can be added at least 31 letters, mainly at the university libraries of Leiden and Amsterdam. And, until now, there were

the 36 public disputations which Stanglin presents – 35 in Latin and one in Dutch, accompanied by notes, and with an English summary at the end of the introduction. They were discussed between 1604 and 1609 at Leiden University, where Arminius had been appointed professor of theology in 1603. The question, of course, is whether they shed any new light on Arminius, and here Stanglin's introduction is not entirely satisfactory. 'It is premature, and certainly beyond the scope of this essay,' he writes, 'to suggest all the ways that these new documents might modify or enhance scholarship on Arminius'. As they stand the disputations do indeed show 'that there was more to Arminius than predestination', since they cover a wide range of topics including the creation, the attributes of God, the nature of Christ, Scripture, faith, indulgences, the Church, the sacraments, and Anabaptism.

Despite the fact that the discussion could be presided over by other colleagues of the professor who chose the topic – in this case the younger Lucas Trelcatius and Franciscus Gomarus, both strongly opposed to Arminius's views on predestination – the disputations do contain ideas peculiar to Arminius. He stresses, for example, the free will of Adam and the fact that the punishment, but not the guilt, of original sin is inherited. He distinguishes between *fiducia* and justifying faith, and, in one of his disputations on the visible Church, he refuses to regard the Church of Rome as entirely impure. In his disputation on the Anabaptists (against whom he had been commissioned to write a full-length treatise) Arminius also avoided the question of free will – a subject about which he and the Anabaptists were by no means in total disagreement.

Arminius died in 1609. At the Synod of Dordt, convened in 1618 in order to decide on the doctrinal position of the Reformed Church and the Remonstrance submitted by the Arminians, he was represented by his followers. The synod itself, attended by delegates from most of the Reformed Churches in Europe, has gone down to history as a major event in the Northern Netherlands – and, in the last paper in *Revisiting the Synod of Dordt (1618–1619)* Joris van Eijnatten studies the changing attitudes to it of (mainly Dutch) historians from the first contemporary accounts to the work of the late Rolf Hendrik Bremmer and Joannes van den Berg in the twentieth century. But despite the place the synod has always had in history books, it has generally been presented in somewhat oversimplified terms. The sixteen papers in *Revisiting the Synod of Dordt* are thus particularly welcome. Not only are they nearly all of an extremely high standard, but they bring out the ambivalent attitudes of many of the delegations and thus make an immense contribution to our true understanding of the event.

Arminius's own theology is again presented by William den Boer, after which the papers deal with the synod, the delegates and the delegations. Henri Krop's piece, 'Philosophy and the Synod of Dort: Aristotelianism, humanism, and their case against Arminianism', is mainly on men who might easily have become Arminians but who threw in their lot with his opponents, the Counter-Remonstrants. Antonius Walaeus, although a pupil of Gomarus, quarrelled with his master and tended towards more eirenic figures such as Antonius Thysius and Johannes Polyander. Yet it was because of his principles as an Aristotelian humanist that he refused to accept the Arminian teaching on predestination. William Ames, no Aristotelian but a follower of Ramus, was also a humanist, but, like Walaeus, believed that divine predestination was compatible with human liberty. And, as Aza Goudriaan points out, the interpretation of human liberty was central to the discussions at Dordt.

The ambiguity of the position of some of the delegations, and the bias which affected contemporary reports of the synod, emerge from Anthony Milton's excellent study of the British delegation. According to what became the official account the British delegates behaved with exemplary moderation, but were silenced by their more brutal continental brethren. Yet the British authors of the report were neither unprejudiced nor particularly reliable. One was John Hales, secretary of the English ambassador Sir Dudley Carleton. As such he was not a delegate and did not attend the entire conference, but had to rely on hearsay. The other was the Scot Walter Balcanquhall, by far the most junior of the British delegates, who arrived after the synod had been in session for over four weeks. His main object was to provide a report which would please James I. In fact, however, he was himself by no means as moderate as he pretended. According to Milton 'Balcanquhall in particular seems to have been one of the more strongly Calvinist members of the delegation, favouring a harsher line on the issue of the atonement than some of the other members of the British delegation – and yet if anything he seems to be more scathing than Hales in his criticism of the behaviour of foreign Calvinists.' Nor were the British delegates the only ones to support moderation: they had the full backing of the delegates from Bremen and Hesse.

While Jonathan Moore studies the influence on the synod of the doctrine of 'hypothetical universalism' devised by James Ussher, Nicolas Fornerod brings out unexpected nuances in the behaviour of the delegates from Geneva, Jean Diodati and Théodore Tronchin. Not only had Calvin's successor, Beza, welcomed to Geneva, and developed a great liking for, most of the future Arminians, but the Genevan delegates were far from sharing the supralapsarianism of Gomarus (for whom they had no particular sympathy). Admittedly the Genevans were merciless in their condemnation of the Arminians at Dordt, but they proved far more conciliatory when it came to imposing religious harmony in Holland and preserving doctrinal unity among the various Reformed Churches after the Remonstrants had been expelled.

In 'Popular and catholic: the *modus docendi* of the canons of Dordt' Robert Godfrey discusses the language and vocabulary of the canons and shows that, in contrast to the scholastic tone of the deliberations, they were formulated in a simple manner, accessible to the laity. Donald Sinnema, in two articles, studies the actual drafting of the canons and their subsequent treatment. At first they were intended 'not as a new confessional standard, but rather as the judgement or judicial decision of the Synod on the Five Articles of the Remonstrants'. Subsequently, after all ministers had been called upon to subscribe to them, 'they came to be regarded as having a confessional status on the same level as the Confession and Catechism.'

The Synod of Dordt was preceded and attended by the production of broadsheets and prints with a variety of caricatures and allegorical representations celebrating the triumph of the stadholder Prince Maurice and the defeat of the Arminians and Oldenbarnevelt. The phenomenon is the subject of a superb essay by Joke Spaans. And rather than being followed by the doctrinal harmony it was intended to enforce, the synod also led to demands for a 'further Reformation', a 'nadere reformatie'. The new movement, in which men such as Willem Teelinck and Jacobus Koelman played an important part, is studied by Willem op 't Hof.

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The Call to Read: Reginald Pecock's Books and Textual Communities. By Kirsty Campbell. University of Notre Dame Press, Notre Dame, Indiana, 2010, \$33.69.

This is the first serious study of the works of Pecock for many years. Essentially it intends to place his writings in the contemporary context, particularly the context of orthodox writings against Lollardy and to show how very different Pecock was from several of his orthodox contemporaries. It does not attempt a

complete life of the author nor to fit him into the political context of the struggles of the 1450s in England.

Since there is little evidence for the impact of Pecock's writings (many seem to have been lost and those which remain are in single manuscripts) Dr

Campbell seeks information from a very close reading of the texts. She is concerned to discover what audience Pecock envisaged and answers that he thought that all Christians who were prepared to learn to read and to reason could profit from using his books, but that he was thinking especially of the merchant class in London, since such men were particularly prone to Lollard influence and Pecock thought he knew them well. Asking what he thought the writings could do for that audience she answers that he thought they would teach the art of thinking theologically so that readers would not then be lead astray by Lollard reasoning. She discusses how Pecock argued that reliance on biblical fundamentalism, such as he believed the Lollards preached, could be refuted by the realisation of the inadequacies of the Bible as a source of guidance in what would now be called moral theology. He also pointed out how the Bible does not contain the full working out of Christianity as understood in the fifteenth century. He commended to lay people the 'doom of reason', essentially the use of logical argument based upon reasoning from first principals. He also, however, envisaged his educated lay person being guided in the deeper questions of the theology by educated clergy. He urged affectionate and charitable relationships between the laity and clergy and certainly did not envisage his ideal reader simply relying on his own 'doom of reason,' cut off from the tradition of the church.

All of this is extremely interesting, even if we know that it seems to have had little contemporary effect. It

would have been even better if Dr Campbell had discussed whether Pecock's remaining work seemed to her to include the heresies for which he was condemned. Pecock seems to have been anxious to insist that laity and clergy were equally intelligent (and thus equally able to reason), whilst not eager to allow lay people the autonomy to come to their own conclusions about doctrine. This is only surprising to modern scholars. Pecock, one supposes, would not have allowed any cleric, however learned, to deviate from doctrine either. Reasoning about the Trinity was one thing, denying it quite another. It is not surprising therefore that Pecock thought that some doctrines were simply a given, to be logically thought about perhaps but not to be denied. He rather naively thought that correct logic would always produce truth.

In the days before Pecock became more fashionable this reviewer was introduced to him as an undergraduate. Dr Campbell's work reminds me how maddening the man was, so obstinately convinced not only that the answer to most religious questions was to think about them using syllogisms (which I suspect was no truer then than it is now), but even worse, to think about them with Pecock's writings as the sole guide. The book is, however, a very good and careful guide to some of the main themes in Pecock's writings and should be read by all students of fifteenth century religious culture, not just students of literature.

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The Reformation and Robert Barnes: History, Theology and Polemic in Early Modern England. By Korey D. Maas. Pp. xii, 250, Woodbridge, The Boydell Press, 2010, £60.00.

The Reception of Continental Reformation in Britain. Edited by Polly Ha and Patrick Collinson. Pp. xxxvii, 250, Oxford University Press, 2010, £50.00.

The Augustinian Robert Barnes has long, and rightly, been regarded as one of the earliest and most influential carriers of Luther's ideas to England. Educated in Louvain and arrested on account of an evangelical sermon in 1526, he managed to escape in 1528 and made first for Antwerp and then for Germany. By 1530 he was in Wittenberg. Befriended by a number of the Reformers – his greatest friend in this early stage seems to have been Johann Bugenhagen – it was in Wittenberg that he wrote his *Sententiae ex doctoribus collectae* and his *Supplicatyon* addressed to Henry VIII and appealing for the reformation of the English Church. The English king, once so strongly opposed to Luther, had now changed his mind and was eager to know the Reformers' opinions about his divorce. For this purpose he engaged Barnes as his agent. Barnes consequently became well acquainted with Luther. He elicited a reply from him and brought it back to England. His own *Supplicatyon* was published and was well received by the king. In the years

that followed Barnes travelled throughout Germany and, in Wittenberg, gained the friendship of Melancthon. In 1535 he was appointed English delegate to the Schmalkaldic League and in 1539 ambassador to the king of Denmark. In the meantime, in England, he had found a powerful patron in Thomas Cromwell. For some years the protection of Cromwell, and the support of other English evangelicals such as Cranmer, stood Barnes in good stead, but when he returned from his Danish embassy the climate had changed. The king was in the thrall of conservatives such as Gardiner, and Barnes was accused of preaching sermons critical of royal authority. He was arrested; Cromwell fell from favour; and in July 1540, two days after Cromwell's execution, Barnes was burnt at the stake.

The extent of Barnes's dependence on Luther has long been debated, as has the consistency of his own religious views. The admirable analysis provided by Korey Maas in *The Reformation and Robert Barnes* is

highly persuasive and resolves many doubts. Barnes, she shows, was consistent in his approach to justification by faith, in his interpretation of the Eucharist, and in his views on civic obedience. In each case, moreover, his ideas were strikingly close to those of Luther. An equally interesting part of Maas's book is on Barnes's attitude to history and its relationship with theology as it emerges from his *Vitae Romanorum Pontificum* of 1536. Like many of his contemporaries, Maas points out, Barnes used history to support theological claims. She then analyses Barnes's 'historical-theological programme'. Here Barnes sometimes adopts a more individual position. 'By so often making historical argumentation his choice of polemical method, but by refusing to relate history too closely to the nature and purpose of Scripture,' writes Maas, 'he steers a middle way between his evangelical and conservative contemporaries... In Barnes's thought, Scripture and history each have their limits. History cannot be judged normative as a basis for establishing doctrine or for interpreting Scripture. But conversely, neither can Scripture be judged normative as an interpreter of history.' Such an idea, too, was close to that of Luther, but Maas also stresses a slight difference in the approach of the two men. 'Unlike Barnes, who gives evidence of a conscious effort to treat history and Scripture independently, Luther proves more willing to suppose their necessary interdependence. That is, Luther makes the interpretation and subsequent use of history dependent on the authority of Scripture.' Barnes's programme, moreover, was, as Maas points out, conceived in the context of events in England rather than in Germany.

In his approach to history and theology Barnes proved influential. The last part of Maas's excellent book is a study of the reception and *Nachleben* of his work. Because of his execution Barnes was promptly given the status of a Protestant martyr and revered accordingly. Nor was his reputation confined to England. Melancthon praised him; Bugenhagen wrote prefaces to the various editions of his *Sententiae*; Luther provided a preface for his *Vitae Romanorum Pontificum*. The works were frequently reprinted, and translated, in the sixteenth century, and Barnes's influence can be detected in some of the great writings of European Protestantism such as the *Magdeburg Centuries*. He must be regarded, Maas concludes, 'as an early and influential proponent of historical theology.'

Barnes naturally reappears in Carl Trueman and Carrie Euler's 'The Reception of Martin Luther in Sixteenth- and Seventeenth-Century England', one of the nine papers in *The Reception of Continental Reformation in Britain* edited by Polly Ha and Patrick Collinson. Trueman and Euler make a detailed comparison of Tyndale and Barnes with Luther and conclude that Barnes places little stress on the death of

Christ and has 'no developed theology of the cross in any Lutheran sense'. Like Tyndale he uses the language of double justification, but does so, they write, 'to explain the argument of the Book of James in a manner which safeguards its place within the canon.' Where this last point is concerned, however, Corey Maas reminds us that, in the 1531 edition of his *Supplicatyon*, Barnes too denied the Epistle's canonical status. Otherwise, however, Trueman and Euler see points of community with Luther, particularly in the interpretation of the Eucharist.

Most of the other papers assess the effect which the continental Reformers had on English thought. Bruce Gordon shows the degree to which Cranmer relied on foreign scholars, particularly Fagius and Bucer, in his abortive attempt to produce a Latin translation of the Bible for use by English Protestants. Peter Martyr Vermigli, who spent some six years in England and remained in touch with his English friends after his departure, had a strong influence, according to Torrance Kirby, on the concept of royal supremacy in the Elizabethan Settlement. In other cases foreign models and ideas were adapted to the different circumstance. Jane Dawson shows how the 'example of Geneva', observed by John Knox and Christopher Goodman on their return from exile, gradually became 'Scotticised'. In 'The Church of England and the Palatinate' Anthony Milton studies the effect on the Elizabethan Church of the popular Heidelberg Catechism, prescribed by Oxford's Catechetical Statute of 1579, as well as the popularity in England of other Palatine divines such as Jeremias Bastingius, Zacharias Ursinus, Jacobus Kimerdoncius and Abraham Scultetus, while Nicholas Thompson shows that Bucer was used as an ecumenist in conservative circles in seventeenth-century Scotland.

But how well known were the works of the continental Reformers and who read them? The answer, to the second question at least, would appear to be a relatively restricted number of scholars. In an interesting article entitled 'Unreliable witnesses' Elisabeth Leedham-Green examines the sixteenth-century acquisitions in Oxford and Cambridge and finds that a far greater number of works by continental Protestants were purchased by Cambridge than by Oxford – a confirmation of the traditional view of the two universities. Numerous Protestant works were purchased by the Scots, but mainly in the course of their travels abroad, while English academics tended to rely on local booksellers who imported material from the Low Countries. The English printers of the sixteenth century, as Andrew Pettegree observes in his 'Afterword', produced remarkably little Protestant literature. 'The world of English publishing,' he writes, 'remained settled, conservative and very small.'

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Thomas More's Trial by Jury. Edited by Henry Ansgar Kelly, Louis W. Karlin & Gerard B. Wegemer. Pp. xix, 240, Woodbridge, Suffolk, The Boydell Press, 2011, £55.00.

This is a book for More specialists, and for legal specialists. Yet it is of general interest, concerned as it is with one of the most famous trials in legal history and with one of the three central figures in the history of the Reformation (together with Martin Luther and Henry VIII). That trial took place in Westminster Hall on July 1, 1535, when More was charged with high treason, on the strength of an Act 'making it high treason to maliciously deprive the King and Queen of the dignity, title, or name of their royal estates, by word or deed, effective February 1, 1535'. Despite his insistence on silence on the subject during his imprisonment in the Tower, and his denial of any malice that might seem to be implied in that silence, and his refusal to recognize the testimony of Richard Rich concerning words he is said to have uttered in the Tower, he was found guilty (in a foregone conclusion) and was consequently beheaded on July 6. Concerning the trial, four accounts have come down to us, of which the most famous is that of William Roper, echoed by Robert Bolt in *A Man for All Seasons*, who emphasizes the testimony of Rich as crucial to the verdict, but there was also a Latin account preserved in a Guildhall MS, in which the verdict was based on three other charges, malicious silence and malicious conspiracy with John Fisher. The other two accounts were those of Reginald Pole, based on an eyewitness report, and that of one of the judges, Sir John Spelman. The task of putting all these accounts together and determining which of the charges were principally operative in the surprisingly swift verdict of the jury (within 15 minutes) is what the contributors to this volume have set themselves from their several viewpoints, and the whole culminates in a conference held at the University of Dallas on November 7, 2008 among three American judges and one English judge.

Behind all these legal considerations concerning both the trial itself and the verdict given by the jury, there lurks the basic question: Was it a just trial? From a narrowly legal point of view it was at least no less just than the trial of Jesus under Pontius Pilate. Allowing for the different accounts, it was based partly on the testimony of one man, Richard Rich, which was strongly disputed by the defendant himself, and yet upheld by the jury (according to Roper's account). Though such testimony normally required the support of two witnesses, there were cases in law where only one was admitted. It was also based (according to the Guildhall MS) on the 'malice' implied even in the silence of More, which was widely recognized as showing his disapproval of

Henry's second marriage with Anne and Henry's assumption of the title of Supreme Head of the Church in England. In fact, once the verdict of guilty had been announced and the sentence of death for high treason had been passed, More came out with an avowal of his conscientious position against a mere Act of the English Parliament in contrast to the consensus of the universal Church.

Thus, legally speaking, the procedure at More's trial may be regarded as correct, in view of the various acts of Parliament including the Act of Treasons that led up to it – as orchestrated and predetermined by Thomas Cromwell, who might well be seen as the presiding genius over this volume. But such legal justice is precisely what corresponds to the Latin saying, '*Summum ius, summa iniuria*'. After all, the justice of the trial is itself based on the injustice of the foregoing acts of Parliament, and above all on the preceding activities of Cromwell in arranging everything according to the perceived wishes of his royal master – an underlying aspect of the whole affair about which this volume is strangely silent. Both in this trial and in the related acts of Parliament, as well as in the course of his imprisonment in the Tower, More was contending not so much with his judges or the jury but with three determined enemies, not only Cromwell himself who was present throughout the proceedings but also with the King and Queen, Henry and Anne, who were present at least in name in the wording of the Act of Treasons.

Then why, we may wonder, did More so insist on his policy of silence as not to confide in the king his reasons for observing that policy? Wasn't his postponement of an answer no less contributory to the royal anger than that of Pope Clement VII in the process of the divorce? Did neither of them realize the character of 'Bluff King Hal', who might have welcomed an open, if undiplomatic, response, but was only frustrated by their perceived, even seemingly malicious tergiversation? Whatever may have been the case with Clement, we may be sure that More (as we say) 'knew his man' and realized that, whatever the outcome of any possible openness on his part, the net was purposefully being closed in upon him by Cromwell, with the combined anger of Henry and envy of Anne (who in this case, and for the time being, have to be taken together). In earthly terms, the terms known only to those adversaries, the end was tragic condemnation and execution, but in the terms of More himself, it was the tragi-comedy of 'merrily in heaven'.

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The One Thomas More. By Travis Curtright. Pp. 231, Washington, D.C., The Catholic University of America Press, 2012, \$57.70.

Among his many claims to posthumous fame, Thomas More is unique in having had so many biographies written about him within the century of his death in 1535 – in an age when biography was a relatively recent literary genre. Already from the outset we have the biography of his son-in-law William Roper, followed by those of Nicholas Harpsfield and Thomas Stapleton, and then we have the collaborative play of ‘Sir Thomas More’ to which Shakespeare himself contributed a not insignificant scene. Subsequently, jumping over four centuries, we come to the modern biography of R.W. Chambers, followed by the drama and movie of Robert Bolt entitled *A Man for All Seasons*, in which the same reverential attitude is maintained towards the Catholic hero – except that the reason provided for his death is now limited to his individual conscience rather than his stated concern (in the aftermath of his trial) for the unity of Christendom. In those early lives it might seem that little care was taken over the distinction between biography and hagiography, when the title of knight received by More on joining the king’s council came to be imperceptibly altered to saint – though the actual cause for canonization was only finalized in Rome by Pope Pius XI in 1935, coinciding with the date when Chambers published his biography.

In Hegelian terms, however, every thesis has to be followed by an antithesis, and this antithesis has set in during the aftermath of World War II, in what is not inappropriately called the ‘revisionism’ of the post-modern period. Yet with an oddly paradoxical irony, we come upon two contradictory meanings of ‘revisionism’ applied to the Tudor Reformation in general and to the life of Thomas More in particular. In the one case, it refers to a revival of the Catholic case against the long dominant Protestant/Whig version of Tudor historiography, associated with the name of Eamon Duffy. In the other case, it refers to the arrival of an anti-Catholic case against the dominant Catholic interpretation of the life of Sir/St. Thomas More. In this postmodern period, the very idea of ‘hagiography’, however strongly supported by factual evidence, is at a discount, as presumably biased by a view of rose-tinted spectacles, in contrast to another interpretation of the factual evidence, viewed through blue-tinted spectacles. The influential leader of this mode of interpretation has been Geoffrey Elton, and his lead has been sedulously followed by his pupil John Guy and the American scholar Richard Marius, culminating in the first two volumes of a trilogy of novels on the life of More’s redoubtable foe, Thomas Cromwell, by Hilary Mantel, for which she has won the prestigious Man Booker prize in the last two successive years – a no mean feat.

Now, however, it is the commendable aim of a young American scholar named Travis Curtright to set the record straight, not by proposing any Hegelian synthesis by bringing together what Hamlet calls ‘mighty opposites’, but by returning, not without scholarly modifications to offset the antithetical scholarship, to the original thesis. Only, in the post-modern academic world of the twenty-first century, he labors under three serious disadvantages. The first is that he is himself (like Eamon Duffy) evidently a Catholic historian. The second is that he teaches in the department of literature at the notably traditional Catholic Ave Maria University in Florida. The third is that he has published his book from the Catholic University of America Press in Washington DC. The upshot is that no self-respecting scholar, least of all in England, is going to take his thesis at all seriously, let alone peruse his book with the care it deserves. Such scholars have plenty of books on their hands, to wade through and criticize or approve (as the case may be), without condescending to touch a book that is so obviously biased and so patently offensive to their academic susceptibilities. Yet, without realizing it, they are revealing an inverted bias of their own – as I have hinted in the above-mentioned contrast between the tints of rose and blue in academic spectacles. As Regan says of her old father Lear, ‘He hath ever but slenderly known himself,’ so what is more important than ever before in the little world of academe is the precious gift of self-knowledge.

Anyhow, to return to the present book, the laudable aim of the author is to counter the postmodern theory of ‘two Mores’, on the one hand, the noteworthy humanist, who comes out with his genial fantasy of *Utopia* in 1516, and on the other, the blameworthy hammer of heretics, almost from the time he accepts a position on the king’s council in 1517, the very year of Martin Luther’s praiseworthy rejection of Papal indulgences. If the postmoderns from Elton onwards see the humanist with a rosy vision, they abruptly change their spectacles from rose to blue once they find their ‘darling’ (as More himself referred to Erasmus) daring to criticize first Luther, then Tyndale, and then Christopher St. German not only with long-winded words but also with the magistrate’s sword. It is against this interpretation that the author insists on returning to the original recognition, albeit hagiographical, of what he calls in his unique title, *The One Thomas More*. Yet no less than his opponents he makes his appeal to the historical as well as the literary evidence, showing the extent to which More, like his great successor in the field of drama, is writing ‘still, all one ever the same’, and keeping ‘invention in a noted weed’. He is revealed as

the same man, whether as humanist or as lawyer or as councillor or as chancellor or as heretic-hunter. Only, to each of these avocations one has to add – what the postmodern scholars fail to add, in their ignorance of its meaning – the all-important epithet of ‘Christian’. For More that is what has to come first.

Even or especially as a Christian, More is recognized from the outset of this book as one trained no less in the pagan classics, or what the early Fathers termed ‘*spolia Aegyptiorum*’, than in what his friend Erasmus called ‘*philosophia Christi*’. This training, with special reference to the rhetoric and the satirical dialogues of Lucian, enabled him to see the world around him with two eyes, with a bifocal or stereoscopic vision, not just either rose or blue but with all the colors of the rainbow, and so to put himself, whether as lawyer or as author or as disputant, in the metaphorical shoes of the other. It is the very gift we find most notably developed in the drama of his great successor, whom Coleridge named for this very reason ‘myriad-minded’ – namely, the gift of humor, which is notably lacking in those who in all high seriousness maintain the antithesis of ‘two Mores’. Of such scholars, even or especially the great Geoffrey Elton, one may punningly make the Ciceronian complaint, ‘*O tempora, O mores!*’ If only they had some training in Lucianic rhetoric, combined with a sense of humor, they would realize that behind the various *personae* assumed by More in the course of his official life, and not least in his service of the king, he ever remained one and the same Man, one and the same Christian, one and the same witness (or ‘martyr’) for what he called ‘the corps of Christendom’.

This is what transpires from the author’s careful discussion of More’s translation of *The Life of Pico* (della Mirandola) by the latter’s nephew, in such a way as to imply More’s criticism of his too Platonic hero in the name of Christianity. It also transpires from his discussion of More’s seeming ‘Tudor propaganda’ in his *History of Richard III*, which is admittedly presented through the spectacles of his former patron and now right-hand man of Henry VII, Cardinal Morton, but in which More is more interested in the lessons to be drawn from such history than in the objective veracity of the narrative, for which he has to rely on the few sources available to him. It again transpires in More’s various clashes with Scholastic logicians and Trojan humanists, whose minds are variously blinkered to useless questions in logic or to the traditional study of Latin as opposed to the new Greek learning coming out of Italy, once again in the broader view of the *philosophia Christi*. It is on the basis of such Christian humanism that More shows an understandable intolerance of heresy, once it rears its ugly head with Martin Luther in Wittenberg and with William Tyndale in England. For he recognizes their

new ideas as striking at the heart of the whole body of Christendom, as it was in fact Luther’s words translated into English by Tyndale and introduced by Cromwell to Henry VIII, that determined the king to take his ‘great matter’ into his own hands and have himself proclaimed ‘Supreme Head of the Church in England’. Contrary to the childish ditty, such heretical words, more effectively than any sticks and stones, served to break the bones of England’s unity with Christendom.

Sadly, however, it is from this point onwards that I have to express a certain feeling of disappointment with this otherwise unexceptional book, as the author proceeds to deal with the various heretics More had to encounter – a task in which he was entrusted, though a layman, by the bishops as well (no doubt) as the king himself. For all the inspiration provided by Tyndale to Henry VIII in his assumption of the new title of ‘Supreme Head’, the king was none the less opposed to the new ideas behind that title, and so he would have been none the less behind More in his *Dialogue Concerning Heresies*, especially those of Tyndale. Though it is Tyndale who is awarded the palm of victory in their controversy by C.S. Lewis (owing to what his friend Tolkien discerned in Lewis as his ‘Ulterior motive’), the author shows how it is rather More with his relaxed, humorous demeanor who would have more appealed to the contemporary reader, in contrast to the tense, almost hysterical seriousness of Tyndale. And the same award may be granted for the same reason to More, in contrast to the one-sided partiality of Tyndale’s latest advocate, David Daniell. Similarly, when it comes to the odd controversy between More and St. German, whereas the antithesists side with the latter as the sharper and more pointed disputant, the author has no difficulty in showing how More plays with his opponent owing to his superior, more practical knowledge of the common law and the place of equity in dealing with legal cases.

This all serves to bear out the main thesis of the author concerning ‘the one Thomas More’, and his writings against such heretics as Tyndale and St. German, but that is not the point I was expecting of his book in defence of the saint and martyr against the accusations of such postmoderns as Richard Marius, who have less objection to the words than to the sword wielded by him against his heretical opponents. In his writings More may give an appearance of relaxation with his unfailing addiction to merry tales, but in his actions he is surely anything but relaxed and gently tolerant of their intellectual ‘pecadillos’. Why, one is left wondering at the end of this book, did the author go ahead with such ferocity in applying to them the existing laws on the burning of heretics? Isn’t this a sure sign of a fanaticism lurking beneath the ‘Christian’ epithet to More’s

boasted 'humanism'? No doubt, the author considers himself rightly limited to his chosen field of discourse, but the reader is less willing to grant him such a limit, when it is precisely in the field of action that More's postmodern critics have their most seemingly valid criticism to make against him. I am willing to admit that in what he has hitherto said in terms of More's writings points the way to an understanding of the chancellor's practical attitude to the heretics of his time. Only I must add that I was expecting him to follow the way he had been pointing, but he let me down, and I was, if not disillusioned, at least disappointed.

Finally, I have to mention a more particular point of criticism, concerning the numerous mistakes in both English grammar and Latin citations that I find scattered throughout the book. This criticism applies not only to the author but also to the publisher, whose task it should have been to provide a reader to comb through the English usage and the Latinity of the many citations. Surely there are some employees of a Catholic university, whether in Florida or in Washington DC, who are reasonably familiar with the Latin no less than the English language.

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Bible: the Story of the King James Version. By Gordon Campbell. Pp. xiii, 354. Oxford University Press, 2010, \$10.54. *The Book of Common Prayer: the Texts of 1549, 1559, and 1662.* Edited by Brian Cummings. Oxford University Press, 2011. Hardback, £16.99.

The combined year of 2011–12 is a year of celebration for the Anglican Church, enumerating as it does at once the fourth centenary of the King James Version (KJV) of the Bible and the 350th anniversary of the more or less definitive version of the Book of Common Prayer (BCP). The KJV is not, of course, the first English translation, or even the first Tudor translation of the Bible, but after a variety of attempts at translation, mostly under Protestant auspices, beginning with that of William Tyndale in 1525, and continuing with the Great Bible, the Geneva Bible, and the Bishop's Bible, it is the one that has (as we say) come to 'rule the roost', at least up till comparatively recent times. It has been widely praised for the quality of its English, though the work not of one man but of a learned committee, and it has been placed on a level with the Complete Works of William Shakespeare which are seen as constituting a secular Bible, both of them published in the reign of one king, James I, nicknamed 'the wisest fool in Christendom'. Now in view of this fourth centenary a comprehensive account of the Bible has been entrusted by the Oxford University Press to the respected Biblical scholar Professor Gordon Campbell, and his work provides an indispensable companion to an exhibition being held in the summer of 2011 in the Bodleian Library, Oxford.

At the same time, the Anglican Book of Common Prayer, as composed by Archbishop Thomas Cranmer, goes back to two versions in the reign of the boy-king Edward VI, the first in 1549, which conceded more to the Catholics, and the second in 1552, which conceded more to the Protestants. Neither form was, of course, acceptable to the Catholics in the subsequent reign of Queen Mary, when there was a reversion to the Catholic Mass in Latin, but within a few years the Protestant Elizabeth came to the throne, and the second version of King Edward with minor alterations was decreed for

English use in the Act of Uniformity of 1559. Later, with the outbreak of the Civil War or Puritan rebellion, the BCP was generally rejected with the Anglican Church on the whole, but with the restoration of the monarchy in 1660 the Anglican Church was also restored and the BCP received a renewed form with further alterations in 1662. And this is the date for the present celebration of its 350th anniversary, with a new edition provided for the Oxford University Press by Professor Brian Cummings.

Both these books are indeed highly to be praised, and Oxford has done well in assigning the account of the KJV to Professor Campbell, and the editing of the BCP to Professor Cummings. Moreover, behind them both we may hail the literary genius of William Tyndale, from whom (we are informed) is derived no less than 83% of the KJV, and of Thomas Cranmer, whose English pervades the BCP in its first two versions – with some influence from John Cosin in the 1662 edition. At the same time, it is worthy of note that, even in the teeth of the uncritical blurbs, neither author nor editor is blind to the defects in the books entrusted to their exposition and/or edition. 'In several respects,' as Campbell points out, 'the language was archaic when the KJV was published' (p. 73), and as such it was more for liturgical than for its original use in the language of the common man. Then, too, 'the KJV translators preferred literal fidelity to interpretative translating', which doesn't always make for easy reading least of all in the Old Testament (p. 81). The original KJV was, moreover, 'a Protestant Bible' with a certain 'iconoclastic impulse' in a mistrust of images and illustrations (p. 160), whatever may have been the case with subsequent versions. In any case, the KJV obtainable today, even from the OUP, is not the version of 1611 but the revised text of Benjamin Blayney published by Oxford in 1769. Last but not least, the author sadly

notes that 'in the world of literary study the KJV is more honoured than read' (p. 258), and in this respect it shares the fate of Shakespeare's secular Bible, in that they are both popular even or especially among those who have never read them (p. 274).

As for the BCP, in his lengthy Introduction Cummings is even more critical of his subject, as if writing from a Catholic or Anglo-Catholic viewpoint. In general, he comments that 'the Reformation came to mean a rupture in the fabric of life as deep as any in European history' (p. xiii). This rupture he sees at the heart of the Anglican Church, with its 'Catholic' and 'Protestant' strains held in tension from the outset, even in the two versions of the Edwardian BCP (p. xv). The former version he dismisses as 'a kind of sacred parody or even travesty of old ritual' (p. xvi), and the book in whatever version, he says, 'was the heir (although it needs to be emphasized, the bastard heir) of several hundred years of Latin liturgical tradition in England' (p. xvii). In the hands of Thomas Cranmer, for all his literary skill, it underwent 'all the vitiating and topsy-turvy momentum of religious change' (p. xxii). If the second version of 1552 reflects 'the new fangled zeal' of Ridley and Latimer', the style of Cranmer, which undoubtedly pervades both versions, can hardly be praised as 'masterly' since 'it satisfied nobody fully', at least in the beginning. 'For traditional Catholics,' he adds, 'it was a

mockery', and yet to Protestants it came to be appreciated as 'a sign of Cranmer's sensitivity to opinions different from his own' (p. xxix). In its beginnings, he observes, 'the idea of a new national religious consensus was a complete fiction' (p. xxxi), but the revision of the 1552 version was pushed through by Sir William Cecil 'as the least difficult political choice' (p. xxxiii). After all, he continues, 'many Elizabethans were still Catholic at heart and conformed only reluctantly to a church now bereft of spiritual comfort' (p. xxxvii). Thus he leads up to the final 1662 version, which he describes as 'a political settlement that determined its appearance rather than religion alone' (p. xliii) – being as it was the outcome of the Savoy Conference of 1661, composed of twelve commissioners of each persuasion, twelve Anglican bishops and twelve Presbyterian divines. In short, despite these foregoing strictures, the editor recognizes the BCP as transcending 'historical sense altogether', inasmuch as 'liturgy suspends the ordinary rules of temporality' (p. xlix) – whatever that may mean. Anyhow, he adds, 'no text of the BCP is a word set in stone', but he offers the texts in this volume 'as moments frozen in time' (p. li) – or as T.S.Eliot would put it, as moments of intersection between the timeless and time.

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The French Queen's Letters: Mary Tudor Brandon and the Politics of Marriage in Sixteenth-Century Europe. By Erin A. Sadlack. Pp.xi, 266, NY, Palgrave Macmillan, 2011, \$71.24.

This is an excellent book on the all too often neglected younger sister of Henry VIII, Mary Tudor, and her two successive (and successful) marriages, the one for merely dynastic reasons with Louis XII of France, and the other for fully personal reasons with Charles Brandon Duke of Suffolk. It is interestingly based on the letters variously written by Mary to her royal brother, to her royal husband-to-be, and to Wolsey as Henry's all-powerful minister, especially as the author skillfully shows how much may be extracted from the epistolary style, if only by reading between the lines (according to the literal meaning of 'intelligence'). What the author particularly well brings out is the charm of Mary, her reputation for beauty and wisdom, and her achievement as peace-maker between France and England by reason of her femininity – according to the opinion of the French ambassador Jean Brinon, that 'whenever France was afflicted with internal faction or external warfare, then "God gave that hour to the ladies";' (p. 147) One feels that Shakespeare surely had her in mind when he praises Silvia in *Two Gentlemen of Verona*, 'Holy, fair, and wise is she,/ The heavens such grace did lend her,/ That she might admired be.' She thus appears as

a very romantic princess, reared as she was on the Tudor sponsored romance of Malory's *Morte Darthur* (published by Caxton in the very year of Henry Tudor's accession to the English throne in 1485), and as such she has commonly been estimated by most of those who have written about her. But the present author aptly shows how well she had her head fixed firmly on her shoulders – like so many of Shakespeare's heroines – who succeed in combining romance in matters of the heart with realism in practical affairs, not least in what can be obtained by means of letters.

So much I have written by way of opening praise of a book that deserves every word of my praise, but sadly that isn't all I have to say. All through the book there is an undercurrent of feminist dogma, which distorts the author's view of the period with which she is concerned. Thus she is always girding against 'traditional gender hierarchy' (p. 17), 'strictures subordinating women to patriarchal authority' (p. 19), 'the patriarchal hierarchies that governed everyday life' (p. 36), 'the weight of misogynist discourse' (p. 144). as though blind to the incontrovertible fact that the sixteenth century was a 'golden age' for women in

both England and France, not to mention Italy. One has only to look at the bookshelves of any academic bookshop in England to note the titles of books dealing with the lives and loves of Tudor women, especially if one may apply the adjective 'Tudor' to women on the other side of the English Channel. Why is this? The author herself provides us with the clue in speaking of the medieval romances that were the regular reading matter not only of women like Mary Tudor but of their menfolk as well. Yet she oddly speaks of 'the precepts of chivalry' set in these romances as upsetting to 'traditional gender hierarchy' (p. 17), whereas it is precisely these precepts that were central to the medieval hierarchy. Men might be central to daily life, as it had existed from the mythical days of Adam and Eve, when in the medieval jingle 'Adam delved and Eve span', but women came into their own in the romances of chivalry not as subversive but as basic to Christian civilization. In the age-old 'battle of the sexes' women might seem to be subject to men, especially in the context of married life, but they have invariably known how to use their 'women's wiles' to gain their wills, and in this respect Mary Tudor wielded a powerful pen in her letters to her all too irascible and self-willed yet all too uxorious elder brother.

One important aspect of Mary's power to influence others, whether the king of France or of England, is implied in her very name, which was specially emphasized on her processional way into France, and which is duly emphasized by the author – namely her association with the Virgin Mary, in bringing about peace between the two countries, all too long divided by fratricidal strife. She is even hailed as 'Stella Maris', or Star of the Sea, according to the traditional title given to Our Lady from the early Middle Ages – though it is oddly called 'one of the incarnations of the Virgin Mary' (p. 156), which shows up the author's insufficient familiarity with Catholic terminology. During her life back in England after the premature death of

Louis XII, as Duchess of Suffolk while yet insisting on her former title as French Queen, her piety is well brought out in her addiction to staying at religious houses, such as the Augustinian Butley Abbey in East Anglia – though the author shamefully suspects her motive, to 'underscore her reputation for piety' (p. 125). Rather it is Mary's evident piety that underscores her opposition to her brother's eventual infatuation with Anne Boleyn, when she came out openly against him. So the author admits there is 'no indication that Mary was interested in Protestant reforms', but that 'she remained a staunch Catholic throughout her life' (p. 151). Fortunately for her, she died on June 25 1533, before Henry's unfortunate breach with Rome with his unheard-of claim to be Supreme Head of the Church in England and his subsequent suppression of all monasteries and shrines in the land, including her favourite shrine of Our Lady of Walsingham.

A final word of criticism may be added concerning the author's all too common confusion between England and Britain, as when she speaks of 'the English belief in the national myth that traced their ancestry to Brutus' (p. 22). That was never an English but a British belief, a belief fostered by William Caxton and by the Tudor rulers whose Welsh ancestry not only weakened any real claim they may have had to the throne of England but also prompted them to promote their mythical claim to descent from Arthur. It also entered into their propaganda for their breach with Rome. I may add that Shakespeare was never a party to such propaganda, but in his *King Lear* he sedulously and significantly avoids referring to the country as 'Britain', and in his final history play of *Henry VIII* he leaves Cranmer's 'flattery' of the new-born Princess Elizabeth – a fact commonly recognized by Shakespeare scholars but ignored by this author – in the hands of the younger dramatist John Fletcher (p. 134).

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Mary Tudor: England's First Queen. By Anna Whitelock. Pp. 368, London, Bloomsbury, 2009, \$0.50.

Mary I: England's Catholic Queen. By John Edwards. Pp. xvii, 387, New Haven/London, Yale University Press, 2011, \$22.08.

Mary Tudor: Old and New Perspectives. Edited by Susan Doran, Thomas S. Freeman. Pp. xiv, 345, Basingstoke, Palgrave Macmillan, 2011, \$25.68.

Old myths die hard. Even today children are brought up on the old Foxian myths of 'Bloody Mary' and 'Good Queen Bess', and even 'Bluff King Hal'. Such generalizing epithets are all too easy to remember, all too hard to forget. As for Mary in particular, it is noted by one of the contributors to the third volume, Judith Richards, that she was 'in recent years included in the pantheon of the 100 bloodiest tyrants in the world'

(p. 218). Yet here we have no fewer than three books clustering together in point of time, aiming at what is aptly called 'the reassessing of Mary', and (to say the least) counterbalancing the slander to her name initiated by John Foxe with the less well known praise of her by his more trustworthy contemporary William Camden, 'a princess never sufficiently to be commended of all men for her pious and religious

demeanour' (p. 35). To this praise one might add the comment on her by the Spanish Duke of Najera in the days of her father King Henry, as quoted by Anna Whitelock, 'The princess is much beloved throughout the kingdom' (p. 111), in contrast to her own self-description after the fateful divorce of Henry from her mother, as 'the most unhappy lady in Christendom' (p. 102). Also in contrast with the widespread unpopularity of Anne Boleyn, at whose coronation procession no one cried, 'God save the queen!' (p. 52), and of Lady Jane Grey, at whose proclamation on a similar occasion 'no one showed any sign of rejoicing', and no one cried, 'Long live the queen!' (p. 167), on Mary's accession it was reported, 'It would be impossible to imagine a greater joy than this. The people are mad with joy, feasting and singing, and the streets crowded all night long.' (p. 174) A similar report is echoed by John Edwards, 'The content and joy of all were such that almost all cast up their caps into the air, and so great were the cries and acclamations when they drank for love of the queen that it seemed as if all had escaped from this evil world and been transported to heavenly glory' (p. 99).

How was it, then, that after only five years on the throne of England the same Mary died, according to the report of the Venetian ambassador (quoted by Whitelock), 'with the ill-will of the majority of the population on account of her religion' (p. 279), after having seen 'the eyes and hearts of the nation already fixed on Elizabeth as her successor' (p. 297)? John Edwards speaks of her 'four joys' as queen, her arrival on the throne, her coronation and her wedding to Philip of Spain, and above all the reconciliation of her kingdom with Rome (p. 222). But these very joys were to become major sources of her sorrows. Not only was Philip unpopular with the English people, though he went out of his way to court their favour, but once he left the shores of England he was unnaturally taciturn towards her and unwilling to respond to her repeated appeals for communication, till on receiving the news of her end (according to Whitelock) he merely 'felt a reasonable regret for her death' (p. 303). Even, it is added, 'It was a great irony that upon Mary's death the Pope', Paul IV, being the great enemy of Spain and indirectly of Mary herself, 'initially expressed gratification upon the accession of Elizabeth.' (p. 295)

Here one may well wonder at the innumerable burnings of her Protestant subjects for the crime of heresy, amounting to some 300 in the course of the three years from 1555 to Mary's death in 1558, as a main cause of change in the popular feeling concerning her, which is implied in the above-mentioned remark of the Venetian ambassador. After all, this is also the main cause of the epithet 'bloody' indelibly attached to her name from the time of John Foxe onwards, and this is accordingly the main burden weighing on those who seek to rehabilitate her

memory, such as those whose books are now under review – to which I may add the other recent exoneration of her and her ecclesiastical assistant Cardinal Pole by Eamon Duffy in *Fires of Faith* (2009). Frankly speaking, in spite of everything that may be said to exonerate her, it has to be admitted that Mary was directly responsible for these burnings, even more than Cardinal Pole, King Philip and Bishop Bonner, who have also been accused of major culpability in this regard. All these biographies can do is to show the burnings in their wider setting, in the life and times of Mary Tudor and in view of her otherwise all but impeccable character. The one sin she committed, and for which she could never forgive herself, was the moment when, under extreme pressure from both her father and Cromwell, and even the political urging of her loyal supporter, the imperial ambassador Eustace Chapuys, she recognized both Henry's divorce and his claim to supremacy over the Church of England, and then, as Whitelock truly if cruelly puts it, 'In one stroke she had been compelled to betray the memory of her mother and the Catholic faith of her childhood.' (p. 89) No doubt it was in her mind for the expiation of this sin that she committed herself to the punishment of so many Protestants in her realm for the other sin of heresy. Even so, as Whitelock adds, 'Neither Mary nor Pole expected to burn so many' (p. 265), but they hoped that after a few such cases the heretics would be at least cowed into submissive silence. They never bargained for what Thomas Freeman calls (in the third volume) 'the overt defiance by a surprisingly large number of rank and file Protestants' (p. 190). As Mary herself declared in 1554 (quoted by Whitelock), 'Touching the punishment of heretics, I believe it would be well to inflict punishment at this beginning, without much cruelty and passion, that the people may clearly comprehend that they have not been condemned without just cause.' (p. 265) Further, in the third volume it is pointed out by Freeman that the burnings took place not so much throughout England, according to the impression conveyed in Foxe's *Book of Martyrs*, as in the urban areas of the South-East, where there were 44 burnings in London under Bonner, 41 in Canterbury under Pole, and 23 in Colchester, amounting to one third of all such executions (p. 191) – many of whom, it may be mentioned, might well have been punished for the crime of treason after Wyatt's rebellion as for that of heresy. Also, whereas in contrast to so many burnings of Protestants in such a short period of Mary's reign, attention is paid to the comparative fewness of Catholics punished for treason during the 45 years of her sister Elizabeth's reign, it is pointed out by Judith Richards that 'there is much less attention paid to the more than 300 Catholic martyrs who died during the reigns of Henry VIII and Elizabeth' (p. 208) – not to mention the innumerable anonymous

victims of their persecution who perished in prison without the name of 'martyr'.

Finally, it is John Edwards who notices an interesting contrast between Mary and Elizabeth at the time of their respective accessions to the English throne, which may go a long way towards explaining the failure of the former and the success of the latter. As for the former, he remarks, 'In the confused circumstances of Mary's first regnal year, it was extremely hard to know who was on whose side' (p. 174), whereas when it came to the turn of the latter, Elizabeth 'knew exactly who was for her and who was against her' (p. 330), and so, he adds, 'within a very few days of Mary's death, Elizabeth's government was complete, the new power in the land being William Cecil' (p. 336). Much also

may be added to what these three volumes have to contribute towards the rehabilitation of Mary Tudor, and I have only mentioned a few of the more impressive items to be gleaned from their pages. Even so, as Judith Richards concludes in the third volume, 'The reassessing of Mary (is) still a work in progress.' (p. 224) Let me also conclude with the motto Mary chose for herself (from Erasmus), '*Veritas temporis filia*', which is significantly echoed in his English translation by no less a commentator than William Shakespeare in the words of his heroine in *King Lear*, Cordelia, addressing her false sisters, 'Time shall unfold what lighted cunning hides' (i.1).

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The Queen's Agent: Francis Walsingham at the Court of Elizabeth I. By John Cooper. Pp. xi, 375. London, Faber and Faber, 2011, \$20.07.

I wonder why publishers insist on covering the jackets of their books with blurbs. Naturally, the blurbs are flattering, and therefore untrustworthy. Only, when Philippa Gregory praises this book as fit 'for the library of any Tudor enthusiast', she fails to go far enough. All that is needed for an appreciation of this new biography of Elizabeth's subtlest of spymasters is a general interest in English history, added to a wonder at the way such a great change was wrought in so short a space as that between the Catholic country Elizabeth inherited from Mary at her accession in 1558 and the Protestant country she bequeathed to James at her death in 1603 – a change effected in less than half a century. Elizabeth herself is famous for her remark in the early years of her reign that she had no desire to make windows into men's souls. So long as they conformed outwardly to the law obliging her subjects to attend the new Anglican services, she was content. Most of them might remain Catholics at heart, and she had no desire to make Protestants of them against their wishes. But with the passing of time, with the Papal bull proclaiming her a bastard, with the rebellion of the Northern earls and the subsequent Ridolfi Plot, not to mention Saint Bartholomew's Day in France, she became more than content to leave the making of windows into men's souls in the hands of the two men who were best suited to that undertaking, Sir William Cecil, who was secretary of state till 1573, and Sir Francis Walsingham, who took over Cecil's position (after having been ambassador in Paris from 1570–73) and who retained it till his death in 1590. Between them, it may be said, lay the main responsibility for the Protestantizing of England, no doubt with the queen's consent, though they often found it necessary to work behind her back, regarding her as they did, and as Shakespeare's Richard III regards

another Queen Elizabeth, as 'a shallow, changing woman'.

It is indeed generally recognized by historians that the Elizabethan ship of state was largely in the skilful hands of Sir William Cecil, and that much of his power – which led him to be seen by Catholic authors like Richard Verstegan writing in 1592 as the effective ruler of what was even called *regnum Cecilianum* – depended on his knowledge, hidden from other statesmen, of what was going on behind the scenes. His secret was that of Shakespeare's Polonius, who declares of himself that 'If circumstances lead me, I will find where truth is hid, though it were hid indeed within the centre.' It had been by means of this knowledge, and his manipulation of the knowledge, that Cecil had succeeded in displacing his one effective rival on the queen's privy council, the Duke of Norfolk, and in procuring his execution. That had been in 1572, in connection with the Ridolfi Plot, but now that he was being succeeded by Walsingham as secretary of state he evidently felt he could leave most of the grubby details of what now came to be called 'intelligencing' in the hands of his successor, who had already been involved in that murky world during his stay in Paris, when he had been a first-hand witness of the bloody events of Saint Bartholomew's Day, August 24, 1572. From now on, these two Machiavellian statesmen worked together from their central position on the queen's council for the Protestantizing of England – Lord Burghley as the main architect of the domestic and foreign policy, and Walsingham as his willing henchman. Or so it seems. But what this book interestingly brings to light is that, if (as Bacon says) Knowledge is Power, and if Walsingham came closer to the sources of that knowledge with the passing of time, it was the latter who, more than Elizabeth, and even more (in some respects) than

Burghley, was 'at the tiller' of the ship of state (p. 4). True, as the author points out, 'for twenty years of Elizabeth's reign, the government of England would depend on the ability of Cecil and Walsingham to cooperate' (p. 17). But with his sights directed rather to the latter than to the former, he leaves us wondering about the extent to which they seem to have drifted apart – with Burghley devoted rather to a more general policy, which might even on occasion favour the Catholics, and incidentally to the feathering of his own nest for which 'he profited handsomely from Tudor service' (p. 310), leaving Walsingham to concentrate on the more congenial persecution of Catholic 'traitors', from within a household described as 'a perfect hotbed of Puritanism' (p. 168), with the result that by the time of his death he had reduced himself to a condition of comparative poverty.

From this viewpoint the central chapters of this book are those respectively entitled 'The English Mission', referring to the mission undertaken by the seminary priests from the mid-1570s onwards, followed by the Jesuits from 1580 onwards, and 'Security Services', referring to the subtle yet forceful measures undertaken by Walsingham to counter what he perceived as their threat to his plans for the Protestant cause. Naturally, in a biography of this kind the author is inclined to see things through the eyes of his subject, considering that so much of the material with which he has to deal has this inevitable bias, nor can he be said to have successfully immunized himself. But at least he is aware of 'the myth that Catholicism is somehow alien to Englishness', which 'has had a long and corrosive effect on the national memory of the British Isles', and the consequent risk, especially in a biography of Walsingham, 'of seeing the past through the eyes of the victors' (p. 129). This is all very commendable, and it may be said that on the whole the author has succeeded in maintaining a reasonably impartial balance.

On the other hand, he is by no means invariably successful, and I must now point out certain lapses of his, as they occur in the order of their pagination. a) Whereas he says that 'the Reformation swept away (the shrine at Walsingham) to the Virgin Mary' (p. 6), this was the action of no impersonal 'Reformation' but of the personal action of Henry VIII with the assistance of Thomas Cromwell. b) Whereas he says of the Parliament of the 1530s that 'it had voted for reform' (p. 26), this was no free vote of Parliament but one forced upon them against their will by the threats of the king and his minister. c) Whereas he says that 'all but one of Queen Mary's bishops resigned in 1559' (p. 37), they were obliged to resign by a trick of Cecil's in collaboration with Nicholas Bacon, and then confined to house arrest, in order to prevent them from blocking the two bills for the Elizabethan settlement in religion. d) Whereas he

says of the doubt concerning the legitimacy of Elizabeth that it 'remained to be exploited by Catholic propaganda' (p. 51), it was a doubt proclaimed from the outset by her own father Henry VIII, and echoed by Pope Pius V in his bull of excommunication against Elizabeth. e) Whereas he presents the Huguenots as an oppressed minority, 'dehumanized as vermin' at the time of Saint Bartholomew, he has already described them as having despoiled Catholic churches 'from Rouen to the Rhone' (p. 61) – which may not justify the massacre but at least makes it intelligible, especially in view of the real danger their armaments posed to the French State. f) Whereas he speaks of Thomas More as 'Henry VIII's secretary' (p. 96), More was never secretary of state as Cromwell was, and as Cecil and Walsingham came to be under Elizabeth. g) Whereas he speaks in general terms of the 'successive conspiracies during the 1580s exposed by Walsingham (p.129), he fails to distinguish between the few genuine and the many sham conspiracies, often fostered if not initiated by Walsingham's agents (otherwise known as *agents provocateurs*). h) Whereas he speaks of Verstegan's 'brazen propaganda' with his 'engravings depicting the torments of Catholics in England' (p. 153), he fails to remark that Verstegan was merely doing for the Catholics under Elizabeth what Foxe had done for the Protestants under Mary – and Foxe enjoyed the patronage of both Cecil and Walsingham. i) Whereas he speaks of 'a sort of doublethink' that 'prevailed among English Catholics', that they could combine loyalty both to the English crown and to the Roman Church (p. 155), he fails to realize that such had been the 'doublethink' of all Englishmen up till Henry's breach with Rome in 1534. j) Whereas he speaks of the Duke of Guise as 'fanatically Catholic' and Philip II of Spain as 'hawkish' (p. 171), he might have rather called the former 'loyally Catholic', while more truly calling Walsingham 'fanatically Protestant'. As for Philip, he was no more hawkish than Elizabeth, but excessively cautious and notoriously dilatory. k) Whereas he says of the trial and execution of Mary Queen of Scots, that 'The ethics of the episode are hard to judge' (p. 231), if only he had taken the trouble to read the magisterial study of the episode by Leo Hicks in *An Elizabethan Problem* (1964), he might have been confirmed in his attribution, which he makes elsewhere, of Machiavellianism to Walsingham.

Finally, leaving behind these various bones of contention, and turning to matters of a more positive nature, it is of additional interest that Walsingham was gifted with the breadth of vision, even surpassing that of his greater colleague, to take in the future British Empire. In this respect he was an enthusiastic patron not only of John Foxe but also of Richard Hakluyt in his *Principal Navigations of the English*

Nation, and of John Dee in his work on *The British Monarchy*. It was indeed the latter who is said to have 'coined the term British Empire' (p. 238), while the former is said to have composed the prose epic of the beginnings of that empire. This chimes in with the movement initiated by Henry VIII and Elizabeth I away from the united Christendom of the Middle Ages – though Walsingham does refer on occasion to 'the cause of religion throughout all Christendom' (p. 101) – to a new entity centred not just on 'little England', which was the name preferred by English Catholics, but on Britain conceived as an empire, going back to the days of King Arthur (p. 10), and

now looking forward through such institutions as the East India Company and the Virginia Company to the full realization of the British Empire in the Victorian age. Such is the global context within which Walsingham would justify his relentless persecution of English Catholics, even to the extent of personally supervising their torturing on the rack for the sake of extracting information from them, and within which he may be seen as standing at the source of 'more than four centuries of national myth-making' (p. 306).

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Peter Milward

Saints, Sacrilege, Sedition: Religion and Conflict in the Tudor Reformations. By Eamon Duffy. Pp. 311, London, Bloomsbury, 2012, \$18.45.

Over the past two decades, ever since the publication of his authoritative survey of *The Stripping of the Altars*, the name of Eamon Duffy has been associated – together with those of Christopher Haigh and John Scarisbrick – with a movement of 'revisionism'. Up till quite recent times, the prevailing interpretation of Tudor history, especially with regard to the Tudor reformation – begun by Henry VIII, continued under Edward VI, and brought to its completion under Elizabeth I – has been in the hands of the Protestant victors, leaving the poor Catholic victims to suffer under their alternating 'pride and prejudice'. But the above-mentioned scholars have led the way back to a more balanced view of that admittedly murky period of English history, and the present book is a further contribution by Duffy to that view. Only, this isn't a survey properly so-called, nor is it so authoritative as its more famous predecessor, but a collection of separate studies on the common theme of what the title calls in the plural (after a fashion set by Haigh) 'reformations' – though the author himself within the book prefers the more customary singular.

These studies may be said to begin with what T.S.Eliot calls 'a bang', under the heading of 'Reformation unravelled', essays of a more general nature, in which the author reasserts his main thesis, 'that the Reformation represented a deep traumatic and cultural hiatus with the medieval past' (p. 6), that 'the Reformation dug a ditch, deep and dividing, between people and their religious past', and that 'overnight, a millennium of Christian splendour . . . became alien territory, the dark ages of popery.' (p. 33) Today, in a more secular age, we may pride ourselves on having outgrown the religious divisions of the past, and on having risen above all sectarian prejudice, but, he adds, 'the ghosts of old religious passions continue to haunt perceptions of the Tudor past' (p. 8). Then, after a couple of chapters, more congenial to his own particularizing bent, though less acceptable to the

general reader, there follows a remarkable and ground-breaking study of the 1552 Inventories of Church Goods, heralding the wholesale spoliation of England's parishes in the last years of Edward VI. It is this study which justifies the author's conclusion, beyond gainsaying, that 'the Reformation constitutes a major watershed in the history of the parish' (p. 109), when 'this most drastic of Reformation spoliations stripped the parish churches of England of something like two centuries of accumulated devotional investment by lay and clerical parishioners' (p. 110). Even if it was left incomplete by the death of Edward and the accession of his half-sister Mary, the author adds, 'The accession of Elizabeth ensured that what the Edwardine spoliation had left undone would now be completed'. (p. 128) This one chapter, which stands out from the book as a whole, may serve to counter the odd assertion of a certain Jesuit author, that 'Possession of traditional places of worship demonstrated, more clearly and forcefully than any theological argument, Protestant claims of continuity with England's religious past.' (Thomas McCoog) Rather, at least under the Tudors, as the author rightly emphasizes, 'Protestantism came to be constituted by its NO to Catholicism' (p. 33).

But then, alas, to continue my application of Eliot's words to this book, if the book begins with a bang, it ends, 'not with a bang but a whimper'. There now follow several uninspiring chapters on a parallel between 'Two Cardinals', John Fisher and Reginald Pole, and on a corresponding contrast between two Archbishops of Canterbury, Thomas Cranmer and again Pole, as well as a further chapter on 'The conservative voice in the English Reformation', dealing with the remote parish of Much Wenlock, Shropshire. Above all, or rather below all, the above-mentioned whimper of Eliot, which may also be compared to Pope's 'wounded snake that drags its slow length along', is echoed (to my ears) in the concluding

chapter – based on the author's paper given at a conference on 'Lancastrian Shakespeare' in the summer of 1999 – on 'Shakespeare's England', with its mistaken attempt to deduce the poet's religious allegiance from one line in one sonnet, 'Bare ruined choirs, where late the sweet birds sang.' On the strength, or weakness, of this one line the author concludes, 'I do not think Sonnet 73 constitutes evidence that Shakespeare was a Catholic.' (p. 253) Well, one can't help wondering, for all his expertise on the ruination of the abbeys and the parishes of England under the three Tudor rulers, if the author can claim any similar expertise whether on the poems or the plays of William Shakespeare, or even on what he recognizes as the current literature 'more recently and sensationally focussed on the reappraisal of Shakespeare's religion' (p. 233) The way he resolutely closes his eyes to all that literature and concentrates on one line of one sonnet is hardly the way of a self-respecting historian.

If I may further prolong this whimpering conclusion, I might add the following questions that have occurred to my mind in perusing its pages. First, why the author can speak of 'Nicholas Sanders' hugely influential Latin work on *The Origin and Growth of the Anglican Schism*, which he notes as also 'translated into French, German, Spanish, Portuguese, Italian and (sic) Spanish', without asking the obvious question why it wasn't translated into English till the Victorian age? (p. 194) Secondly, why he denies that there was any 'reappraisal of the Reformation period' (till his own time), while leaving the solid work of John Lingard in the early nineteenth century under a cloud of 'confessional' special pleading? (p. 39) Thirdly, why he devotes so little attention to the

crucial months following on the accession of Elizabeth in 1558 and previous to her first Parliament of 1559, when so many of the Marian bishops and other leaders were placed under at least house arrest and thus prevented from casting their deciding votes on the Acts of Supremacy and Uniformity, which were passed with a bare majority? (p. 209) Fourthly, how he can assert that 'the question of papal authority was prominent among the themes tackled by the Catholic writers in exile', with reference to only one example taken from a minor work by the young Thomas Dorman, when the main theme was devoted to the sacrifice of the Mass as upheld above all by Thomas Harding against John Jewel? (p. 208) Fifthly, why he can insist so strongly on the continuity of 'the old religion' up till the time of Cardinal Pole, while yielding so weakly to such recent recusant historians as John Bossy and Lucy Wooding on the supposed intervention of a new 'Counter-Reformation' theology with the coming of the Jesuits and seminarians from the 1570s onwards – when the very term 'Counter-Reformation' is a relatively modern construct? (p. 229)

Lastly, I may add that I have counted no fewer than 20 misprints, including not a few Latin terms and such proper names as 'Stapelton' (for Stapleton), 'Heinirich Bullinger' (for Heinrich), 'Juan Suarez' (for Francisco Suarez), 'Dr Slanders' (for Dr Sanders), 'Catharionus' (for Catharinus), and 'Parson' (for Persons). Surely, it is for the author, no less than for the publisher, to pay attention to the proof-reading of his book, especially in view of the postmodern neglect of such a task.

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Peter Milward

The Trials of Margaret Clitherow: Persecution, Martyrdom and the Politics of Sanctity in Elizabethan England. By Peter Lake & Michael Questier. Pp. xix, 244, London, Continuum, 2011, £19.99.

When a book is divided between two authors, as in the present case, one naturally desires to know which parts are to be attributed to which author. But here we encounter only silence, as if each author is to take responsibility for the whole, or possibly as if each author wishes to hide behind the other in view of the irresponsibility of the parts. After all, what has a responsible historian to do with such weak-kneed asseverations as 'It can, in fact, be read' (p. 38), 'Phrased like that, of course' (p. 45), 'What we might regard as' (p. 50), 'What he now took to be' (p. 53), 'As some perceived it' (p. 81), 'We may speculate that' (p. 131), culminating in the extraordinary 'An inherent plausibility in these charges' (p. 103) of sexual infidelities in a canonized martyr brought against her by her enemies. Such is the constant stream of innuendo, based not on facts but on mere

hearsay and rumour, centred on the gruesome martyrdom of Margaret Clitherow for having given shelter to Catholic priests in the city of York in 1586. The authors have evidently taken exception to the hagiographical account of her life and death by her spiritual director John Mush, and they aim at undermining that account by lending an all too willing ear to the contrary rumours directed against her by various enemies, including not only Protestants but also certain conforming Catholics, culminating in the writings of a seminary priest named Thomas Bell, who not only advocated conformity to the Elizabethan regime but also eventually apostatized in 1592. In his hagiography John Mush takes occasion to criticize those enemies of hers, and the resulting shadow-boxing of their controversy is rejected by the authors in terms of 'the sheer venom

of this conflict', which, they say, can only 'be gauged from Mush's constant sniping' (p. 78). Yet all the venom and vitriol is evidently attributed to Mush, and we are left in the dark about his adversaries – though one may be forgiven for attributing much of those qualities to the authors themselves.

Nor is it only on the side of John Mush with Margaret Clitherow on the one hand and their shadowy enemies with Thomas Bell on the other that the authors are chiefly concerned – as they imply in their sub-title, 'Persecution, Martyrdom and the Politics of Sanctity in Elizabethan England'. Rather, for them this is but a particular example of the deep-seated antagonism which has long been the contention of their esteemed predecessor Alexandra Walsham, whose book on *Church Papists* (1993) is evidently their trail-blazer. I mean the antagonism between the 'recusants', who are repeatedly and invidiously described as radical, rigorous and intransigent, and the 'conformists', or 'church papists', who are commended for their moderation and flexibility in 'bending before the storm (of the penal laws) like the willow' (p. 26). The former are those, like Margaret Clitherow, who obey what the authors suggestively name their 'clerical handlers', namely the young seminarists who were 'ordained abroad and as such scarcely English' and returned to their native land with 'new fangled ideas and extremist claims' (p. 160), and above all the Jesuits with their 'missionizing and preaching of recusant separation', which is seen as 'deliberately designed to antagonize the authorities' (p. 23). Here indeed the authors lay their finger on 'the epicentre of the whole Clitherow case', as being 'a playing out of the debates about the relationship between Catholics and the State which had been started, really, by Campion and Persons' (p. 96). Thus the stance of Margaret Clitherow was, in their view, merely a case of 'choosing between her husband's will and her own', leading to nothing less than 'disobedience to prince, magistrate and husband' (p. 42), and it was the two Jesuits who had started it all with their advocacy of 'civil disobedience' (p. 49). On this point, however, 'there had never been a consensus', it is claimed, 'within the Catholic community', nor had the recusant position 'met with universal approval or assent' (p. 53).

These are indeed breath-taking assertions for self-respecting historians to make, least of all within the confines of their supposed Elizabethan expertise. Don't they realize, what they show no sign of realizing, that Campion and Persons on their arrival in London and their meeting with the assembled clergy were not one-sidedly urging opinions of their own but proposing the official policy of the Holy See, in accordance with the no less official ruling of the Council of Trent? Might I add the universal Catholic practice reaching back to the times of the Roman persecution, in accordance with the explicit teaching

of Christ himself on this subject? Nor were these two Jesuits proposing a ruling contrary to the practice of Elizabethan Catholics, though a considerable number of them had admittedly yielded to the forcible imposition of church attendance in violence to their own conscience. Already the official ruling had been upheld by the two Marian priests, William Allen and Laurence Vaux, in the county of Lancashire during the 1560s – which explains why that county remained strongly recusant from then onwards. As for other counties, they were sadly lacking in leadership from above, as most of the Marian bishops had been placed under house arrest, as a means of ensuring a majority in Parliament for the Act of Uniformity passed in 1559 (with a mere three votes).

Considering all this, it is strange how insistently the authors accuse such recusants as Margaret Clitherow of 'disobedience', when she was obeying the higher spiritual authority of the Catholic Church and of her own conscience against laws that were blatantly unjust and enforced by such bloody methods that amounted to a real persecution. As for the absence of any 'consensus on this issue within the Catholic community' (p. 49), the authors are blind to the nature of the Church as founded by Jesus Christ on the rock of Peter, to whom he entrusted the keys of the kingdom. They are no less blind to the realities of the Elizabethan situation, when the Catholics (who were in a generally recognized majority at the beginning of the reign) had been deprived of any means of arriving at any consensus, if such were required. Even authoritative rulings from Rome were hard enough to disseminate among them; and it was one the chief aims of the above-mentioned Jesuits to spread this knowledge and the corresponding practice as they went through so many counties in England on their missionary journeys of 1580–81. Nor were they deliberately fomenting opposition to the Elizabethan government. It was rather the other way round. They would have been only too happy for the government to leave them alone, to pursue their religion in peace, without any political disturbance. Only the Protestant government had from the outset, under the direction of Sir William Cecil, deliberately aimed at stamping out all vestiges of the Catholic faith even in a largely Catholic country; and by the end of Elizabeth's long reign it seemed as if they had been largely successful by dint of what can only be described as 'persecution' – though these authors speak of what was now 'taken to be persecution' (p. 53).

In conclusion, let me return to the invidious question put by the authors in the opening sentence of their Preface: 'What happens when the authority of the State is confronted and challenged by the presence of a refractory religious minority within its midst?' This is a question that is put in misleadingly general terms, whereas in the context of this book it is

supposed to refer to the English Catholics within the Elizabethan State; and then it is a question that begs two or three antecedent questions. First, it may be asked, as the early controversialist Thomas Stapleton asked the intruded Protestant bishop of Winchester Robert Horne, in his *Counterblast* (1567), 'By what authority' does the temporal ruler overturn the spiritual rule of the Church in England, which is but a part of the larger union of Christian nations known as Christendom? In any case, by what statistics is it considered that the Catholics at that time were a religious minority, whereas it was the Protestant minority that had succeeded in gaining power through the accession of the princess Elizabeth to the throne and control of both houses of Parliament so as to push

through their religious schemes in the face of the Catholic majority? Then, too, how can one assert that those Catholics were a refractory body, when they professed to be loyal citizens of their country in all temporal matters, and loyal subjects to the queen herself – as so many of the martyrs, from Campion onwards, declared even at the moment of their cruel execution? In view of these indubitable truths, how may we regard this book that so far from being an exercise in objective history is engaged in the slinging of mud not unmingled with that very venom and vitriol the authors find in their adversaries, who are indeed but creatures of their own inflamed imagination?

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Peter Milward

The Earl of Essex and Late Elizabethan Political Culture. By Alexandra Gajda. Pp.xiv, 293, Oxford University Press, 2012, \$87.79.

'Essex? He was a fool!' (p. vii) Such is the damning remark typically and recently made about the Earl of Essex by an eminent professor of early modern history in the hearing of the author, who continues in the same vein with a similar attribution, referring to 'a tendency to dismiss the earl as a petulant butterfly, who pranced and sulked his way to the scaffold' with his absurd rebellion against the queen in 1601. Needless to say, everything in the thesis that follows goes to the damning of such a remark and to the academically qualified maintaining of the contrary opinion, in such a way as to leave the reader gasping at the vast amount of material assembled by the lady author. What she has accomplished within the space less than 300 pages is a new look not only at the meteoric rise and fall of the Earl of Essex but also at what John Guy has called 'the second reign of Queen Elizabeth' during the 1590s.

Those were the years of the fabled rise of 'Gloriana', as the object of a universal, institutional, all but obligatory flattery, and the practical decline of her real, physical and moral charisma, when all depended on her whimsical favour. They were also the years when the earl himself was most dependent on that favour, but increasingly reluctant to be so. That reluctance took the particular form of a sense of responsibility to stand up for the ancient nobility of medieval England, before the country had become corrupted by such middle-class upstarts as the two Cecils, father and son, Sir William and Sir Robert, in what had come to be termed by Catholic authors of the time a *regnum Cecilianum*. This responsibility was in turn regarded by the earl in two further forms, one of martial valour in England's confrontation with the 'usurping' Philip II of Spain, such as the earl felt he had sufficiently demonstrated in the sacking of Cadiz in 1597, and the other in the study of political theory, especially as found in Tacitus' criticism of imperial

Rome in his *Histories and Annals*, and as introduced to him by the Spanish scholar and former secretary to Philip, Antonio Perez, and by the warden of Merton College, Oxford, Sir Henry Savile – though, as the author concludes, the earl himself could hardly be called 'a constitutional or legal thinker' (p. 257), and so his words and actions varied from year to year according to his varying circumstances. Thus, on the one hand, he felt himself obliged to recognize the absolute monarchy of the queen, if not in political theory, at least in his personal dependence on her and in her requirement of him, while, on the other hand, he sought ways and means of qualifying the absoluteness of her assumption of monarchy, regarding himself as leader of the English nobility, particularly in virtue of his title as 'earl marshal'.

Those were, it has to be added, the years when the all-important question of succession to the throne of England was being urgently raised, only to be denied discussion by the aging queen herself, but now notoriously raised from abroad in the anonymous *Book of Succession* (1595) attributed to the Jesuit Robert Persons and embarrassingly dedicated to the earl himself. In this matter the earl secretly took the side of James VI of Scotland, as being next in line of succession from his mother Mary Queen of Scots, who had been put out of the way in 1587 through the scheming of Sir William Cecil, Lord Burghley, still the elder statesman till his death in 1598, and Sir Francis Walsingham, the grand spymaster till his death in 1590.

This all constitutes what the author calls 'a game shaped by this curious dynamic between the earl, the queen, the council, and the court, contested on a board fringed by Spain, Scotland, and Ireland, with the minds of the players tuned to the fundamental question of succession'. (p. 200) At the centre may be seen the varying relationship between the earl and the queen, or

more precisely a tug of war between the earl with his friends Lord Henry Howard and others on the one side of the queen and Sir Robert Cecil with Sir Walter Raleigh and Lord Cobham on the other side. To the side of the earl may be added his crony, Shakespeare's patron, the Earl of Southampton, and the Bacon brothers, Francis who proved a notorious turncoat at the trial of 1601 and the faithful Anthony who headed his 'intelligence'. It was, moreover, the latter who introduced the earl to the ex-Jesuit Thomas Wright, who plays a strange role in these events from the time of his arrival in England in 1595 (in disobedience to his superiors), and who convinced the earl that not all Catholics, or even Jesuits were committed Hispanophiles. Coincidentally, it was in the same year that the Jesuit arch-Hispanophile Robert Persons brought out his controversial (if it was his) *Book of the Succession*, with its 'mischievous' dedication to the earl.

This in turn raises the intriguing question of the earl's own religious allegiance. From the outset of the 1590s he appears as a Protestant champion against the antichristian power of Philip II, and as the recognized leader of the war party at a time when the queen herself and the two Cecils were increasingly favouring the cause of peace, a cause to be accomplished by James I in the beginning of his new reign with the peace-treaty of 1604. He also cultivated the support of the Puritans, including a number of them among his chaplains. Yet once he became acquainted with Thomas Wright, he also went out of his way to cultivate the other support of the non-Hispanophile Catholics, to be found chiefly among the group of Appellant priests, who now appear towards the end of the reign in opposition to Persons and the Jesuits in general. And to them he made the dangerous promise of toleration, as also did James VI of Scotland before his accession to the English throne. But here we come upon three dangers, listed by Francis Bacon in a warning to the earl, namely, that of standing out in eminence even above the queen, to whom alone all eminence should belong, that of 'popularity' among the common people, ironically echoing the earl's own motto, '*Virtutis comes invidia*' – Courage is accompanied by Envy, as well as that of toleration.

All these varying issues, involving so many various characters within such a brief period of time, are

brilliantly, if confusingly, presented one by one, or two by two, or three by three, by the lady author, availing herself of an abundance of evidence that has hardly ever been presented before, while fully aware of discussions of the vexed subject by recent historians. One such confusion comes in the very conclusion, in connection with the play shown on the very eve of the Essex Rebellion and showing the deposition and death of Richard II following on the 'usurpation' of the throne by Henry IV. Up till recently it has been taken for granted by Shakespeare scholars that the play must have been a revival of Shakespeare's old history play of *Richard II*, with the queen herself recognizing her identity with the deposed Richard, 'I am Richard, know ye not that?' But now doubts are being raised by historians and even Shakespeareans (such as Jonathan Bate), as to whether it is not some other play based on Sir John Hayward's controversial *Life and Reign of Henry IV*, published in 1599 with a dedication to Essex, no less embarrassing to the earl himself than the previous dedication to *The Book of Succession* had been. And now the lady author tends to agree with those doubts. Or rather, she seems to be pushed and pulled in both directions, somewhat like the subject of her thesis himself, and even somewhat like Francis Bacon, who was a faithful, if discriminating follower of the earl up to a point, only to turn his coat against him in the outcome. Not that she is in entire agreement with Bacon; rather, she leaves us with an impression of qualified support for Essex.

Only, and here I come to my main criticism of her thesis, she unduly restricts her attention to the 1590s, whereas for the one cause of all the troubles afflicting the earl and his well-intentioned desire to represent what she calls 'the welfare of England within the broader sphere of Christendom' (p. 52) she should have gone all the way back to the year 1534 and the claim of Elizabeth's father (reasserted by her as 'governor') to be 'supreme head of the Church in England'. That, it may be said, was the one cause which brought the Tudor dynasty to its tragic conclusion, and continued to subvert the subsequent dynasty of Stuart. Nor is it without its continuing echo today.

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The Elizabethan Age. By A.L. Rowse. London, The Folio Society, 2012. in four volumes –

1. *The England of Elizabeth*. Pp. 672. London, Macmillan, 1950.
2. *The Expansion of Elizabethan England*. Pp. 518. London, Macmillan, 1955.
3. *The Elizabethan Renaissance: The Life of the Society*. Pp. 359. London, Macmillan, 1971.
4. *The Elizabethan Renaissance: The Cultural Achievement*. Pp. 469. London, Macmillan, 1972.

The well-known Elizabethan historian, A.L. Rowse (better known for his initials than for his personal names), passed away some fifteen years ago, and his

well-known trilogy of books on the Elizabethan age (subsequently extended into a tetralogy) dates back to the early fifties and the early seventies. But this year,

no doubt in honour of the Diamond Jubilee of the second Elizabeth, the Folio Society of London has seen fit to pay honour to the historian of the first Elizabeth, with this handsome reproduction of his four volumes. One may well imagine the author, no longer turning in his grave, as he has no doubt had frequent occasion to do during the past fifteen years, but positively leaping in it, if not quite to the extent of rising from the dead. At least, his waning reputation has been triumphantly resurrected.

Paradoxically, this trilogy of four books by a leading historian of the Elizabethan age isn't so much a history of the reign of Queen Elizabeth as an encyclopedic survey of almost every conceivable aspect of that age. Inevitably, the queen herself is the great and glorious heroine in the starry eyes of her author-admirer, and next comes her no less admired Lord Treasurer, who guides her footsteps to greatness and glory over a period of forty years, smoothing over the problem of her accession and solving (with the assistance of his son) the further problem of her succession. Personally, from his Cornish viewpoint, the author looks from the little England presided over by Elizabeth to the beginnings of the great British Empire, as illustrated in the prose epic of Hakluyt's *Voyages* and incarnated above all in the heroism of Sir Francis Drake. Then culturally, the author peppers his narrative with references to the great dramatist William Shakespeare, beside whom in the related field of music, then entering a Golden Age for England, he places (though a recusant) William Byrd. Finally, philosophically, or rather scientifically (for he has little use for philosophy in its traditional meaning), he looks forward to the personality and the writings of Sir Francis Bacon, as pointing the way from the medieval past (with its survival into the Elizabethan present) to the modern future from the seventeenth century onwards.

It is astonishing how many facts and figures (in both the arithmetical and the personal sense) the author manages to pack into almost 2,000 pages of text. It is incredible how much he knows of every aspect of the age, or rather how many *fiches* he has amassed over the years related to the life and society of the Elizabethans, and how he has managed to put them all together in a breathless, jostling, jumbled arrangement, in which he strives to relate the wood to the trees or the trees to the wood – till in the second volume he finds his forte in the voyages of the Elizabethan seamen as the precursors, under Queen Elizabeth, of the British Empire. Strangely, he disapproves of the Reformation, as initiated by the queen's tyrannical father, with all its brutal, idolatrous, destructive excesses, even while registering his approval of the skilful way Elizabeth, with the aid of Burghley, directed those excesses to the enrichment and secularization of her subjects. The Reformation may have

been a dark cloud, but during the forty-five years of Elizabeth's reign the proverbial silver, or rather golden, lining came to appear.

It is professedly as a historian that the author writes, with his emphasis on fact rather than theory, but ironically it is as an all too human person that he injects his own subjectivity into almost every sentence. He has little good to say for the preceding medieval period, owing to what he regards as the domination of religious faith over the minds of men during those dark ages, and consequently he has little better to say for the obstinate recusants who persisted in adhering to that old faith without accommodating themselves to the wise policy of their queen. While himself sceptical about religion in general, he approves of the *via media* of the Church of England, as established by Elizabeth in a prudently secular, Erastian mode, but if there is anything other than Rome he can't tolerate it is Geneva. In this attitude he sees himself at one with the queen, who might accept Catholics like Byrd who retained their loyalty to her, but recognized the Puritans – more than Burghley ever did – as the real threat to the peace and order of her realm.

Nor is it only in the religious sphere that the author injects his unhistorical feelings, but wherever he finds any sign of superstition, whether religious or otherwise, or any popular myth, such as the common idea that the sun rises in the East and sets in the West, he liberally scatters such pejoratives as 'fool' and 'foolery', 'idiot' and 'idiotic', 'nonsense' and 'nonsensical', till the majority of human beings, not only medieval past but also Elizabethan present, and even modern future, come to be tarred with the same brush. Evidently, he is unaware of the Chaucerian proverb, 'Curses, like chickens, come home to roost', and of the flight of the Australian boomerang that returns to the sender. What a pity the Folio Society failed to take the opportunity of their luxury volumes to exercise a measure of judicial editing, even without the deceased author's consent, to weed out all these pejorative expressions, with their implication of an uncontrolled egoism that is hardly suited to a historian!

After all, it is a truth universally acknowledged by historians, and even by the author himself in his saner moments, that central to the reign of Queen Elizabeth is the religious problem. It is further acknowledged, even by the author, that on her accession to the English throne, the majority of her subjects were Catholic, and yet somehow, in the course of her long reign of forty-five years – in contrast to the brief reigns of her half-brother Edward and her half-sister Mary – she contrived to win over a corresponding majority to her Protestant way of thinking. How, one wonders, did she manage to do so? Naturally, from the viewpoint of the author, this was simply effected by the two Acts of Supremacy and Uniformity in her first Parliament of 1559, but what he fails to empha-

size – though he does mention that the vote in the upper house was only won by a majority of three – is the subtle way this majority was achieved by the pair of brothers-in-law, Sir William Cecil and Sir Nicholas Bacon, by preventing the bishops from attending. He emphasizes the tolerant nature of the queen, in refusing to make windows into men's souls, but he minimizes the readiness of Cecil and his subsequent Puritanical ally Walsingham to make such windows. It wasn't just the clemency of the queen that won over the hearts of her formerly Catholic subjects, but the continual pressure exercised upon them by the stepping up of the discriminating penal laws, usually at Cecil's instigation, till from the mid-1570s it amounted to a persecution comparable to that of the Roman emperors against the early Christians.

Of the two Jesuits, in particular, who led the so-called 'Jesuit invasion' of England in 1580, the author shows some respect for Edmund Campion, though he slurs over the unfairness, to say nothing of the cruelty, of his treatment in the Tower, but only

disrespect for Robert Persons (whom he deliberately misspells as 'Parsons', following the form used by his enemies). He also offers a pseudo-psychological interpretation for the activities of Persons in terms of revenge against the English State, whereas on his return to the continent after Campion's execution he was prompted both by his desire to capitalize on his friend's martyrdom – according to the saying of Tertullian, '*Sanguis martyrurum, semen ecclesiae*' – and his disgust at the cruelty exercised by the English captors on such an innocent man. I may add my own disgust at the unhistorical treatment of Persons by this professed historian, in basing his prejudices on Persons' enemies both Anglican and seminarian – on men like the Anglican dean Matthew Sutcliffe and the seminary priest William Watson (whom the author insists on calling 'Father Watson', as if ignorant of his Christian name). Such is the blind spot in the author's whole attitude to the age of Elizabeth.

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Peter Milward

Queen and Country: The Relation between the Monarch and the People in the Development of the English Nation.

Edited by Alessandra Petrina. Pp. 325, Bern (Swiss) Peter Lang, 2011, \$88.95.

Representations of Elizabeth I in Early Modern Culture. Edited by Alessandra Petrina. Pp. xv, 283, Basingstoke, Palgrave Macmillan, 2011, \$82.70.

Dissing Elizabeth: Negative Representations of Gloriana. Edited by Julia M. Walker. Durham/London, Duke University Press, 1998, \$16.43.

Shakespeare, as usual, puts it to perfection – both at the end of *Twelfth Night* in the words of the Fool, 'The whirligig of Time brings in his revenges', and in the beginning of *King Lear* in the words of the Heroine, 'Time shall unfold what plighted cunning hides.' True, in the case of John Foxe's all too memorable contrast between 'Bloody Mary' and 'Good Queen Bess', Time may have taken a long time to bring the Truth to light, but now at last in the postmodern current of revisionism and the long-delayed backlash against the prevalent Whig (or Protestant) interpretation of English history, scholars are beginning to speak of 'Good Queen Mary' and even (if I may put it somewhat bluntly) of 'Bloody Bess'. So here we are presented with two recent books, both edited by Alessandra Petrina, of the Italian University of Padua, which serve (if I may again put it somewhat bluntly) to take Elizabeth I 'down a peg', or what is called in an earlier book 'dissing Elizabeth' in what the editor in her Introduction calls (using an admittedly slang term) a 'discourse of disrespect and dissent'. It may be added that the majority of contributors, including the editors, to these three volumes are women who seem to share a common sympathy with the hitherto downtrodden figure of Mary Tudor and a corresponding antipathy to her hitherto upheld figure of her half-sister Gloriana, alias Elizabeth.

To begin with, the very glorification of Gloriana, the name given by Edmund Spenser to his Fairy Queen, may well serve, as Jane Stevenson points out in her opening article to the first volume, to transform Elizabeth 'into a species of sacred monster' (p. 23), especially when we consider how it became close to treason to criticize her and how she herself delighted in the abject flattery of her subjects, a flattery that significantly ceased on her decease and replacement by the Scottish king James I (whose mother she had had executed). In the same volume it is twice repeated, in the essay on 'Opposing Elizabeth' by Peter Davidson, that 'The case against Elizabeth is far easier to set forth than is the case in her favour' (p. 175), and again that 'It is much easier to disprize than to praise Elizabeth' (p. 176). She was, after all, 'an unmarried woman ruler whose legitimacy was open to question in the light of the wills of her (Protestant) father and brother, childless and unwilling to identify a successor, committed to a careful religious policy which filled the upper ranks of her church with ambitious new men', or in other words 'to favour an improvised Protestant settlement' which came to be defined 'by opposition to international Catholicism' (p. 174) – and which inevitably led, if after the uneasy delay of a decade, to her excommunication by Pope Pius V, who did not hesitate to call her (ironically in

the footsteps of her father and brother) a 'bastard'. Thus at least her Catholic subjects in exile could openly speak of her in unfavourable terms, as the spy Anthony Munday noted in his *English Roman Life*, whereas those at home had perforce to flatter her like everyone else, even (like Edmund Campion and Robert Southwell) in the moment of being hanged, drawn and quartered with her presumed approval. This seemingly paradoxical contention of Davidson is more fully elaborated by Paola Bottalla with reference to the mythical 'mask of youth' enforced by the many miniatures of the aging queen entrusted to Nicholas Hilliard (and no one else), whereby there developed 'a growing gap between reality and myth' that 'transformed the aging woman into a hieratic goddess' (p. 83). In the same process the queen herself 'promoted literary fables' glorifying herself, such as the Petrarchan lady, the chaste goddess Diana, the Moon Cynthia, and above all 'the Virgin Queen and Mother, protecting the nation like the Virgin Mary, the main feminine icon in the medieval world' (p. 84). No wonder, as the author points out, such flattery 'became as excessive as it was insincere', and no wonder that her erstwhile lover the Earl of Essex was led to declare, if privately and recklessly, that the old queen was 'cankered, and her mind was as crooked as her carcass' (p. 85).

Such 'dissing' of Queen Elizabeth is, on the other hand, strangely muted in the other book edited by the same Alessandra Petrina under the title of *Representations of Elizabeth I*, presumably because of the contrast between the way people came to view the aging queen and the way she was officially represented – in other words, between the reality and the myth. On her accession to the throne, her recognized Protestantism was, it is considered, all in her favour. The editor herself somewhat surprisingly remarks in her Introduction that 'Elizabeth represents the summa of what is best about the past, whether mythical, Christian or national, and offers the illusion of stability and continuity in the future' (p. 1). She is followed by Stephen Orgel, who puts it more specifically in his contention that 'Elizabeth, coming to the throne with a compromised claim, certainly had as her greatest asset her Protestantism' (p. 14) – though he might have added the strong support of Sir William Cecil, who became to the throne of England what Polonius was to that of Denmark, in the words of Claudius to Laertes, 'The head is not more native to the heart,/ The hand more instrumental to the mouth,/ Than is the throne of Denmark to thy father.' (i.2) Similarly, Carlo Bajetta praises 'her admirable upholding of the true Protestant faith' in the years preceding her accession (p. 108). In any case, even if her subjects increasingly felt the need to criticize her, whether from a Catholic or a Puritan or even an orthodox Anglican standpoint, there was, as Paola Baseotta observes, a

'Bill against Slanderous and Seditious Words and Rumours which made criticism of the Queen a risky enterprise' (p. 67). And so in the eventual outcome, it may be said, as Effie Bottonaki puts it, that 'her representation from the seventeenth century to this day has been mostly positive' (p. 141).

Only in the immediate outcome, in the reign of her successor James I, the Venetian secretary noted how the new king absented himself from her funeral, how 'he wishes to see her neither alive nor dead', and how in consequence 'Elizabeth's portrait is being hidden everywhere, and Mary Stuart's shown instead' (p. 141). In not a few masques, moreover, which came to be characteristic of the new court of James with his Catholic Queen Anne of Denmark, 'Diana or the Moon is either described in derogatory terms or is initially praised, only to be eventually forced to withdraw, admit defeat or pay respects to the Sun-God James.' In other masques, too, 'the Moon as the goddess of chastity is often treated with disrespect' (p. 142). Even more openly, with reference to the declining years of Elizabeth's reign, Godfrey Goodman, subsequently Bishop of Gloucester, commented that 'the people were very generally weary of an old woman's government' (p. 146).

Finally, though open criticism of the queen remained muted for most of her reign, it could be vented by what Kristine Johanson calls 'the Rhetoric of Nostalgia', such as we find in the phrase, 'Twas never merry world since . . .' (p. 210). Thus the Puritan John Field in his pamphlet against the Jesuit Robert Persons, *A Caveat for Parsons Howlet*, criticizes those disgruntled Catholics who 'whisper from place to place, and from one to another upon their ale-bench, What days are these, what wickedness is in the world, O the golden world is gone. Then we had a merry world. It was never merry world since there was so much talk of the scripture.' (p. 216) She therefore concludes, 'To speak of a "merry world in England" is to invoke explicitly a popular cultural image of the nation, one mocked by Protestant writings as a Catholic yearning for the past.' (p. 219) In fact, most of her essay is an exploration of this Catholic theme in Shakespeare's early *First Part of the Contention*, commonly known as *Henry VI Part II* – when she might have gone on to a further exploration of the same theme in such other plays as *Richard III*, *Richard II*, and *As You Like It*.

Looking back from these two books to the original 'dissing' of Elizabeth in the earlier title whose significant sub-title is 'Negative Representations of Gloriana', we find from the outset a felt need to swim against the still common assumption 'that criticism of her was somehow particularly mean-spirited – too simply the product of medieval misogyny or blind religious prejudice', and consequently to eschew 'examples of simply or exclusively Catholic rhetoric',

which might naturally be regarded as biased against the queen (p. 2), and even to avoid the inevitably ambiguous position of Shakespeare in favour of the seeming flattery of Spenser (p. 6). After all, what characterizes many of the contributions in this book is the admission of the all but universal flattery of the Virgin Queen, combined with the realization that only under the cover of such flattery could criticism of her and her government be heard. Even then it was dangerous, as the Puritan John Stubbs found to his cost, the loss of his ears in punishment for his outspoken *Discovery of a Gaping Gulf* in 1579. Already early on in her reign, as Peter McCullough points out, the Dean of St. Paul's, Alexander Nowell, had realized that 'he had no other way to instruct the queen what she should be, but by commending her' (p. 119). Also, with reference to the subsequent case of Richard Fletcher, soon to be Bishop of London and father of the dramatist John Fletcher, he shows how pulpit oratory might be used by way of 'biblical allusion, typology, and iconography to safely advise and rebuke the queen at a time when she had cut herself off from all other institutional forms of counsel' (p. 120). Whereas past historians have allowed themselves to be misled by all the contemporary flattery of the aging queen, it has now, according to Hannah Betts, become a widespread recognition that the late 1590s were 'one of the most unstable periods on English history'. This is at least one basic cause for the dramatic rise from 1597 onwards in the output of satirical literature, such as we find reflected (I might add) in Shakespeare's comedy of *As You Like It* and

his problem plays of *Hamlet* and *Troilus and Cressida*. In this connection Marcy North introduces readers to a little known poem in a private anthology by one Henry Stanford concerning 'a very powerful woman's claim to virginity' and drawing an interesting contrast between 'She that was thought so full with wisdom fraught' and 'Even she hath lost her maidenhead, and daughters three to all the world brought forth'. (p.186) The reference here is to the widespread rumour that Elizabeth had given birth to four children by Robert Dudley, Earl of Leicester, of whom the one male child was burned to death, but the significance may be recognized in the apparent echo of the poem in Hamlet's opening lament over his mother, 'Why, she would hang on him' and then, 'Why she, even she', and finally, 'she married.'

No wonder, with all this in mind, Peter Davidson, in turning from what he praises as 'the thoughtful collection of essays edited by Julia M. Walker, published under the title *Dissing Elizabeth*', to his own essay for Alessandra Petrini in *Queen and Country*, was able to conclude that, for all appearances to the contrary, and all the self-confident assertions of Whig historians, even by reading between the lines of the accumulated flattery in her reign, 'the case against Elizabeth is far easier to set forth than is the case in her favour' (p.175) – even without the negative views of Catholic contemporaries, and of Shakespeare himself.

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Peter Milward

God's Secret Agents: Queen Elizabeth's Forbidden Priests and the Hatching of the Gunpowder Plot. By Alice Hogge. Pp. 445, London, HarperCollins, 2005, \$102.06.

Why, oh why must authors or literary agents or publishers insist on adding a lengthy, unwieldy, even misleading sub-title to a perfectly respectable main title? 'God's Secret Agents', what a wonderful title, whetting our literary appetite for the sequent repast! Who are these secret agents, we may well ask ourselves, on opening the book to chapter One? But all is spoilt for us by the unnecessary sub-title, as it were a Dragon at the Gate forbidding entrance, like the spies at the English seaports preventing entrance to the incoming waves of missionaries.

Yet the book, once opened, is a real treasury of interesting information concerning an aspect of Elizabethan history strangely neglected no less by historians than by literary scholars. In the past at least Catholic readers were keen to know more about their spiritual ancestry in the dark days of Queen Elizabeth's reign, or what was once known as the Elizabethan persecution. Now, alas, it is so no longer. Rather, it is now taken as a sign of sectarianism, a

lamentable lack of ecumenism, to dwell on a period when Papists and Protestants and Puritans – the three religions mentioned by Robert Persons in a pamphlet of his published in 1592 – were at daggers drawn, or (to vary the phrase) at loggerheads with each other. But the lady author of this welcome book makes no bones, entertains no secret, about those whom she felicitously names 'God's secret agents'. Only the sub-title she has chosen, or which has been chosen for her, is not only unwieldy but misleading, in speaking of 'forbidden priests' in general. For it implies both seminary priests and Jesuits, who were both the frequent object of royal proclamations issued in the queen's name (mostly drawn up by Lord Burghley), whereas both in her text and in the reality of the reign it was the Jesuits who for all their inferior numbers were by far the most active, the most vocal, and the most feared of the agents.

I would therefore make this book required reading of all today's historians and literary scholars, espe-

cially if their expertise is at all Shakespearian, even though it is singularly innocent of such academic jargon as seems to be a prerequisite of all authoritative texts in our postmodern halls of learning. It makes at once for easy, pleasant, delighted reading and for reliable, factual presentation of evidence for almost everything the author has to say. Only, in dealing with such a vast amount of material of what has come to be called 'recusant history', she can hardly be expected to say everything, though there are some things on which she might have been expected to say something. And what is more, she occasionally goes beyond what is nowadays called her 'remit' by falling into exaggeration to cover over what is evidently her ignorance.

In detail, I would fault her for not having said more about Allen's few years in England between 1562 and 1565, when his visit to his native Lancashire at that time seems to have been all-important in confirming the gentry of that county in the faith of their fathers. Some of that time, too, was spent at Oxford, and some even seemingly at Stratford, as well as in Norfolk in the Duke's household. It was also a time when he had an important contact with Thomas Houghton, who later went into exile for the sake of 'conscience' after the Rising of the Northern Earls in 1569 and helped him to establish his seminary at Douai. She might also have said more about the influence of Southwell on his literary and poetic contemporaries, which has been amply documented, and in particular his long poem on 'Saint Peter's Complaint'. As for his *Humble Supplication*, surely this is deserving of more than her dismissive 'from poet to polemicist' (p. 171), when the poet is presenting a humble plea to her majesty on behalf of his afflicted fellow Catholics.

As for her discussion of the religious controversies of the age in which the Jesuits had so considerable a part to play, the author covers up her evident failure to immerse herself in their words, by means of what might be regarded as a laudable, Johannine preference for their deeds. Only by exaggerating the situation, and by easily assuming that the one side was as bad as the other, she does injustice to the justly aggrieved party. From the outset she speaks of the Lovanists as 'releasing a stream of anti-Protestant publications' (p. 49), ignoring the fact that they were doing their best to meet the challenge issued by the Protestant champion John Jewel. As for the seminarians trained by Allen at Douai, she dismisses them as an 'army of arguers' (p. 12). Of the Jesuits in particular she declares that 'to Loyola's men this was holy war and in warfare the end justifies the means' (p. 68) – which is a lie! The Jesuits never taught that Machiavellian doctrine! Of the seminarians (again) she says that many of them 'seemed drawn to death like moths to a flame' (p. 135) – without the slightest justification. Again, she dismisses 'the war of words between

Protestants and Catholics' as 'inflammatory outpourings' (p. 172), whereas if she had taken the trouble (as I have) to read these outpourings she would have noticed the flames proceeding from the mouths rather of the Protestants than the Catholics. Similarly, with reference to the Appellant controversy that broke out in the last years of Elizabeth's reign, she refers to it as 'a backdrop of vitriol' and an unnecessary 'backstabbing among the missionaries' (p. 268), without apparently noticing that the few seminary priests engaged in the conflict were supported by the English government and encouraged to use as much vitriol as possible, while the Jesuits were for the most part represented by one man, Robert Persons, who was provoked by them beyond measure, yet he invariably kept his temper. She does indeed note that the ring-leader of the priests, William Watson, went to the scaffold 'asking the Jesuits' pardon' (p. 313), but passes over his added admission that he had been telling lies against them.

The author is at her weakest when she comes to the second half of her sub-title, with its implication that everything she has said in her foregoing narrative has led up to the 'hatching of the Gunpowder Plot'. But it hasn't. Up till the death of Queen Elizabeth there is mention of 'plots – real and imagined – that measured out Elizabeth's reign', with the ironical qualification that 'they had shared the same fingerprints' (p. 328). Only her interpretation of 'fingerprints' is that the plots were aimed at 'the invasion of England by a foreign army and the killing of the Queen', ignoring the fact that most of the plots (including not least the Babington Plot against Mary Stuart), were indeed imaginary, and that they bore at least the indirect fingerprints of her spymaster Sir Francis Walsingham. She complains that 'the exact details of the Gunpowder Plot have never been established' (p. 346). But this is partly because she has failed to enter at all deeply into them, when she might have more prudently broken off her narrative at the death of Queen Elizabeth, partly because she refuses to entertain the contemporary opinion 'that the plot was a deliberate Government invention, designed to destroy English Catholicism', an opinion substantiated in recent years by Francis Edwards in his *The Enigma of Gunpowder Plot, 1605*, which was sadly published in 2008, too late for her needful consultation. Yet she goes on to quote Sir Robert Cecil's comment on the plot, 'The important thing is to demonstrate the iniquity of Catholics', who should therefore 'be exterminated' (p. 366).

Still, to her credit, unlike many historians and literary scholars, even Catholics, the author is not unaware that the years she is covering, at least from 1591 (when Cecil issued the royal proclamation that evoked such protests as Southwell's *Humble Supplication*) to 1606 (when Garnet suffered for his alleged

complicity in the plot), were also the years of Shakespeare's most intense dramatic activity. Thus she notes how the dramatist 'would sum up the pains of exile in a couplet' from *Richard II* (p. 52). She also notes how one of his first plays *The Comedy of Errors* to be presented by Lord Strange's Men may have been played at their Theatre in Shoreditch (p. 263), where she has already remarked that William Hartley was executed in the aftermath of the Armada in 1588 (p. 85) – yet without recalling the dramatist's own description of the scene as 'the place of death and sorry execution/ behind the ditches of the abbey here'. She aptly recalls the mention in *The Taming of the Shrew* of 'a young scholar that hath long been studying at Rheims' (ii.1). She often speaks of Anthony Munday as a professional informer and assistant to the torturer Richard Topcliffe, without adverting to the fact that he was a fellow dramatist of Shakespeare's and the not improbable object of the latter's Sonnet 125, 'Hence thou suborned informer!' She mentions the other priests who were indicted with Campion in 1581 but were not executed till 1582 (p. 92), but omits the name of Thomas Cottam, only to refer to him in a different connection later on (p. 186) – without noticing that he was brother to one of Shakespeare's schoolmasters at Stratford and neighbour to the above mentioned Thomas Houghton. She interprets the statement of the Privy Council that Gerard was 'a great intelligencer' (p. 238), as referring to his intrigues, whereas this was the technical term for those who gathered 'intelligence' or information on either side, and particularly for spies in the employ of Cecil or Walsingham (as also significantly used by Edmund against Edgar in *King Lear* ii.1). She also fails to notice Catesby's echo of Claudius' remark in *Hamlet* iv.3, 'Diseases desperate grown/ by desperate appliance are relieved', when he says, 'The nature of the disease required so sharp a remedy.' (p. 331) She fails to see the significance of the killing of Catesby and Percy before they could come to trial (p. 350) in the knowing comment of Lennox in *Macbeth* iii.6, 'Was not that nobly done? Ay, and wisely, too.' Also at Garnet's execution, she reports the anonymous account, 'All the windows were full, yea, the tops of houses full of people', without noticing the echo of Marullus' speech in *Julius Caesar* i.1, 'to towers and windows, yea, to chimney-tops'. Only, at the end she does quote the Porter's speech in *Macbeth* ii.3, with its mention of the 'equivocator' and the 'farmer' (one of the aliases used by Garnet), while prudently refraining from venturing an interpretation.

Nor, for all the author's meticulous attention to detail, may I pass over certain errors of fact that appear here and there in her text. On p.87 she speaks of 'Houghton Hall' as the place where Campion had left his books, whereas it was Park Hall the residence

of Richard Houghton at Charnock Richard. On p.110 she speaks of 'mortal souls', meaning 'immortal souls'. On p.142 she makes a fuss over the precise meaning of 'drawing' in the execution of a traitor by being 'hanged, drawn and quartered', whereas its very position in that phrase points to the way the hangman first hanged the body, then drew it down while still alive to be disembowelled and cut in quarters. On p.158 she names the assassin of the French King Henri III as 'Father Jacques Clement', overlooking the fact that he was a Dominican friar, and not all friars are priests. On p.166 she speaks of 'Elizabeth's anguish' at the news of Mary's execution, whereas Elizabeth had signed the death warrant and we know that she wanted Mary secretly done to death. On p.177 she sees the Catholic translation of the New Testament as 'rivalling Elizabeth's authorized Protestant version', but her Council made sure it couldn't be an effective rival, and in any case the only officially described 'authorized version' is that of King James I. On p.201 she mentions Elizabeth's 'rallying call to the troops at Tilbury in August 1588', without realizing that this is now recognized as a myth concocted after the event. On p.280 she speaks of Persons as contravening 'the Society's founding guidelines', but those guidelines were laid down by the then General Everard Mercurian, and Persons always acted with the knowledge and consent of Mercurian's successor Claudio Aquaviva. On p.294 she says that Winefred 'lived on as abbess to a religious house in Shrewsbury', whereas it was only later that her relics were transferred from Wales to the Benedictine Abbey at Shrewsbury. On p.314 she speaks of Anthony Rivers as 'Garnet's sometime secretary', but it has been proved that this is the pseudonym of William Sterrell, secretary to the Earl of Worcester, who is the more likely source of the leak mentioned on p.335. On p. 359 she quotes Cecil's comment that there are some who 'give out that only despair of the king's courses on the Catholics and their severity' had driven the plotters on, and yet one of those was precisely the presiding judge at Garnet's trial, the crypto-Catholic Earl of Northampton. On p.385 she seems to be at pains to defend Sir Robert Cecil as 'rare in his seeming lack of personal animus', but his was a cold, calculating hatred, all too similar to that of Shakespeare's Iago.

Finally, I have to apologize for bringing out all these little defects in a book that is so positively perfect on the whole. In her introduction on the inner jacket it is said that this is 'her first book', and so she is all the more to be commended for having put so much research into so little a space – even to the extent of putting a majority of academic historians and literary scholars to shame.

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Peter Milward

English Catholic Exiles in Late Sixteenth-Century Paris. By Katy Gibbons. Pp. x, 206, Suffolk, The Boydell Press, 2011, £50.00.

It is this author's contention that the situation of English Catholic recusants at home during the reign of Elizabeth I has received a disproportionate emphasis in contrast to that of the English Catholics in exile. It is to redress this seeming imbalance that she concentrates on their situation particularly in Paris. Yet when we think of such exiles, our thoughts naturally turn in the first place to Louvain, where the first, academic exiles gathered to conduct a controversial campaign with their Anglican challengers, then to Douai, Rheims and Rome, where William Allen established his seminaries for the formation of a secular clergy to replace the dwindling number of priests from the reign of Mary Tudor, then to other places in France, Spain and Rome, where the Jesuits were similarly assisting the Catholic cause back home, and above all to Spain, where the exiles were drawn by the munificence of King Philip II and in particular to the various seminaries for the English founded at Valladolid, Seville and Lisbon. It might well have been better worth the author's while to have devoted her attention to all these places of exile, noting the differing circumstances of the exiles in each, not to mention the remarkable solicitude for 'all the churches' and colleges of the exiles exhibited by one who might well, along with William Allen, deserve the title of 'Father of the English Mission', namely Robert Persons – though he has all too often been vilified not only by the appellant priests of his own time but also, to their shame, by not a few recusant historians of our own time. But the author has, no doubt for the specialized aims of the New Series of 'Studies in History', to which this volume makes its contribution, to limit her purview to the one city of Paris in view of the abundance of documentation on this one city alone, without spreading her net of scholarship too widely. It is to be hoped, therefore, that her study will be supplemented by monographs for the other places I have mentioned, and, I might add, that her successors will pay more attention to the human interest, so far as this may be found in the documentary sources.

Allowing for this concentration on one place of exile, however, there is one notable defect in the author's dissertation in her failure to observe the very principle on which she lays emphasis early on, 'This is an area where generalizations should be resisted.' (p. 26) Unfortunately, she herself, in common with not a few of the recusant historians mentioned above, shows little signs of any such resistance. Thus early on she speaks of 'the more uncompromising approach of Edmund Campion and Robert Persons' on their arrival in England in 1580 (p. 17) – presum-

ably in contrast to the compromises made from the beginning of Elizabeth's reign by most of the Marian clergy, for lack of any clear leadership at the time. But the author fails to note that the approach of these two Jesuits was not their own but the official teaching of the Catholic Church as taught at the Council of Trent and repeated by the Popes. Yet all through her book she goes on *ad nauseam* distinguishing between the 'moderates' and the 'radicals' (p. 39), referring to 'radical intransigence' (p. 93), 'radical Catholic ideology' (p. 109), 'an over-rigid dichotomy' (p. 169), and 'hard-line radicalism' (p. 172). Elsewhere she speaks all too slightly, yet with strange ignorance, of the way 'the Council of Trent had elevated the status of Latin in the Catholic Church' (p. 81), though the status of Latin had remained unchanged in the Latin Church from time immemorial and Trent did nothing to change it. She also speaks of what Peter Lake contemptuously calls 'the conspiracy theory' view of the Elizabethan regime, 'which peddled the line that the real enemies of the state were not Elizabeth's Catholic subjects, but those at the centre of power' such as the Earl of Leicester and Lord Burghley (p. 98), though this is a very respectable theory with its contemporary roots in the anonymous *Treatise of Treasons* (1572), *Leicester's Commonwealth* (1584), and *A Declaration of the True Causes* (1592). Again, she speaks in the same slighting tone of voice, characteristic of Alexandra Walsham, of 'the brand of Catholicism trumpeted by their (the Catholic exiles') clerical leaders' (p. 165). But there is no other official brand of Catholicism than that taught by the Pope with the bishops from the time of the Church's establishment by Christ himself on the foundation of the apostles.

Even stranger are the occasions when the author seems to defend the universally acknowledged tyranny of the Tudors with oblique references to what she calls 'the black legend of Henry VIII as a bloody tyrant' (p. 47), 'the continental "black legend" of the Tudors' (p. 102), and 'the black legends of Henry VIII and Elizabeth' (p. 111), which are seen as feeding 'into the wider black legend of Spain in Elizabethan England' (p. 133). In view of such statements, she might well be recommended to pay more attention to the plight of the poor Catholics at home under Henry VIII and Elizabeth I, if only to see how firmly that 'black legend' is founded on historical facts in far greater abundance than ever she has gleaned about the comparatively few Catholic exiles in late sixteenth-century Paris.

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Peter Milward

The Reformation of the Landscape. By Alexandra Walsham. Pp. xvi, 637, Oxford University Press, 2011, \$36.11.

Alexandra Walsham has come a long way since she published her book on *Church Papists* in 1993. Then, for all her warm-hearted sympathy with the plight of those Papists who conformed to the Elizabethan settlement for fear of the penalties awaiting recusants, she had all too little material to substantiate her case against the harsh directives from Rome. They may well have formed a majority within the Church of England, but it was their natural policy to lie low, leaving the controversies of the age to be waged between the clerical hard-liners and the persecuting authorities, whether political or episcopal. Now, however, she has come to deal with a task better suited to her endless industry, in dealing with the impact made by the Reformation, or what she variously calls 'the reformations' and 'the Long Reformation', on the landscape of England. Following on a brief survey of the medieval countryside, consecrated by many centuries of Catholic piety, she devotes the bulk of her bulky volume to the way the subsequent reformers sought to eradicate all traces of what they regarded as 'idolatry' and 'superstition'. Relying as she does on an assemblage of contemporary evidence, whose full extent has largely escaped the attention of historians of early modern times, ranging from the Henrician reformation to what she uniquely calls 'the Williamite coup' of 1688 (p. 187), she bases her thesis on an immense, if not an almost impossible, array of learning, such as betrays an indefatigable employment of index-cards. This hardly makes for smooth reading, as she jumps like an energetic grasshopper from place to place and from date to date with almost every sentence; and what makes matters worse, the printer has chosen a glossy paper for the 567 pages to be perused by the weary reader. Only, the thesis itself on which the author has chosen to present her findings is a fascinating one.

Then, what is her thesis? It isn't merely the obvious one that the Protestant reformers from the time of Thomas Cromwell to that of Oliver Cromwell effected a reform not only, willy-nilly, of the inward religion of their countrymen, but also of the outward scenery or 'landscape' of the countryside, leaving it 'littered with mutilated remains of the repudiated pre-Reformation past' (p. 233). As she concedes towards the end of her volume, after having piled evidence upon evidence in support of her case, 'the mark iconoclasm has left upon topographical folklore is more frequently negative in character' (p. 519). All the same, what she emphasizes again and again is that English Protestantism was more than 'a mandate for a sweeping programme of annihilation' (p. 94), or 'a progressive desacralization of the landscape' (p. 123), or a cleansing of the land 'of abominable idols' (p. 137). Rather, even in 'the desecration of such places', there was a simultaneous resanctification of them so as to reveal 'the inner

contradiction at the heart of iconoclasm' (p. 150), by which 'the sacred was not so much eroded as reconfigured and relocated', and 'redefined rather than wholly denied' (p. 151). Thus it is her consistent aim to show that, in spite of all evidence to the contrary, or what she dismisses as preconceptions and prejudices, Protestantism is not to be accused of contributing to the disenchantment or secularization of the landscape, but rather to be recognized as raising the minds of Englishmen from the many saints whose names and edifices had filled the medieval scene to the presence of God as not to be confined within works of human contriving. Indeed, the influence of Baconian empiricism, which she sees as 'vast and enduring', so far from fostering the deism or atheism of the eighteenth century 'enlightenment', as is sometimes thought, was intended to be (in his own words) 'an effectual inducement to the exaltation of the glory of God' (p. 359). In general, she invariably girds at the tendency of historians (rather than genuine historians) to simplify the issues in terms of black and white, right and wrong, while showing how in historical detail, from place to place and from time to time, different people reacted in different ways to directives from above, whether from the government or the episcopate or (in Scotland) of the kirk, and insisting rather on the values of 'subtlety' and 'complexity' and what she calls 'the multiple hues of compromise' (p. 540).

So far, so good. But in the vast canvas she has chosen for her depiction of the change in the English landscape effected by this Long Reformation over a period of 150 years, the author often fails to see (as we say) the wood of the trees; she is too intent on her prized collection of index cards to pay attention to the whole picture; she is too ready to urge caution on others, with such remarks as 'We must be careful to avoid seeing this in terms of any simple opposition' (p. 317), and 'Scholars have questioned the tendency to situate early modern science in polar opposition to superstition' (p. 357), and 'It may be a mistake to overstate' (p. 368), while failing to observe that caution herself. A notable example of her strange blindness with regard to what might have been expected to stand at the centre of her thesis is the lack of any discussion of the dissolution of the monasteries in the reign of Henry VIII or any mention of the principal perpetrator of that dissolution, Thomas Cromwell, apart from a few minor items. Perhaps she regarded it as a subject too large to be treated at all adequately in view of the particular details surrounding it; or perhaps she left its general treatment to the eventual reaction against the destruction of the abbeys in the era of Laud, when 'their vicious rape by King Henry VIII evolved into a source of intense embarrassment to the high churchmen of this period', and

'their spoliation came to be seen as the chief blemish of the Reformation' (p. 274). Then she quotes the words of John Weever, about 'the mournful ruins' of those religious houses which were 'a symbol of a shameful disrespect for the sacred that had left hideous scars upon the face of the landscape' (p. 277). In this connection she pays due attention to the names of Sir William Dugdale and Sir Henry Spelman, but the name that most impressed me was that of Edward Brouckner, who declared, in his *Curse of Sacrilege* (1630), that 'no one needed spectacles to see that filthy avarice alone had motivated the Henrician regime', that 'the dissolution had been shot through with hypocrisy', and that it had been 'an act of sacred theft unprecedented in scale and audacity' (p. 285).

Secondly, whereas she pays respect to 'the vast and enduring' influence of Bacon and defends his empirical approach to science from the accusation of atheism, she hasn't a word to say for his great contemporary and counterpart in the field of drama, William Shakespeare, though in view of such plays as *A Midsummer Night's Dream* and *As You Like It*, it might be thought that as a countryman, 'warbling his native woodnotes wild', he might have had a word to say about the changes effected in the landscape of his native Warwickshire. True, she does cite the words of his Sonnet 73 on 'bare ruined choirs', if without attribution; but she might have quoted the other words of Macduff after his viewing of Duncan's corpse, 'Confusion now hath made his masterpiece! Most sacrilegious murder hath broke ope/ The Lord's anointed temple, and stole thence/ The life o' the building!' (ii.3) – words whose application is so much more relevant to what Henry VIII did to the monasteries than to what Macbeth has done to Duncan.

As for Bacon, whereas she is intent on absolving him from any direct connection with the rise of deism and atheism in the eighteenth century, she fails to quote his other words, also in his *Advancement of Learning* (1605), about an excessive attention to secondary causes leading to practical atheism. He himself may have been a religious man, no less devout a Protestant than his learned mother Lady Anne Bacon, and, what is more – though the author fails to remark on it – his aim in devoting his mind to the Book of Nature was inspired by that of Luther concerning the other Book of Scripture, with an implied rejection of human (i.e. medieval) traditions. But he evidently lacked the foresight to realize that succeeding generations might not turn so readily as

himself from those secondary causes to their First Cause. This lack of foresight is evidently shared by the lady author, who sadly notes the disenchantment and secularization of the landscape and the evacuation of 'the divine from the material universe' (p. 151) in connection with what she recognizes as 'the backdrop of the challenge of atheism and deism' (p. 445), while vainly seeking to absolve both Bacon himself and Protestantism in general from any causality in this process.

In conclusion, I may add several inaccuracies that no doubt escaped the attention of the author in reading the proofs of her formidable manuscript, in the order of pages as they occur. p. 76: Whereas she says that 'the Jews had worshipped God on mountains and in Jerusalem', it was (as stated in John 4) the Samaritans who worshipped God on mountains, while the Jews worshipped him in Jerusalem. p. 130: Whereas she speaks of the cross as 'invented by St Helena', it was discovered by her (from the Latin *inventum*). p. 142: What an odd word, 'disafforestation'! p. 169: Whereas she says, 'making an abeyance', she evidently means 'obedience'. p. 234: Whereas she speaks of 'the New Testament tenet that the Lord did not dwell in temples made by human hands', this is the Old Testament tenet as stated by Solomon in his dedication of the temple at Jerusalem (I Kings 8:27). p. 267: Whereas she says that 'a new burial ground was solemnly reconciled by the bishop', she should have said 'reconsecrated'. p. 316: Whereas she speaks of the Carfax conduit in Oxford as 'edified' (from the Latin *aedificatus*), the appropriate word should surely have been 'built', or 'constructed'. p. 357: Whereas she speaks (here and elsewhere) of 'an ongoing and dynamic process of negotiation' (cf. also p. 473), I would urge her to avoid all such traces of modern academic jargon. p. 414: Whereas she calls John Feckenham a 'seminary priest', he was a Benedictine monk and abbot of Westminster (under Mary I). p. 508: Whereas she speaks of 'petty deities (whether popish or pagan)', I might remind her that there are no popish 'petty deities', except in the eyes of Puritan iconoclasts. p. 529: Whereas she speaks of 'an evolving myth of puritan and Presbyterian fanaticism', I would caution her against too easy a misuse of the word 'myth', especially considering that she herself has given ample evidence of such fanaticism in action.

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Peter Milward

Treasure, Treason and the Tower: El Dorado and the Murder of Sir Walter Raleigh. By Paul R. Sellin. Pp. xxiv, 306. Farnham, Ashgate, 2011, \$49.82.

On the basis of original archival research, Sellin explodes the scholarly consensus that Raleigh's sup-

posed discovery of gold in Guyana was a hoax, and more deeply exposes the court intrigue surrounding

James I to scapegoat Raleigh as a rogue freebooter who gratuitously despoiled a nearby Spanish town, thereby endangering good relations between England and Spain, upset James' plans to marry a Spanish *Infanta* (and gain access to her fabulous dowry based on new-world gold), thereby committing an act of treason against the interests of England, which took him properly to the block in 1618. The bulk of the book consists in a detailed chronicle of Sellin's personal expedition through the Orinoco delta in present-day Venezuela to retrace and verify Raleigh's account of his first voyage of 1594–5. And lo and behold, it checks out! Raleigh had indeed been shown rich gold-bearing quartz by local Arawak Indians anxious to secure English aid in throwing off the Spanish oppressor. Also, the Spanish had moved their town to a different location where Raleigh's men stumbled upon it. The Indians attacked first; Raleigh's men merely defended themselves. The villainy at home was two-fold: James' prevarication about offending Phillip of Spain, no matter how unjust the charges

brought against Raleigh; but principally the faithless manoeuvring and nakedly duplicitous ambitions of James' 'toy-boy', the 'Favourite' Georges Villiers, Marquis and later Duke of Buckingham (assassinated in deep debt in 1628). The latter knew the truth, hid it from James, retained a map showing the location of the gold, and formed a secret alliance with Gustavus Adolphus of Sweden to send an expeditionary force to secure and mine the gold when it became clear that James and England were too afraid of offending the Spanish to do so – thus ironically going behind the back of his sovereign and disclosing official state secrets to a foreign prince for personal gain – committing the act of high treason for which he deliberately and falsely allowed Raleigh to go to the block years before. This is a smashing good read as a combination of Who-Done-It? and adventure story, and every word of it is true.

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Patrick Madigan

The Society of Jesus in Ireland, Scotland, and England, 1589–1597: Building the Faith of Saint Peter upon the King of Spain's Monarchy. By Thomas M. McCoog, S.J., Pp.xiv, 467, Farnham, Surrey, Ashgate, 2012, £75.00.

Into this seemingly magisterial volume the author has poured every conceivable detail concerning the Society of Jesus in England, Scotland and Ireland (to give the countries in their customary and natural order) during the eventful decade of 1589–97 at an almost breathless pace, so as to leave the reader similarly breathless, not to mention bewildered. From the innumerable facts he records in his pages, duly supported by similarly innumerable footnotes, it seems there is nothing the author doesn't know about his subject and nothing he has left unrecorded. Only the facts are too many, and the reasons behind them too few, with all kinds of questions left hanging in the air, awaiting further consideration by himself or perhaps by others under his direction. Only the trees are visible in this forest, but the forest itself is left out of sight. From one point of view, the author may be said to have spread his net all too widely, not just over the three countries mentioned in his title, covering what used to be called 'the British Isles', but also over Spain, Rome and the Low Countries, wherever the English Jesuits of that time similarly spread their net – Jesuits who may at once be named as Henry Garnet in England, Robert Persons in Spain and Rome, and their general superior Claudio Acquaviva. Collectively, they are the hero of this volume, in spite of all the enemies ranged against them – possibly or doubtfully including the author himself.

This doubt goes back to the sub-title, which sounds strange coming from the pen of a Jesuit author, and which is in fact the phrase of the great enemy of

Robert Persons, Christopher Bagshawe, who is said to be 'admittedly a suspect source' (p. 201). The same doubt extends to the odd, contemporary wording of the chapter titles, such as 'Schools of Sedition', 'Lurking Papists', and 'Leagues of Unquiet and Subversive Spirits', as if implying the author's sympathy or at least indicating a readiness to see both sides of the religious issue, anti-Catholic no less than Catholic, anti-Jesuit no less than Jesuit. In this respect, the author is implicitly at odds with what he calls 'the received wisdom' (p. 149), which amounts to the work of those he minimizes as 'traditional confessional historians', by name Leo Hicks, Christopher Devlin and Francis Edwards, who are said to 'offer simple explanations' (p. 185). They are those who take their stand with Robert Persons and Henry Garnet, who see them as little short of heroic in their endeavours for the Catholic cause, and for whom the English government under Burghley and those who play into Burghley's hands (such as the Paget/Morgan faction), as being no less plainly the villains. As for the author, who champions the opposing standpoint of Alexandra Walsham, Michael Questier and Peter Lake, he aims at portraying the admittedly murky history of contemporary events with judicial impartiality, regarding the issue no less from the standpoint of Elizabeth and Burghley, Huntingdon and Topcliffe, than of their Jesuit 'victims'. Thus of Burghley he imagines the poor man as 'terrified by the threat posed by recusant gentry' (p. 20), and if he helped to draft legislation against recusants, it was 'because

their allegiance was suspect' (p. 65). As for Elizabeth, he maintains that she was all for 'moderation' (p. 86). Even of Huntingdon, 'cruel he may have been', but (as Questier points out) 'his actions were not irrational excess' (p. 61), and the Jesuit Henry Walpole is said to have received 'courteous treatment' at his hands, though soon to suffer the customary barbarous form of execution (p. 156). Even Topcliffe comes in for his meed of praise, for the way he 'skilfully organized and brilliantly executed a raid' on recusant houses in London (p. 163). Even Southwell's adversaries, Popham and Coke, are apparently justified in regarding his use of equivocation as undermining 'the fabric of civilized society' (p. 181) – though Shakespeare speaks with the voice of common sense in the words of the Duke in *Measure for Measure*, 'So disguise shall by the disguis'd/Pay with falsehood false exacting.'

All the same, with all the author's endeavours to see things from the viewpoint of their enemies, it has to be admitted that both Persons and Garnet, not to mention Acquaviva, come out very well from these pages, even as heroes noted (as few even of their past supporters have noted them) for their caution and prudence. As is said of Persons, 'The work expected of him – and the work he actually accomplished – was astonishing.' (p. 116) Truly, deeds speak louder than words, and the more emphasis the author lays on facts during this exceedingly busy decade for Persons, the more the reader is filled with astonishment at what Persons managed to perform, in spite of so many reversals – or what might be seen as divine disposals – to his repeated proposals for the Catholic cause. Even his seemingly political activities are justified again and again by his repeated insistence that 'the line separating secular from spiritual was not so clear' (p. 141), that 'one cannot deal with the one without bringing in the other' (p. 233), and that 'the interests of the state and of religion are so mixed up and intertwined' (p. 378). The author may refer with a tone of depreciation to his predecessor Francis Edwards as Persons' 'foremost contemporary apologist', but if that has been so up till recently, his place

has been amply filled by the no less esteemed Victor Houlston.

Among the many loose ends left by the indefatigable author for more detailed examination by others are what he calls the many 'conspiracies involving Spain, real, imagined, fabricated or manipulated' (p. 6). Concerning them he again asks, 'How many of the conspiracies were real? How many of them were carefully cultivated by government officials? How many were simply created for political gain?' (p. 152) He admits that his rival Francis Edwards has already attempted a detailed answer in a trilogy of books, but he places no trust in him or them. He is more ready to lend his ears to an opponent. Again, he asks, 'Why were Southwell and Walpole executed?' (p. 185) – preferring to listen to hoped for answers from Michael Questier and Peter Lake, instead of such a traditional, confessional historian as Christopher Devlin, whose *Life of Robert Southwell* (1956) was at one time regarded as authoritative. Again, he asks, in view of the recent publications in favour of Church Papists, 'Was Allen annoyed at Garnet's hard line on occasional conformity?' (p. 203) – without apparently realizing that Allen was one of the first to proclaim the Tridentine and Papal teaching on recusancy in his native Lancashire, that Persons on his arrival in London some fifteen years later was but reviving that teaching, and that Garnet was in turn loyally upholding the same teaching, while prudently turning a blind eye to occasional infringements. As for Paget and Morgan, he asks, 'were their motives as base as Hicks suggested?' (p. 336) Well, let the author go into the facts of the case as fully as Leo Hicks has done in his truly magisterial *An Elizabethan Problem* (1964) – though with regard to the motives of this problem pair, one may well quote the words Shakespeare puts into the mouth of the pious King Henry VI, 'Forbear to judge, for we are sinners all.' And such may well be the judgment of the reviewer concerning the book under review.

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Peter Milward

Into the Lion's Den: The Jesuit Mission in Elizabethan England and Wales, 1580–1603. By Robert E. Scully, S.J. Pp. xv, 468. St. Louis, The Institute of Jesuit Sources, 2011.

Here is an excellent survey of the Jesuit mission, otherwise known as 'invasion', to England and Wales during the reign of Queen Elizabeth from the landing of the first two Jesuits, Edmund Campion and Robert Persons, on English soil in the summer of 1580 till the death of the 'persecuting' queen in 1603. It is indeed incredible how widely read the author shows himself not only in the original sources but also in the more recent bibliography on the subject, which has been

growing with remarkable rapidity over the past two or three decades.

Among so many authors it is only on the major dates and events that the more recent writers manifest anything like a consensus, on such dates as the arrival of those Jesuits in 1580, the arrest and execution of Campion in 1581, followed by the withdrawal of Persons to the Catholic continent, together with the stepping up of severe measures by the Elizabethan

government against the Catholic priests and 'recusants', amounting to a recognition of 'persecution' as in the days of the Roman empire.

The mission, in spite of all the odds against it, was continued by succeeding Jesuits, according to the ideal of 'enterprise' stated in the notorious 'Campion's Brag', in a complex variety of ways as tabulated in the several chapters of this book – on the beginnings of the mission, on its topographical extent in the different counties of both England and Wales, on its clandestine ministries, on its frequent reliance on devoted women, on the vexed question of religion and politics, on the various sufferings endured no less by the seminary priests and lay men and women caught sheltering the clergy than by the Jesuits, and finally on the lamentable quarrel between the Jesuits and certain disaffected members of the secular clergy towards the end of the long reign.

Such divisions, however, involve the author in all too many repetitions, in the way he treats each chapter as a unit in itself, with the result that he finds himself obliged to move now forwards, now back again, and again forwards, as Shakespeare says, 'like as the waves make towards the pebbled shore'. Within each chapter, moreover, he has amassed so much material, especially from secondary sources, which take up so many footnotes, while desiring to give credit to all authors, though of widely differing opinions. So he all too easily falls into tentative generalizations, with frequent use of such adverbs as 'probably' and 'arguably', without entering into details of proof or argument.

For example, when he comes to deal with the statistics of Catholic recusants or 'church papists' during Elizabeth's reign, he speaks in such general terms of North and West, on the one hand, of South and East, on the other, when it is generally agreed that there were more Catholics in the remoter, country districts on the one part of the divide and more Protestants on the other, whereas the Catholics were also distributed in various 'pockets' or 'enclaves' of different counties. In any case it is notoriously difficult to speak of even rough percentages, and so it is wiser not to raise the question at all.

One notable drawback of this presentation of the work of the Jesuits in Elizabethan England is the author's pervading awareness of his own Jesuit profession and of a suspected tendency in him to favor his own religious order at the expense of academic objectivity. So he tends to fall over backwards to avert such a suspicion, or at least to leave the reader with the prevailing impression that, when it comes to any controversy, whether between the Catholics and the Protestants, or between the Jesuits and the secular priests, he invariably adopts the Erasmian position of sitting on the fence and siding with neither of the disputants, while implying that they are equally in the wrong.

Thus of the two Jesuits who first came on the English mission in 1580, he doesn't mind siding with Campion, as being the more spiritual of the two men, though he does criticize him for bringing down on his own head a veritable avalanche of books in consequence of his ill advised 'brag' (which was first printed in full by one of his earliest opponents, the Puritan Meredith Hanmer). On the other hand, he feels no difficulty in taking Persons to task, as being the more political of the two, not just in speaking out in defence of Campion, but also in upholding the non-attendance of recusants at Protestant services – as if this was merely 'a predominant view', whereas it was the repeated teaching of both the Council of Trent and subsequent Popes (p. 75).

Speaking in general about the writings of Persons, he weakly concedes that the Jesuit 'was often accused of having a partisan and antagonistic spirit', adding that 'some of those accusations were probably justifiable' (p. 22). But he fails to recognize that the Elizabethan government were indulging in just such a spirit against the Jesuits, and that Persons was the one who had the courage to stand up to them in his writings. Again, when Persons speaks out against the persecuting Puritan Earl of Huntingdon as President of the North, the author weakly suggests that his words were surely uttered 'with some exaggeration' (p. 299). How, one wonders, is he so sure?

Above all, in the concluding controversy supposedly between the Jesuits and the secular priests, the former side was almost uniquely upheld by Persons, whereas the latter wrote in collusion with the English government under what the author admits as the patronage of Richard Bancroft, Bishop of London, and they were by no means representative of all the clergy in England. 'Unfortunately,' the author says, 'on both sides of these skirmishes, there was too little discussion based on reason and goodwill, and too much resort to diatribes and personal attacks on one's opponents.' But if he had taken the trouble to read through the skirmishes, he would have found that the diatribes were largely on the side of the seculars, evidently pushed in that direction by Bancroft, whereas the writings of Persons, if critical, were based on reason and objective facts of which he had first-hand knowledge as Rector of the English College in Rome.

As for the self-appointed secretary of the 'appellant' clergy, William Watson, whereas he praises the queen as 'moderate and merciful throughout her long reign, in executing any laws against the papists', the author adds in a footnote that 'there is no evidence to suggest that he disbelieved what he wrote' (p. 338). But the poor man is all too obviously flattering the old queen, who for the most part left the task of persecution to her 'cruel ministers'. There is also evidence of his insincerity, ignored by the author, in Watson's last words of confession before being executed for treason

at Winchester in 1603, when he entirely exculpated the Jesuits and implored their forgiveness.

Not that I would entirely exculpate Persons for his tendency to dabble in politics, but from his viewpoint, which was also that of Cardinal Allen, it must have increasingly seemed as if the only hope for the persecuted Catholics in England, whose troubles were ever being stepped up by the English authorities, lay in recourse to political and even military means, whether led as an 'enterprise' by the French Duke of Guise or by the Spanish King Philip II.

In conclusion, I would like to add three basic questions which belong to the situation of Elizabethan England prior to the 'Jesuit invasion', but which are unfortunately avoided by the author. The first is the simple question, How did Elizabeth herself become a Protestant, if with less conviction than her advisers? This, I answer, was largely owing to her education from 1543 onwards, under the auspices of her Lutheran stepmother, the last queen of Henry VIII, Catherine Parr. She it was who provided the royal children with such Lutheran tutors as Sir Anthony Cooke, Richard Cox, Sir John Cheke and Roger Ascham – and that also goes for the Protestantism of her half-brother Edward.

The next question is, How, on her accession to the throne in 1558, did Elizabeth manage to turn the admittedly large Catholic majority she found in England to the largely Protestant country it seems to have become by her death in 1603. This, of course, she was unable to effect single-handedly, but on either hand she had the assistance of those two wily counsellors on her royal council, the secretary of state Sir William Cecil (subsequently Lord Treasurer and Baron Burghley) and the lord keeper Sir Nicholas Bacon, who between them wangled a majority of votes (barely three) in the Parliament of 1559 at which the essential Acts of Supremacy and Uniformity were passed, constitutive of the so-called Elizabethan 'Via Media'.

Cecil, it may be noted, had first married Mary, daughter of Sir John Cheke, at Cambridge, and then he went on to marry Mildred, daughter of Sir Anthony Cooke, while Bacon married Anne, another of Cooke's daughters, of whose marriage came Sir Francis Bacon. Such was the Protestant clique at the heart and centre of the new 'establishment', which might well have explained the meagre 1% of the Protestant membership at the outset of the new reign – according to the contention of the Catholic refugee Nicholas Sander, though categorized by the author as 'underestimation' and 'wishful thinking'. (p. 110).

There remains my third question, How did the comparative toleration extended by Elizabeth towards her Catholic subjects during her first decade on the throne change into the persecution noted by Persons in his Epistle of 1581, *De Persecutione Anglicana*,

(translated into French and English the following year)? Naturally, what is called Elizabeth's 'honey-moon' during that decade was largely due to the fact that neither she nor her ministers were in a position to persecute the majority of her subjects, only they made sure that the obvious leaders of the English Catholics were either put in prison or placed under house arrest or else obliged to take refuge on the continent. There was a war of slow, silent attrition, during which successive events, including the mistakes made by successive Popes, played into their hands, enabling them to show up the Catholics as traitors to their queen and country.

First, Pope Pius IV was dissuaded from making any public condemnation of the new queen by King Philip of Spain, who entertained hopes of marrying her in succession to her half-sister Mary. Next, his holy successor Pope Pius V was persuaded to issue a Bull of Excommunication against the queen, hopefully in support of the rebellion of the Northern Earls, only it was too late and had an effect opposite to that intended by Rome. Thirdly, Pope Gregory VIII supported a military invasion of Ireland, with Nicholas Sander as chaplain, in 1579, just on the eve of the 'Jesuit invasion', and so, for all the insistence of the Jesuits that their was a purely spiritual mission with no political intention (according to the specific instructions of their superior general), it was all too easy for the government to present their coming as treason.

Then, it may further be asked, How sincere was the English government, specifically Lord Burghley and Sir Francis Walsingham, in accusing the Jesuits and the seminary priests (who had already been arriving from 1574 onwards) of treason, incurring as it did the terrible punishment of death by being hanged, drawn and quartered? As William Allen maintained in his reply to Burghley's pamphlet on *The Execution of Justice in England* (1583), there were no grounds for such an accusation, and the sole reason for the stepping up of the persecution against English Catholics was religious.

It may have been the more 'moderate' aim of the queen herself to ensure that her subjects recognized her as 'supreme governor of the Church of England' and dutifully attended the new Protestant services, without (as she claimed) making windows into their souls. But it was evidently the further aim of her two ministers to crush out the old faith by calculated degrees and to replace it with the new faith of Protestantism, or 'the reformed religion'. This they had both come to accept while students at Cambridge under the aegis of their respected professor Sir John Cheke, not to mention the support of their respective wives, daughters to Sir Anthony Cooke. In the process, moreover, they came not only to champion the faith of Martin Luther but also to follow the prac-

tical advice of Niccolo Machiavelli, especially when Sir Nicholas Bacon was succeeded, in the aftermath of the Ridolfi Plot and the Massacre of St. Bartholomew, by Sir Francis Walsingham and their combined development of a spy-system, ostensibly aimed at all traitors but practically at all Catholics.

That had mostly taken place by 1572, by the time Cecil had been created Lord Burghley in 1571 and Lord Treasurer in 1572, and Walsingham returned from Paris to take Cecil's place as secretary of state from 1573 onwards. So they were ready for the return of the newly ordained seminary priests of Douai from 1574 onwards, and especially for the arrival of the two Jesuits. It was for the latter that Burghley orchestrated a veritable explosion of books contributed partly by the French opponents of the Jesuits, now translated into English, partly by the Puritans, whose

fervor against the Elizabethan settlement Burghley now skilfully deflected against the Jesuits. In this way the screws were progressively, both metaphorically and literally, tightened against the increasingly hopeless Catholic recusants, and even more against the seminary priests and Jesuits, until their only hope seemed (as Persons came to recognize, with the evident approval of his new superior general Claude Aquaviva) to lie in either France or Spain. (It might be added that in the process Burghley wasn't so disinterested, in view of the fact that by his death in 1598 he had made himself the richest man in England, and in this respect, too, he was aptly succeeded by his son Robert Cecil).

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The Missionary Strategies of the Jesuits in Ethiopia (1555–1632). By Leonardo Cohen. [Aethiopische Forschungen 70]. Pp. xviii, 230, Wiesbaden, Harrassowitz Verlag, 2009, €58.00.

The story of the Jesuits in Ethiopia is one of the most dramatic episodes in the history of the Society. Can we talk of failure or success? Initially, certainly, the mission was a success. Thanks to the charm and the skill of Pedro Páez the emperor Za Dengel developed such a sympathy for Catholicism and the Jesuits, whom he even allowed to own land, that he was suspected of converting in 1603. The emperor Susneyos did so in the early 1620s and, in 1624, severed his links with the Church of Alexandria and subsequently turned Ethiopia into a Catholic country, its Church under the patriarchate of Alfonso Mendes. The achievement was all the more remarkable in view of the exiguous number of Jesuits in the country – twelve before 1624 and twenty-five between 1624 and 1630. In the end, however, the mission failed. In 1633 Susneyos' son and successor Fasilidas expelled the Jesuits, returned to communion with Alexandria, and Ethiopia remained all but completely closed to Westerners until the nineteenth century.

This is a revised version of a doctoral thesis at the University of Haifa. A great deal of work has already been done on the subject and most of the material Leonardo Cohen has used – the missionary correspondence and the Ethiopian chronicles – is published. His study has the advantage of objectivity and of providing a general survey of the interaction between the missionaries and the Ethiopians. He provides an enlightening description of certain Ethiopian beliefs, particularly of the teaching of Uncionism. Held mainly by the Ewostatan monks of the Goggam region (where the missionaries were particularly successful), it was an attempt to bridge the gap between monophysitism and diophysitism by maintaining that

the Holy Ghost was the ointment through which Christ had become the Son of God. Cohen also gives an interesting analysis of the main theological points which the missionaries debated with the Ethiopians – the problem of God's corporeality, the *Filioque* and the origin of individual souls.

Where the actual 'missionary strategies' of the Jesuits are concerned, research suffers from the scarcity of material. The missionaries established schools and seminars, and introduced both musical and theatrical activity. Yet the churches they built have been destroyed, as have nearly all their translations into Ghe'ez of edifying Catholic texts. Very few transcriptions remain of the many sermons they preached. What would seem to have survived best are the Jesuit icons which were copied by the Ethiopians over the centuries. Scholars thus have to rely on the contemporary reports by the Jesuits themselves and the few literary products that are still to be found in European libraries. These Cohen has exploited thoroughly and critically.

The Jesuits, according to Cohen, owed much of their success to the political confusion that prevailed in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries. Ethiopia had been finally freed of Muslim domination by the Portuguese in 1543, but recovery was gradual. The debilitated Ethiopian Church was consequently open to any number of different teachings. The south of the country, on the other hand, was deeply affected by the immigration of the pagan Oromo tribes which continued well into the seventeenth century. To a weakened Church and a weakened state the Jesuits offered what appeared to be a feasible solution. Based at the imperial court, they gave the emperors advice about absolute rule and ecclesiastical uniformity. They fulfilled

the traditional priestly role as the settlers of disputes, and they tried, often successfully, to convert some of the leading members of the nobility. Yet they never managed to suppress the strong opposition which finally triumphed. Following a policy which had once been pursued with remarkable effectiveness by Calvin, they endeavoured to win over the wives of the nobility, but few of the women accepted their teaching and most stood by the old Church. Nor did the Jesuits manage to convert the majority of the monks or the local clergy. Even more than the hostility which their hegemony caused in the noble families and the monasteries, however, the Jesuits' weakness lay in the inflexible homogeneity which they tried to impose. The Ethiopians were accustomed to variety in ritual and in doctrine. Uniformity of the type defended by the missionaries ran against the grain. The reaction, when it came, was devastating.

Despite its qualities Leonardo Cohen's study has some major defects. It certainly needs a map and, particularly at the beginning, could do with a better organisation of the material. A more important criticism, however, is that Cohen tends to treat Ethiopia in a vacuum and pays no attention to the far broader context in which the missions functioned. He tells us nothing, for example, of what was known about Ethiopia in the West when the first missionaries set out in the sixteenth century. In fact Europeans were remarkably familiar if not with the country at least with its representatives. The Ethiopians had long had a convent in Jerusalem and had there met western pilgrims and missionaries. The ruler of Ethiopia had dispatched a delegation from Jerusalem to the Council of Florence in 1440, and in 1481 the pope put at the disposal of the Ethiopians the little church behind St Peter's then known as Santo Stefano Maggiore and now as Santo Stefano degli Abissini. By the end of the fifteenth century a small number of Ethiopian monks and pilgrims lodged there and the convent continued to provide a haven for Ethiopian scholars. Thanks to one of them, Johannes Potken, a priest from Cologne, started to study Ghe'ez. The result was the edition of the Ethiopic Psalter and the Song of Solomon published in Rome in 1513. This was the first book to be printed in Rome in any eastern language other than Hebrew, and Potken provided information about the Ethiopic alphabet and grammar in his introduction. Information, not only about Ghe'ez but also about the Ethiopian Church, continued to accumulate throughout the sixteenth century. Accounts of Ethiopian beliefs appeared in various contemporary publications. Thanks to these an idea was formed of what visitors to the country might expect. Of this Cohen tells us nothing.

The same tendency to treat the Jesuit mission to Ethiopia in a vacuum is apparent in an even greater

shortcoming in Cohen's study: the almost complete neglect of Egypt. In his preface he writes: 'The Jesuit mission in Ethiopia represents a unique case in the world Jesuit history since it concerns a mission addressed at Christians.' Such a statement suggests a very considerable ignorance of other Jesuit missions and 'the world Jesuit history' in general. Were the Protestants not Christians? And what about the important Jesuit expeditions to Egypt in order to convert the Copts in 1561 and 1581? Cohen, of course, makes no mention of the fifth volume of *Monumenta Proximi-Orientis, Égypte (1591-1699)*, published in Rome in 2002, edited by Charles Libois, and full of references to the mission in Ethiopia and the plans to reinforce it. For, even if Páez and his fellow missionaries sailed to Ethiopia from Goa, the possibility of dispatching a mission from Egypt was under constant examination, and it was from Cairo that a Jesuit expedition set out in 1627, only to be stopped in Girga in Upper Egypt. From then on a series of – admittedly abortive – efforts would be made by the Jesuits to return to Ethiopia by way of Egypt.

Egypt was also of paramount significance for the Ethiopian Church, and this is something which Cohen never fully acknowledges. Ethiopia was converted to Christianity in the fourth century, allegedly by Frumentius who was consecrated bishop of Axum by the saintly patriarch of Alexandria Athanasius, and the patriarch of Alexandria always retained the privilege of appointing a metropolitan of the Ethiopian Church. Although he does indeed dedicate a couple of pages to a survey of the efforts of certain emperors to free themselves of the interference of Alexandria, Cohen says nothing of the strong influence which the Egyptian Church continued to exert. His account of the beliefs of the Ethiopians would have benefited considerably from a comparison with those of the Egyptian Copts and would also have brought out the individuality of the Ethiopian Church. A high proportion of the devotional texts that have survived in Ghe'ez, moreover, reached the country via Egypt and the works were often of Egyptian origin. 'Ethiopian literature, from its beginnings', Cohen admits, 'was shaped by translations from other languages such as Greek, Arabic, and perhaps Syriac.' For some reason he fails to mention Coptic. These various points, together with far smaller slips such as the use of the term 'Valdesian' on p.171 (now applied to the followers of the sixteenth-century Spanish dissident Juan de Valdés) rather than 'Waldensian', raise doubts about the extent of his knowledge.

The Warburg Institute, London Alastair Hamilton

La Compagnie de Jésus au 'Levant': La Province du Proche-Orient. Notices historiques. By Charles Libois S.J. Pp. 416, Beirut, Dar el-Machreq, 2009, \$30.99.

Throughout their history the Jesuit missions in the Levant have had to cope with difficulties of varying magnitude. In the early period, from the late sixteenth to the late eighteenth century, they suffered from the rivalry of other religious orders and from the political (and ecclesiastical) opposition which would end in the dissolution of the Society in 1773. From the 1830s on the members of the newly formed missions were the victims not only of acts of God – floods and fire – but also of the growing competition presented by Protestant foundations and of a political situation which became increasingly volatile after the First World War.

Fr Charles Libois is the greatest living expert on the Jesuit missions to the Near East. His magnificent editions of the reports and correspondence of the missions to Egypt in the early modern period, the second, fourth, fifth and sixth volumes of *Monumenta Proximi-Orientis*, have provided essential material for anyone working on the subject. In the opening part of his new book, *La Compagnie de Jésus au 'Levant'*, he gives a brief survey of the early missions in Egypt, Greater Syria, Ethiopia, Turkey, Persia and Armenia. But the most substantial part of his work starts in 1831 with the first efforts of the Society to re-establish a foothold in the Levant. These begin with the abortive attempt to found a seminary at Ain Traz, south-east of Beirut. Two years later, however, in 1833 and thanks to the protection of the emir Bellama, the missionaries succeeded in establishing a seminary in Bikfaya, a mountain village north of the capital. It was the first and the longest lived of the Society's schools in the area.

Numerous other foundations followed. Seminaries would be established in Turkey, Armenia, Iraq and the Sudan, but the most important and enduring remained in Greater Syria and Egypt. It was in Beirut that the Society set up a printing press, the '*Imprimerie Catholique*', in 1849, which survived until 1999. In 1874 the Jesuits obtained a residence in Aleppo and in 1875 they founded what for many years remained the best European university in the Near East, the Université Saint-Joseph in Beirut which survives to this day. In 1903 they added the important observatory at Ksara, close to another of their early residences,

Zahle, on the road to Baalbek. In Cairo the Collège de la Sainte-Famille came into existence in 1879. Originally intended for Coptic Catholics, it would later provide education for many members of the Egyptian élite. In Alexandria a similar purpose was served by the Collège Saint-François-Xavier, which lasted from 1882 to 1919, and in 1887 the Jesuits obtained a residence at al-Minya in Upper Egypt, which, like the Collège de la Sainte-Famille, still survives.

One of the most striking features of the organisation of the Jesuit missions in the Levant is the leading part played by the French. Until well into the twentieth century instruction was generally given in French, and it was partly in order to learn French that so many Arab students attended the courses offered by Jesuits, a remarkably high proportion of whom came from France. What is now known as the 'Near-East Province' depended on the province of Lyon until 1957. The nomenclature changed over the years. At first the missions to the Levant were all regarded as part of the 'Missio in Syria'. After the establishment of the foundations in Egypt the title was changed to 'Missio orientalis', then to 'Missio in Syria, in Aegypto et in Armenia', and then again to 'Missio in Syria, Missio in Aegypto, Missio in Armenia'. In 1936 the three missions were reunited in the single 'Missio Proximi Orientis'. In 1957 a further alteration occurred, with the missions in the Lebanon and Syria remaining under the province of Lyon and the mission in Egypt becoming part of the province of France/Paris. Finally, in 1983, the vice-provinces were suppressed and the whole of the Near East was given the title of 'Province du Proche-Orient'/'Near East Province'.

Fr Libois' book, with its concise surveys of all the Jesuit establishments in the Near East accompanied by useful bibliographies, will be invaluable for students of the Jesuit missions. It includes photographs of many of the buildings used (a number of which have since been destroyed) and, at the end, a gallery of photographs of various members of the province from 1831 to 2008.

The Warburg Institute, London Alastair Hamilton

The Divisions of French Catholicism, 1629–1645: 'The Parting of the Ways' (Catholic Christendom, 1300–1700). By Anthony D. Wright. Pp. ix, 216, Farnham, Ashgate, 2011, £65.00.

Wright contends that the puzzling fragmentation of the French Catholic reform party, known as the '*devots*', in the aftermath of the Council of Trent, the successful conversion of Henri IV to Catholicism,

the defeat of the Huguenots at La Rochelle in 1628, and the spread of a host of new religious orders was already beginning before the posthumous publication in 1641 of Jansen's *Augustinus* and should not be

attributed simply to the storm created by 'Jansenism'. In the first place there was the powerful but ultimately unstable personality of Saint-Cyran, who managed to mesmerize, but eventually offend and put off, almost everyone with whom he came into contact. The royal family itself was not of one mind, as Louis XIII and the Queen Mother pulled the reform movement in opposing Gallican and ultramontane directions, with the king's brother Gaston playing the joker in the pack, delighting in going off in any direction that would irritate the other two. Wright does not dispute the consensus, however, that Cardinal Richelieu was the chief cause for the discord, emerging first as a reforming bishop and evolving into the architect of a Gallican foreign policy that defeated the papal policy of a united Catholic front by intervening constantly to divide and weaken the Habsburgs. The Jesuits were caught in between, expected to move in contrary directions by opposing groups, and ultimately able to please nobody.

Charles Borromeo had put out at Milan, in the wake of the Council of Trent, a high, austere, and rigorist (potentially proto-Jansenist) spirituality to be the clerical ideal and the basis for discipline in the confessional. This was softened by Francis de Sales, but the 'hot' issue that arose politically was the contest between episcopal authority and the independence of 'regulars' in the reform movement. To complicate matters, St. Augustine could be read in a way that justified predestination, put the emphasis in salvation on divine grace and less on human freedom

(and was thus not all that different from the Huguenot position), and yet strangely was taken up by the activist, enterprising, initiative-taking, rising middle class against the perceived 'indulgence' of the smug, complacent, and supine (and typically episcopal) aristocracy, as an ideology through which to press their claims to greater power. The Jesuits were educating the sons of aristocrats and the rising middle class, were successful and perhaps overly-conspicuous in their self-celebration and self-congratulation, supported by the king and Richelieu, yet were also active in papal and Habsburg territories. They were thus vulnerable to criticism from both sides – as justifying regicide and being insufficiently 'Gallican' by the *parlementaires* and the Sorbonne, who accused them further of laxity and equivocation – and for buttering their own bread and being insufficiently loyal to Rome by the ultramontanians. 'Jansenism' was less a doctrinal position and more a political club with which to beat opponents whom one suspected of being inadequately supportive of one's own interests; in particular, earnestness, severity, and rigor, with the Puritans in England, the Jansenists in France, and the pietists in Germany, were becoming the conspicuous moral currency submitted by a previously non-existent or disenfranchised middle class as the only serious basis for credibility in political authority.

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God's Instruments: Political Conduct in the England of Oliver Cromwell. By Blair Worden. Pp. 421, Oxford, University Press, 2012, \$52.19.

'O how comely it is, and how reviving,' as John Milton exclaims, when a just man like this author dares to stand up for true history against false historiography such as he finds in 'the anachronistic tendency of Whig historiography' (p. 10), with its 'distortion of religion' owing to 'deficiencies of sympathy and observation' (p. 3). Ironically, the Whig historians themselves looked back to the period of 1640–60, the chosen limits of the present author, as the source and inspiration of their approach to history, which has lasted till within living memory, even till the comparatively recent emergence of what is called 'revisionism', only to politicize and secularize everything – almost, with a further twist of irony, like Cromwell himself. So, as the author aptly complains, 'Our comprehension of the words and deeds of the past is shallow, where not misleading' (p. 2).

Indeed, within the above-mentioned limits of space and time, it is inconceivable that any Whig historian would be able to challenge comparison with the

present author in his detailed, accurate knowledge of the period. It may even be said that almost nothing happened, or could have happened, within these dates that is at all worth knowing – and much that is not worth knowing – without at least an abbreviated comment by the author. In contrast to the above-mentioned historians of the previous generation, among whom he stands out for his justice, he is at one with a present generation who give the appearance of knowing everything within a particular period, such as the 1590s in the experience of the Earl of Essex, or within a particular lifetime, such as that of John Milton, while evidently disguising an ignorance of everything outside their self-chosen limits. Even or especially within those limits they may know all the trees in the wood, down to their precise genera and species, without a real knowledge of the wood as a whole, or at least without an ability to convey that knowledge to the unfortunate reader, who is left in a condition of what T.S.Eliot calls 'unenlightened mystification'.

No doubt, the blame for this unfortunate state of affairs may be laid at the feet not so much of the author, who raised ineffectual protests against the initial proposal, as of the publisher, who insisted on publishing various papers or lectures of his to a similarly specialized audience, with the result that the reader is expected to know almost everything about the chosen period before taking up the book. As for the general reader, he is left in the perplexity of an Egyptian darkness up till the penultimate chapter on John Milton, when the author at last ventures to make what he calls 'inevitable concessions to compression and simplification', in contrast to what the poet justly rejects as the 'marginal stuffings' and 'scholastical trash' of so much crabbed or pedantic enquiry (p. 359). What I mean is that, with all the frequent mention of such sects as came to light with the outbreak of the Civil War in 1642, not only the Presbyterians and Independents (formerly known as Congregationalists or Separatists), with the Baptists, but also the Fifth Monarchists, the Levellers, the Quakers, with the Arminians and the Socinians, none are allowed a full account of themselves, nor is a due distinction made of the one platform from the other, but all is taken for granted as though beneath the notice of the expected reader. Even more perplexing to any but the specialized reader is the abundance of names under all these various headings, particularly considering that individual names may shift from one heading to another as religious or political convenience might suggest – if they were to keep their positions, like so many vicars of Bray. What is more, the author is always jumping from date to date, as from one author to another, according to the way (he ironically remarks) 'Reason would allow the conscience to tell different people different things.' (p. 350) Yet he lays his irony aside when he seeks to distinguish five stages of linguistic development in what he calls 'semantic redirection' (p. 337) in the use of such typical phrases as 'civil and religious liberty', whereas everything else he says about the meaning of words during his self-chosen period shows how flexible, incoherent and even meaningless those words became under Puritan rule. As the ex-Puritan poet T.S. Eliot complains of our own time, 'Words strain, crack and sometimes break, under the burden, under the tension, slip, slide, perish, decay with imprecision.' Again ironically, whereas the Puritans were then known as 'the precise brethren', it was under their rule at Oxford that an extreme Independent like John Owen and a covert royalist like John Wilkins were able to coexist on friendly terms, the one at Christ Church and the other at Wadham.

In all and above all stands the enigmatic figure of Oliver Cromwell, whose deeply religious appeal to the guidance of divine providence, at almost every step he took whether in the prosecution of the war or

in the period of peace, coincided with a 'posture and balance' among the saints and 'a trail of ambiguity' (p. 76) in which, while conceding liberty of conscience and a measure of toleration (in his meaning of those slippery terms), he aimed at 'as broad a power base as he could get' (p. 338). He is even said to have reduced his seemingly religious approach to politics to 'an art form' (p. 235), as when, in the author's ironical comment, 'There is no more dextrous a political art than knowing how not to know.' (p. 231) Milton's own view of his superior, under whom he served as Latin secretary for some ten years, was no less ambivalent than the other's ambiguity, as he gradually came to suspect him of personal ambition (p. 369).

The ambiguity of such leadership and the flexibility of language it induced during the Puritan period is nowhere in this book more pronounced than in its longest chapter (occupying no less than 100 pages) on the university of Oxford. Under successive visitations imposed on the colleges by Westminster, it is claimed, 'Never in the history of Oxford has more power been held by its would-be reformers.' (p. 107) Altogether, such coercive power was (to put it bluntly) a pain in the neck for the great majority of the colleges, whose initial resistance had to be tempered with a politic subservience, in accordance with the proverb, 'Oaks may fall when reeds withstand the storm.' On the one hand, it was the Puritan ideal that 'the search after true wisdom is not to be had in the books of philosophers, but the Scriptures' – according to the famous dictum of Pascal. On the other hand, it was added that, if 'great learning could coexist with monstrous wickedness', yet when 'seasoned with holiness' it advanced the understanding of the world of God's creation (p. 150). In effect, it was the latter tendency that won out, so that in contrast to the ensuing decadence of the Restoration period, as the author comments, 'Distance then lent enchantment to the Cromwellian era.' (p. 161) He sums it up with the pithy paradox, that whereas 'the Puritans made a profound impact on Oxford, the more they changed it, the more it remained the same.' (p. 193)

The university itself may not have changed so much, to judge from the way at the restoration of King Charles II Oxford went 'perfectly mad, its rejoicing being greater than that of any place of its bigness' (p. 189). But this can hardly be said of the nation at large, considering the extent – largely overlooked by the author – the 20 years of his self-chosen period may not implausibly be identified as 'the Great Divide' in English history between medieval and modern, or between what T.S. Eliot has determined as the 'association' and the 'dissociation of sensibility' – with Shakespeare on the one hand and Milton on the other. From this viewpoint, even the Cavalier historian Edward Hyde, Earl of Clarendon, whose dates

(1609–74) all but straddle those of Milton, who occupies the final chapter of this book, and whose political significance belongs as well to the reign of Charles I as to that of Charles II, is here considered chiefly for his notable *History of the Rebellion*, with hardly a mention of the more famous Clarendon Code. It is in this *History* that, as the author uncritically comments, ‘Alone among the substantial states of the sixteenth century, England had achieved its Reformation through its rightful instruments, the Crown and the

law.’ (p. 392) Either the one or the other author might have noted that the Crown was then in that hands of the greatest tyrant in English history, and that the law was suitably twisted, and the hands of the law-makers, by his Machiavellian henchman Thomas Cromwell. But then neither author seems to be concerned with what happened before the watershed of 1640–60.

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England's Culture Wars: Puritan Reformation and its Enemies in the Interregnum, 1649–1669. By Bernard Capp. Pp. xiii, 274. Oxford University Press, 2012, £60.00.

Following on the Civil War between King and Parliament, or more precisely (and popularly) between the cavaliers with their flowing locks and the roundheads with their cropped hair, a culminating point came in the spring of 1649, by which time ‘the victorious parliamentarians had executed the king, abolished monarchy, and declared England a commonwealth’, which she remained for just over a decade (p. 3). That was the beginning not only of what the author calls an ‘interregnum’, or period between two kingdoms, that of Charles I and that of Charles II, but also of what he also calls ‘culture wars’ (in the plural). So far from establishing peace in the land, and so far from realizing the Miltonic ideal of Peace having her victories no less than War, Cromwell found himself presiding over a different kind of warfare that was more cultural than civil.

Contrary to the common perception, that it was the puritan cause that had triumphed over the royalists, the author shows in impressive detail how many of the seeming puritans were royalist at heart, especially when it came to the beheading of ‘the royal martyr’, King Charles I – a deed that only met with the approval of Parliament after having been purified of its Presbyterian members by Pride’s Purge in 1648, and so the till then dominant Presbyterians found themselves replaced in a Rump Parliament by the Independents favoured by Cromwell himself and his New Model Army. Yet the new culture wars, intended by the author, were not so much between these two opposed groups of ‘puritans’ as between the puritan government, with the support of puritan ministers and puritan magistrates, and the people at large, or (as the author puts it) ‘between puritan sermon-gadders and devotees of the convivial world’ (p. 3). It was the overriding concern of the government, with the assistance of like-minded ministers and magistrates, to stamp out all forms of frivolity in drinking, swearing, dancing, playing, especially as associated with ale-houses, not to mention sexual irregularity. Inevitably, after seven years of warlike chaos from 1642 onwards, theirs was an uphill battle, with few victo-

ries of which to boast. Yet despite the author’s fond exhortation – which shows whither his sympathies incline – ‘that we should not harp on failure’ (p. 258), he undercuts his case by quoting one Puritan minister of the time, lamenting, within a few weeks of the king’s return in 1660, ‘the debauchery and gross profaneness, which like a torrent had suddenly overspread the land’ (p. 261).

Such is the general picture that emerges from the pages of a book which pays more attention to the trees in the different cities and counties of the land than to the forest as a whole, leaving the reader to wonder who is really fighting whom, when the ministers and magistrates didn’t always agree with the government or among themselves. At times Cromwell himself would step in on the pretext of preventing the country as a whole from falling into anarchy, but his position was all too reminiscent of that of Lord Angelo in Shakespeare’s *Measure for Measure*, in seeking to uphold the parliamentary Act of Adultery in 1650 against a seemingly universal tendency to ‘make a scarecrow of the law’. If there were those like Richard Baxter at Kidderminster, who supported Cromwell for the way he, more than any other, had created ‘such liberty and advantage to preach the Gospel with success’ (p. 258), there were many more who felt only disappointment and despondency at the outcome of all their efforts – when it was even said that ‘it’s a sure sign that a minister is good, when all the parish is against him’ (p. 2).

Even when the general impression left from a reading of this book is one of the chaos effected as much by the previous civil warfare as by the succeeding culture wars in the name of ‘reformation’, one admires the author for the extent of his knowledge of the precise situation up and down the country, till one has the feeling that what he doesn’t know about the people of England in their varied relations to a puritan government during the decade of the Interregnum isn’t worth knowing – and that much of what he does know isn’t worth knowing either, or at least not worth retailing to his weary

readers. What is more, while seeming to know everything that was said and done within the narrow limits of the beheading of King Charles I and the restoration of King Charles II, one is left with doubts about how far the author's knowledge extends before the former event or after the latter. After all, in spite of the current dogma now reigning in the historical academe, that history has to concern itself with facts, and that the more limited is the chosen period of investigation the more reliable is the research, it belongs to the nature of human reason, as Hamlet points out, to look before and after. At least, the readers of such a book will need to be told who the puritans were and how they originated 'in the dark backward and abysm of time', and who more precisely were the Presbyterians and the Independents, not to mention the Baptists and the numerous other sects who suddenly came into the light of day with the first beginnings of civil strife, yet whose number and variety was welcomed by John Milton in his *Areopagitica*. On the other hand, some mention might well be expected of the situation of the Church of England before it was displaced by the Presbyterians from the outset of the civil war, who were the Laudians, and who the Arminians, who had achieved ascendancy in the Church under King Charles I. And what about the poor Catholics, now patronized by the Queen Henrietta Maria, and generally supportive of the royalist cause?

A particular question occurring to the mind of at least one reader is the remarkable contrast between two attempts at reformation, on which the author touches but briefly towards the end of his book, when he says of the puritan reformers that they 'tried

to push through a sweeping cultural transformation, more ambitious than anything since Henry VIII's break with Rome' (p. 217). In the case of Henry VIII, his break with Rome achieved success only in three stages under three successive monarchs, especially on account of the long reign of Elizabeth I, when the Catholic tradition of the country was subjected to continued repression under the concerted guidance of Lord Burghley with Sir Francis Walsingham. In the case of Cromwell, the puritans, in spite of all the support they received from the government, only had a decade at their disposal. If only Cromwell had survived, instead of dying in 1658, would their efforts, one wonders, have been crowned with more success, or would their wars have met with further defeat? Seemingly it was only the survival of Cromwell that kept the Restoration of the monarchy at bay, just as the Catholics in England might have returned to power any time up till the moment of Mary Stuart's judicial murder in 1587, or the defeat of the Spanish Armada in the following year. Only, what was uprooted at the former, Protestant reformation was 'the old faith', that linked the people with the wider union of Christendom, whereas what the latter, Puritan reformation aimed at uprooting was the inclination of the people to pleasure, which triumphed with the Restoration – though in the long run it may be maintained that it was the puritans who became, with their work-ethic and the assistance of the scientists, the backbone of the British Empire.

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Peter Milward

Jesuit Civil Wars: Theology, Politics and Government under Tirso González (1687–1705). By Jean-Pascal Gay. Pp. ix, 323, Farnham, Ashgate, 2012, Catholic Christendom Series, £70.00.

The controversial nature of the generalate of Tirso González could not be easily concealed because it was played out on a public stage. William V. Bangert, S.J., commented that 'his rule of eighteen years advanced under almost continual storm clouds' (*The History of the Society of Jesus* [St. Louis, 1972], p. 274). He owed his unexpected election as superior general in 1687 to papal intervention. Providence, or at least Pope Innocent XI, had singled out González to defend the Society against accusations of laxity by abandoning the probabilist morality so ridiculed by Pascal. The 13th General Congregation decreed that Jesuits could defend probabiliorism. By narrowly interpreting 'could' as 'should,' González initiated a personal crusade. His subsequent attacks on probabilism and advocacy of probabiliorism resulted in conflicts with his own admonitor, assistants and censors. The general's assistants convinced Pope

Innocent XII, elected in 1691, to delay the Roman publication of González's *De rectu usu opinionum probabilium* until the congregation of procurators, scheduled to meet in November, 1693, could discuss it. Anxious about González's style of governance and his moral campaign, the procurators voted in favour of a general congregation by 17 to 16. A majority vote, that is, one vote more than half the total, was sufficient. But, as the general's supporters, not eager to convene a general congregation, argued half of the total number of delegates was 16.5 and not 16 and one more was 17.5, and not 17. A general congregation, again with papal assistance, was therefore postponed. Interestingly, voting generally followed geopolitical lines: the French provinces supported a general congregation and the Spanish did not. A congregation was eventually convened in 1696 but, apparently heeding the papal injunction 'recedant vetera, nova

sint omnia' (let the old recede and let everything be new), the assembled fathers avoided confrontation. But avoidance is not resolution and the problem of González continued until his death in 1705.

González does not emerge from Gay's monograph as a sympathetic figure. His ideological rigidity, however, should not blind us to his significant, if now politically incorrect, ministry to the Muslims (see Emanuele Colombo, ' "Even among Turks": Tirso de González de Santalla (1624-1705) and Islam,' *Studies in the Spirituality of Jesuits* 44/3 [autumn 2012]), and defence of the Bollandists against the Spanish Inquisition. His fame or infamy, however, will rest on his determined efforts to repudiate probabilism.

English is not the author's first language; the style does not always flow easily. Occasionally the words are English, but the grammar and structure are not: certain passages, indeed pages, demand repeated reading. The monograph's subtitle 'Theology, Politics and Government,' should attract readers from different disciplines. Some concessions should be made to them by providing short explanations of technical

terms such as probabilism, probabiorism, and extrinsicism. Equally interesting was the effect of his campaign against probabilism on the Society's governance at a time when nationalism threatened a schism within the Society. How does the Society deal with a general whose theological views cause discord and dissent? Whose style of government was evolving into an absolute monarch? Avoidance can only go so far. Fortunately, or unfortunately, death solved the problem before the Society could resolve it. I note a few errors, e.g. England was not outside an assintancy (p. 168); and the German assintancy would not have collapsed if the Gallo-Belgian province has been transferred to the French assintancy as King Louis XIV requested (p. 17) because it would still have consisted of nine provinces (including England). Finally does the author truly intend to suggest that provincial congregations would discuss specific candidates for general?

Jesuit Provincial Archives,
London

Thomas McCoog

Atheism, Religion and Enlightenment in Pre-Revolutionary Europe. By Mark Curran. Pp. viii, 218, Woodbridge, The Royal Historical Society/The Boydell Press, 2012, £50.00.

Baron D'Holbach, a notorious salon host in Enlightenment circles in mid-eighteenth-century Paris, is mainly remembered for his *Système de la nature* (1769), an anonymously published essay in which the author committed himself to the reality of biological materialism. His works were to have a profound influence on nineteenth-century freethinkers, as the following excerpt from the Advertisement to the first volume in the Free Enquirer's Family Library aptly shows: 'The various theological systems in which mankind have been misled to have *faith* are but fables and falsehoods imposed by visionaries and fanatics on the ignorant, the weak, and the credulous [. . .] We have [therefore] commenced the library with a translation of BARON D'HOLBACH'S SYSTEM OF NATURE, because it is estimated as one of the most able expositions of theological absurdities which has ever been written' (New York, 1835). Although the nineteenth-century religious and anti-religious stances are reasonably clear-cut, the contemporary eighteenth-century reactions to d'Holbach's radical ideas in France, and the scenario in which his critics tried to counter the atheistic implications of his works, is less clear. It is for this reason that Mark Curran in *Atheism, Religion and Enlightenment* wants to revisit the reception of the aristocrat's works and show that, rather than sustaining the salon host's ideas, many exponents of the French Enlightenment actually reacted against them. He also argues that ultimately the strategies used to criticize d'Holbach laid the

foundation for a process of modernizing Christian thought.

The first chapters of *Atheism, Religion and Enlightenment* are a survey of the informal reception of d'Holbach's works. Working from anecdotes, reported speeches and sermons, Curran tries to reconstruct how people reacted in the oral public sphere to the baron's religious and political ideas. It seems likely that these were fully revealed to the guests at his philosophical salon before they were made public in print. As many of these guests were influential intellectuals or politicians, this furnished d'Holbach with a formidable forum where he could voice and test his ideas. And, once they were published, these ideas were talked about in cafés, criticized in churches, and many a person brought them home to their families or to their workplaces. In letters too d'Holbach's works were avidly discussed. Curran unravels how, on a much wider scale, these 'informal networks of information exchange' were able to bypass the time-consuming and censored printing process to recommend d'Holbach's works to the literary elite in Europe. Through all these responses many people became acquainted with the tenet of d'Holbach's writings without having read them.

It is not surprising that d'Holbach's publications should have received ample public attention in printed pamphlets and in the periodical press too, and Curran's analysis of the contents of such reception is in this regard hardly ground-breaking. What is of

interest though in Curran's analysis is the delineation of an ensuing 'self-perpetuating debate' which was mainly stimulated by middle-aged voices from the lower social environments of the Catholic Church.

D'Holbach's radical works are commonly seen as an expression of the *philosophes* of the French Enlightenment. But rather than endorsing the *Système de la nature* the *philosophes* realized that D'Holbach might provoke much conservative criticism that would endanger their own enlightenment projects. Curran demonstrates, for example, how, in a series of hurriedly written reactions, Voltaire struggled to distance himself from his extreme ideas while safeguarding the visibility of his own radical deist agenda. Many other *philosophes*, however, failed to respond altogether, deciding that a policy of silence served them best. They were probably right as a concerted campaign against the *philosophes* was set into motion after the publication of the *Système de la nature*. Curran shows that, although little was ultimately achieved in this battle against irreligion, institutions such as the Crown, *Parlement*, the *Académie française*, and the Assembly of Clergy all declared they would do their utmost to fight d'Holbach's ideas in a joint offensive.

The way Christian apologists responded in print to d'Holbach, on the other hand, had a more lasting

influence on religious ideas. A 'remarkable spirit of literary experimentation' here went hand in hand with 'new discursive strategies' to become part of what has become known to historians as the 'Christian Enlightenment'. The apologists built on the public support for their cause, but while they attacked the abuses of the Enlightenment they did so by putting into practice much of the very Enlightenment strategy they combated. '[I]f this book,' Curran concludes, 'has been a tale of two Enlightenments, one atheistic the other Christian, then the eighteenth-century francophone public appears to have overwhelmingly preferred the latter'.

This book is a well-researched study, its main line of thought argued with acumen and illustrated with intriguing examples. It is therefore inexplicable that there is something seriously wrong with the translations of the French quotations. It is not so much that they are incorrect renderings of the originals (although at times they are), but rather that they are given in faulty English that looks like the result of a garbled machine translation. Indeed, it is hard to believe that the author, who proves to be a fluent writer with a good knowledge of French and English, is responsible for these erroneous passages.

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Robespierre: a Revolutionary Life. By Peter McPhee. Pp. xx, 299, New Haven/London, Yale University Press, 2012, £25.00.

McPhee brings to a magnificent culmination a career-long dedication to the French Revolution with a study of the prophet, guide, and eventual martyr to the Revolution, Maximilien Robespierre, that will undoubtedly be recognized as definitive for our time. The success of this biography consists in McPhee's showing how what looks like a consistent logical trajectory to later generations (with hindsight) came at Robespierre and the revolutionary group he joined instead as a series of unexpected and bewildering surprises, to which they had to devise rapid responses in not-fully-understood circumstances that as often as not placed them in very dangerous situations. The slightly earlier American Revolution served both as an inspiration and a cause for pathos, as the revolutionaries were forced to the realization of how much more difficult it is to bring to birth a republic out of an entrenched thousand-year-old monarchical and aristocratic civilization than it is on open land virtually from scratch. McPhee continues the rehabilitation of Robespierre's character and personality that has been the tendency of biographies over the past century after the 19th-century vilification of the 'Incorruptible' as a social misfit who lashed out in revenge by becoming a tyrant. He is successful at exonerating

Robespierre from the excessive violence committed in the provinces in the course of the Revolution (which was typically the work of 'mission deputies' acting on their own) and of the 'Terror' of 1793–94. For the latter, Robespierre's physical and mental exhaustion led him to nervous collapse and paranoid insecurity.

As McPhee recognizes (p. 234), all Robespierre's goals were eventually enshrined within the French constitution; the historical question is whether it required the inhuman back-and-forth violence, the intimidation, corruption, and betrayals, and the massive loss of life to lead France, Europe, and the world to this end. Was the pace of this process accelerated or retarded by the Revolution? McPhee points out the parallels between Robespierre's early life and Rousseau's; Robespierre was conceived out of wedlock, raised on the margins of polite society towards which he was made to feel an 'outsider', and although benefiting from the 'system' retained a strong sense of 'injured merit' and an almost aristocratic unrecognized dignity. One hesitates about judging, not the end of Robespierre's career, but the beginning: why must the change in society be brought about here, now, and in one generation? This zeal led

Robespierre to view the world through a prism of binary oppositions; you either saw the world as he saw it, or you were an enemy of the Revolution. The 'virtue' he knew was needed among the people for a democracy to flourish would take much longer to develop. And secondly – a point McPhee does not go into – many of the aristocrats themselves were coming to agree with the enlightened *philosophes* in the salons that change was due; their very weakness and hesitation accounts for much of the early success of the Revolution. Louis XVI voluntarily accepted the

change to a constitutional monarchy, before he was executed. It is Robespierre's impatience, his refusal to see anything at all good or worth keeping in the monarchical system, his 'fatal purity' of principle that would tolerate no compromise or gradual approximation towards his ideal, that is unnerving. McPhee does not consider, but cannot banish from the reader's mind the suspicion that the whole thing may have been tragically unnecessary.

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Patrick Madigan

Napoleon and the Revolution. By David P. Jordan. Pp. xiii, 327, Basingstoke, Palgrave Macmillan, 2012, £60.00.

The Western Church made a mistake in accommodating herself permanently to the class hierarchies of the warlike barbarian tribes she evangelized in the breakup of the Roman Empire, rather than carrying further with the 'salt' of the gospel to transform this society into the one Jesus described. When the end finally came, it came from the outside and violently, by people who justifiably hated the Church for benefiting from and being joined at the hip with the *Ancien Régime*. Beyond giving a thorough life of Napoleon and account of the Revolution which he inherited, assumed, incarnated, and brought to success in the century after his death, Jordan gives a lucid explanation for his fantastic career, why he was humanly flawed but right about the Revolution, and why the latter failed in its later Marxist hyper extensions in Russia, China, and Cuba.

Beyond the class divisions and unjust distribution of wealth and property, the chief problem with the *Ancien Régime* was that it was led by dolts who repeatedly dragged their countries into unnecessary dynastic or territorial wars and created sycophantic governments made up of time-serving cronies who blocked the ascent of the more intelligent, talented, and courageous citizens they were supposed to be serving. The Enlightenment followed the Reformation in calling for the reform of society involving a dismantling of classes based on artificial distinctions that had no basis in either nature or the gospel. It is no good contrasting Napoleon unfavourably with Washington, for the nascent experiment of the United States was not surrounded by hostile monarchies threatened by the example of the social revolution breaking out in the most formal, artificial, and self-

consciously 'glorious' monarchical culture of Europe, which set the standard in fashion, luxury, and warfare for the others, so that they could not allow this to succeed. To survive the Revolution had to resort to violence against its enemies, first within France but eventually without, transforming the Revolution in the process from a domestic outbreak of social disturbance into an expansionist messianic military juggernaut aiming to transform Europe as a whole. To repulse the dangers the Revolution called forth and empowered individuals who saw themselves, and were seen by others, as embodying the vision and goals of the movement, to exercise the violence necessary to carry through the deep but painful reform – first Robespierre, 'the incorruptible' who initiated the Terror, and then Napoleon who brought the Terror to an end when it had done its job, and inspired the limitless enthusiasm and devotion from the sea of revolutionaries to meet the danger by exporting the Revolution to all the countries of Europe, transforming unjust social structures not only in France but eventually in the entire world. And he was right! His short reign sunk deep roots that could not be pulled out, and the revolutions of 1830, 1848, and 1871 finished the task. The reason the Marxist revolutions did not find the same popular response is that the liberal response of taxation for greater property and wealth seemed a better solution than violent bloodbath to chase after the chimera of a classless and property-less society. Here the Revolution tried to go too far, and did not convince its audience.

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The French Idea of History: Joseph de Maistre and his Heirs, 1794–1854. By Carolina Armenteros. Pp. xiii, 361, Ithaca/London, Cornell University Press, 2011, \$53.44.

In her fourth book on the subject, Armenteros delivers a revisionist genealogy of the French tradition of philosophy of history, from the Revolution to the expi-

ration of utopian hopes in 1848. The provocation of Rousseau's de-biblicized version of the origin of society as simultaneous with the 'Fall' or 'crime' in

the origin of private property, the trauma caused by the excesses of the French Revolution which followed, and the thereafter unavoidable reflection on the significance of this event in the unfolding of Divine Providence and the human search for fulfillment and prosperity, resulted in 'philosophy of history' becoming the battle ground on which the politics of alternative interpretations and responses to this catastrophic event for the *ancien régime* of France and all of Europe were played out. Each side rushed to seize the terrain and to keep its ideological opponent belated and on the sidelines; behind the pose of an objective, scientific approach to the 'ages of man' lay sharpened and polarized agendas for the politics of the day, appropriating this scholarly vehicle to lend their practical proposals a patina of disinterested respectability and intellectual inevitability. Joseph de Maistre had already had a career as a magistrate, and distinguished himself by taking French prose style to new heights in his historical and legal pieces before the Revolution erupted, early and in milder form in Savoy; no one had any idea to what depths it would descend later in Paris. The revelation of this book is the unsuspected success of Maistre in dealing with Rousseau in the war-of-words of their opposing accounts of the origin of society (and the

consequent acceptability or lack thereof of the institutions of the day, chiefly the aristocracy and the monarchy), to the point that, not only his prose style, but even the contents and details of his alternative philosophy of history captured the hearts and pens of his subsequent opponents-from-the-Left, from Saint-Simon to Comte to Durkheim, who all showed themselves at least as much influenced by Maistre as by Rousseau (and usually more so). Although Maistre personally moved from being a (relative) secular optimist, believing that time would allow man to correct serious inequalities and injustices in a gradual and nonviolent manner, to a pessimist depressed by the insensitive and inappropriate ways in which the vestiges of the *ancien régime* were reacting to revolutionary protests during the restoration, the lightness, wit, and paradox-loving arabesques of his prose style became installed as a permanent glory in French culture, whose effect can still be enjoyed today. Armenteros has done a major service in restoring this neglected thinker and prose stylist from the Right to his deserved position of eminence as a major influence on French political discourse of either persuasion.

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Patrick Madigan

Christianizing Crimea: Shaping Sacred Space in the Russian Empire and beyond. By Mara Kozelsky. Pp. xi, 270, DeKalb, Illinois, Northern Illinois University Press, 2010, £34.95.

The Crimea, which is now an autonomous region of Ukraine, was part of the Ottoman Empire from the late fifteenth to the late eighteenth century. From its annexation by Russia to the outbreak of the Crimean War in 1853 the majority of its population was Muslim, and the Tatars were joined by numerous religious minorities. The Talmudic Jews were slightly outnumbered by the Karaites. The sizeable Armenian community was mainly Gregorian, but also included a substantial number of Catholics. Of the Christian communities of the West the largest were the Mennonites, followed by Lutherans and Roman Catholics. The Orthodox Church owed much of its support to the Greeks, whose numbers increased with waves of immigration at the time of the war of independence between 1821 and 1829, and to the Bulgarians who started to arrive in the first years of the nineteenth century. To make such a heterogeneous area an integral part of the Russian Church, itself divided into various sects which included the 'Old Believers', demanded considerable energy and ingenuity.

One of the more striking features of the process of 'Christianizing' the Crimea is the limited nature of any missionary activity. For this, however, there was good reason. There were few advantages, and many

disadvantages, to be obtained from conversion to the Russian Church. Members of the non-Orthodox communities had great privileges. The most privileged of all were the Tatars. Not only could they could not be conscripted in the army, but they were entitled to own and sell property and land. They could not be attached to noble estates as serfs and were allowed to take landlords to court. Even the Muslim clergy had the right to purchase land – a privilege denied the Orthodox. With conversion this came to an end and the Tatars lapsed into the unenviable status of Russian government peasants. The same fate awaited the members of the Christian minorities. A Lutheran family of free agriculturists that converted to Russian Orthodoxy in 1849 had to move to a different village because of the hostility of the other Lutherans and was accorded serf status. Even the main figure behind the 'Christianization' of the Crimea, the archbishop of Kherson Innokentii, compared their conversion to Orthodoxy to 'a punishment reserved for serious criminals' and took up their cause with the authorities in St Petersburg. The enlightened governor-general of New Russia, Mikhail Semyonovich Vorontsov, was strongly opposed to efforts to convert the non-Orthodox. The Crimea was consequently characterized by a policy of toleration.

'Christianization' had to follow a different path, and it was above all Archbishop Innokentii who established it. It consisted of two main elements, one ideological and the other practical. The ideological element was based on the 'discovery' that the Crimea, settled by the Greeks in the fifth century BC and once part of the Byzantine Empire, was in fact the cradle of Russian Orthodoxy. It was, after all, there, in the ancient settlement of Chersonesos, that Prince Vladimir of Kiev was allegedly baptized by the emperor Basil II in 988. Even Catherine the Great had selected the Crimea as a stepping stone to the revival of a restored Greek empire with Constantinople as its capital and a Russian ruler on the imperial throne, and throughout the first half of the nineteenth century enthusiastic archaeologists scoured the peninsula in search first of Greek, and then of Christian, remains. The practical part of the 'Christianization' of the Crimea was connected with the renovation of existing religious buildings and the creation of new ones. Archbishop Innokentii hoped to turn the peninsula into a Russian equivalent of Mount Athos. He thus had the ancient Dormition monastery at Chersonesos and the Greek monastery of St George near Balaklava restored. He planned the restoration and expansion of Inkerman, developed the sacred spring of Cosmas and Damian, and saw to the construction of a number of churches.

Even if Innokentii's programme was abruptly interrupted by the Crimean War, it also benefited from the aftermath of the war, which had been presented as a war of religion. A large section of the Tatar population emigrated to the Ottoman territories, while Christians

– Russians, Greeks, Bulgarians, Germans, Czechs, Estonians – soon flocked to the Crimea. Although many of the ecclesiastical buildings were damaged, the Russian Church in the Crimea was enhanced by the hostilities. After the Treaty of Paris, with which the war ended in 1856, Innokentii, who died shortly thereafter, laid the basis for a new diocese of Tauride, and in the years that followed numerous new churches and monasteries (which now included female ones) came into existence. An Orthodox tradition was established which could be revived after the long Soviet interlude.

Although Mara Kozelsky's *Christianizing Crimea* contains much interesting information, the book, which the publishers describe as the 'first English language work to analyze the Christian renewal in Crimea', is in many respects a disappointment. It is badly written and carelessly organized. The index is decidedly poor, and one of the chief protagonists, Archbishop Innokentii, is not so much as mentioned in it. The author and publishers seem to assume that the reader is intimately acquainted with the geography of the Crimea, and there is not a single map. Numerous terms remain unexplained. A word should have been said about the 'Old Believers', for example, and, while Kozelsky discusses the Jewish and Lutheran communities, she says nothing whatsoever about the Mennonites, who outnumbered them both. One can only hope that later historians will make a slightly better job of it.

The Warburg Institute, London Alastair Hamilton

Religion and the Great Exhibition of 1851. By Geoffrey Cantor. Pp. ix, 226, Oxford University Press, 2011, £70.00.

Although the Great Exhibition of 1851 has long stimulated scholarly attention, its place in historiography has never begun to match the enormous and variegated rôle it played in contemporary British culture. Eliciting interest from virtually all quarters of society in the United Kingdom and attracting visitors from much of the world, it subsequently left its imprint on numerous dimensions of Victorian studies. Still underexplored, however, have been most religious aspects of the event in its cultural context. Cantor's competently crafted if arguably too brief analysis of these latter dimensions of the phenomenon can thus be welcomed as a particularly appropriate sequel to Jeffrey A. Auerbach's *Great Exhibition of 1851* (1999) and a challenging complement to John P. Burris's *Exhibiting Religion: Colonialism and Spectacle at International Exhibitions, 1851–1893* (2001).

As Cantor notes, the principal thrust of the event was secular and reflected in its formal name—the

Exhibition of the Works of Industry of All Nations, but its exhibitors were sufficiently diverse to encompass such organisations as the Society for Promoting Christian Knowledge, the Religious Tract Society, and the British and Foreign Bible Society.

Most of the present work is Cantor's analysis of how varied and often conflicting forms of participation in and responses to the Great Exhibition in Hyde Park served as a mirror of the ever-shifting kaleidoscope of early Victorian religious life and attitudes on a much broader national canvas. He probes, for example, how Anglicans of various hues, Catholics, free churchmen, Jews, and secularists perceived the spectacle. To some, it was confirmation of God's blessing on the nation's progress; to others, it offered opportunities for evangelisation; in still other eyes, it was a lens which inadvertently magnified Britain's social woes. At least a few Britons condemned the event as a materialistic spectacle which paid misdirected homage to the achievements of the 'workshop of the world' while

ignoring what they perceived as extensive moral decay and other woes of British society.

Cantor conducted research in numerous libraries and archives in the United Kingdom and the United States of America, tapping a broad array of sources which yielded streams of responses from nearly all points of the mid-nineteenth-century religious compass. A great proportion of his book consists of quotations from denominational periodicals. If, as Matthew Arnold suggested in 'Dover Beach', the sea of faith was then ebbing from British shores, the religious press, inclusively defined, was at its full, and many of these periodicals were briefly fixated on the Great Exhibition. Editorial comment, reportage from Hyde Park, and texts in other genres shed great light on how religiously inclined Victorians reacted. Among other principal sources are tracts of various kinds, many of which were distributed to visitors as part of an enthusiastically waged evangelistic campaign.

The responses of British Catholics to the Exhibition are given at least their proportional due. By the middle of the nineteenth century, the hierarchy had been restored with the creation of the Archdiocese of Westminster and twelve bishoprics in Wales and England, and the Catholic population was rising markedly, owing in large measure to Irish immigra-

tion. To be sure, these developments were not uniformly welcome in the United Kingdom; indeed, the 'Second Spring' seemed to pose a threat to the religious *status quo*. Especially in diverse evangelical eyes the Catholic advance loomed large. In this context, the Catholic press, such as *The Tablet*, dissented sharply from the chorus of praise to the Exhibition. There readers found it described as a 'modern Babylon'. It was feared, *inter alia*, that as part of the accompanying evangelistic campaign the King James Version of the Bible would be placed into the hands of Catholic visitors.

One could wish that Cantor had devoted more space to each of many aspects of his overarching topic. Nevertheless, as a first major study of it, his work is certainly commendable. It is adequately indexed and copiously illustrated with contemporary black and white illustrations and other materials. Prohibitively overpriced at £70, Cantor's stimulating work will not find its way into many personal libraries, but anyone with an interest in British religious life and strife of the Victorian era would do well to repair to a public library and find his way into this fine book.

Beijing, China

Frederick Hale

Papist Patriots: The Making of an American Catholic Identity. By Maura Jane Farrelly. Pp. xiv, 305, New York, Oxford University Press, 2012, \$35.00.

In this book, Maura Jane Farrelly seeks to answer the question of how Roman Catholics in Colonial America became supporters of the American Revolution, when the hierarchical and communal nature of their religion, as well as strong anti-Catholic rhetoric of the revolutionaries, would seem to make such a position foreign and unappealing to them as a group. Farrelly's answer is that there was a combination of historical factors that enabled American, more precisely, Marylandian, Roman Catholics to develop and adopt an identity that was both Catholic and American, thus the subtitle of the book, and separate from an identity that was Catholic and English. To construct her answer, Farrelly looks back to the so-called seigniorial Roman Catholicism of sixteenth and seventeenth century England, wherein the wealthier amongst the Roman Catholic population supported and protected priests, who performed masses in their protectors' homes, and to the colony of Maryland, founded by the Roman Catholic noble, the second Lord Baltimore, who inherited a proprietary charter and a desire for a religiously pluralistic colonial society from his father, the first Lord Baltimore.

Farrelly's first argument is basically that seigniorial Roman Catholicism had taught its practitioners a

certain degree of anti-authoritarianism and individualism, despite the communal, hierarchical and rigid structures of the Roman Church. Indeed, Farrelly argues, to maintain any sort of Roman Catholic identity in early modern England one had to have these attributes *prima facie*, for otherwise, conversion to Protestantism of some flavour would follow almost as a matter of course, given the immense social, financial, and political pressures to convert. Of course, many did convert, but those who did not, so the argument goes, had to reconcile their English and Roman Catholic identities, which they did with a certain rebelliousness 'because rebellion was a necessary and unavoidable component of the reconciliation they sought' (46). Left out of the account are the numerous exiles of the early modern period – those who chose to leave their homeland rather than their religion, but then these, of course, were not always the Roman Catholics who ended up in the New World and whose descendants fought in the American Revolution, nor do they support the author's thesis of a certain rebelliousness amongst English Roman Catholics. Nonetheless, a more comprehensive treatment of Roman Catholicism in early modern England, on the characterization of which

Farrelly bases her first thesis, would have bolstered her case.

The second thread of Farrelly's argument, an exploration of religious interactions in colonial Maryland, constructs a picture of a somewhat naive idealist in the Proprietor Cecilius Calvert, the author of the Act Concerning Religion, a piece of legislation that aimed to enforce a degree of civility in relations between Roman Catholics and Protestants by ensuring both that these groups had the right to practice their religion and that any offence caused across the groups would be punished by law. In effect, the law was ahead of its times, and proved impracticable in many ways, mostly, it would seem, because the Calvinists of Maryland and their coreligionists in Virginia, were so thoroughly bigoted against 'popish religion' that they refused to remain unoffended by the mere presence of Roman Catholics in Maryland, and refused also to keep the peace, rebelling, refusing oaths to the colony's Catholic Proprietor, molesting and robbing Roman Catholics whenever possible. Farrelly's account recognizes, of course, the uneven nature of religious intolerance and anti-Catholic sentiment, which waxed and waned with the temporal and political fortunes of the colonists, reaching an apex during the French Indian War of the 1750s and 60s, when anti-Catholic propaganda painted a picture of papists as dangerous and seditious and anti-Catholic legislation attempted to curtail the liberties of the colony's Catholics. Important to this part of the book, and the strongest support for the author's thesis, is the appeal that Roman Catholics made to Maryland's constitution, both because their anti-Catholic opponents were trying to have England's constitution enforced in Maryland, and because these appeals to the colony's separate constitution predated

the break of 1776 by many years, illustrating the development among Catholics of a distinctly Marylandian identity, which enabled these Catholics to break more easily with England.

The book's overall argument is, on the whole, convincing, but the presentation is at times uneven, and there are instances when the author argues from silence, an often dangerous practice for an historian, as when she argues that the lack of complaint amongst Maryland's Jesuits about interdenominational marriages 'suggests that the majority of Catholics who married outside their faith may actually have raised their children in the Catholic faith' (142). This may well be, but this is mere conjecture without any hard, positive evidence, none of which is provided. Similar arguments from silence are made a few pages on, where the argument is that since the Jesuits did not complain about Catholics converting to Anglicanism, although Farrelly acknowledges that such conversions did happen, suggests that 'the phenomenon of apostasy never escalated to a point where the Jesuits believed it represented a problem' (145). Again, while this is quite possible, the argument is hardly convincing without better evidence. Both of these are minor points, however, as the broader point that Roman Catholics maintained their religious identity amidst adverse conditions comes across convincingly, and as the overarching thesis of the book, that Roman Catholics in Maryland adopted and developed a distinctly American identity well before 1776, preparing them more thoroughly than any other group to accept the tenets of American Republicanism and sign on to revolt against England.

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Beyond the Contingent: Epistemological Authority, a Pascalian Revival, and the Religious Imagination in Third Republic France. By Kathleen A. Mulhern. Pp. 212, Wipf and Stock, 2011, \$25.00.

Beyond the Contingent offers us a history of the religious, philosophical, and political struggles over the relationship between the Church and the rapidly secularizing French state at the *fin-de-siècle*. Its heroes are the *Pascalisants*, a group of French Catholic intellectuals inspired by Blaise Pascal in their efforts to reconcile their religion with a modernity increasingly hostile to such commitments. Kathleen Mulhern focuses on three *Pascalisants* in particular: physicist Pierre Duhem, philosopher Maurice Blondel, and Oratorian Lucien Laberthonnière. The book's central chapters map the positions taken by these thinkers in the period preceding Leo XIII's *Providentissimus Deus* (1893), which concerned 'the role and authority of scripture . . . set[ting] the parameters within which the dialogue between

science and faith could continue' and ending with Pius X's *Pascendi Dominici Gregis* (1907), which 'summarized and condemned the liberal threat of modernism . . . [and] closed the door on dissenting compromises' (p. 8). As Mulhern tells the tale, the *Pascalisants* proposed a balanced, humane vision of modern Catholic life, at once faithfully devoted and dynamically creative, to a laity starved for spiritual renewal, only to find themselves crushed between the deflationary secular positivism of the tumescent French functionary classes and the intransigent neo-Thomist rationalism of Rome.

Mulhern is eager to defend her subjects from the charge of modernism, and one would have to be very stern indeed to doubt the sincerely Catholic intentions of the *Pascalisants*, especially Duhem and Blondel,

in the light of her account. It is less clear, however, how true these men were to their philosophical master. Blondel's rejection of scripture, miracles, and the tradition of the Church as arguments for Christianity (pp. 122–23) stands in sharp contrast to Pascal, whose apology builds toward exactly such proofs. And while Blondel's emphasis on the centrality of the interior action of the will for religious understanding (p. 119) does echo the Pascalian inspirations of the heart, Pascal also stresses rational proof and historical custom, alongside inspiration, as avenues of religious belief. Likewise, Pascal's view of rational proof as a frequent instrument by which faith enters the heart is quite a bit more nuanced than Laberthonnière's insistence on 'personal, inner experience and its ability alone to access the supernatural' (p. 129). Duhem is certainly closer to Pascal on the question of the scope and limits of empirical scientific enquiry. Even here, however, his use of the Pascalian orders, which acknowledges only the distinction among them and not their hierarchical relation (pp. 90, 98), differs from Pascal's own.

One thinker may, of course, use another's ideas to ends not originally intended, but Mulhern is too quick to identify neo-Pascalianism with Pascal. Of the five 'values that Pascal had infused into the Pascalisants – the separation of natural and supernatural, the inaccessibility of spiritual knowledge to reason, the role of the individual's choice, the role of the *magisterium* as a representative of truth rather than an administrator of it, [and] the inefficacy of natural theology' (p. 194), not a single one is clearly held by Pascal, who claims that God is both immanent and transcendent, that nature bears the image of God, that the existence of God can be concluded from the contingency of the human being as well as the fact of contingent truths, that the Church teaches infallibly, and that refusal to submit to the authority of the Church is vicious self-love. To be sure, Pascal argues that reason points to but does not grasp the truths of faith and that the assent of the individual is necessary in cooperating with the free gift of divine grace, but then so does every Thomist. Whatever the uses to which he may have been put, Pascal, who spent his entire adult life in opposition to what he regarded as ecclesial compromises with modernity, is implausibly cast as a progressive reformer of the Church, a role he would have found horrifying.

In its apology for the *Pascalisants*, *Beyond the Contingent* subjects the *fin-de-siècle* Church's renewed embrace of St. Thomas Aquinas to some

rather rough treatment. Mulhern construes neo-Thomism as little more than the official ideology of 'Church authoritarianism' (p. 37), the product of a 'late nineteenth-century neo-scholastic frenzy' (p. 44) to 'centralize authority and homogenize theological methodologies' (p. 128). There is no sense here that the Church might have defended Thomism as a philosophically cogent position which has a good chance of being true. Indeed, questions of the truth and falsity of specific claims are largely set aside in favour of discussion of knowledge 'construction' and 'production' (pp. 45, 47, 48, 51, 58, 61, 82, 188). Accordingly, Leo XIII's real object in *Aeterni Patris* (1879) was, we are told, 'a commonality of thought and a faithful adherence to Roman authority' (p. 41); Thomism, which 'could only be effectively administered by the authorities of truth, entrenched in theological and ecclesiological bastions of the Church', 'served Leo XIII's concerns perfectly' (p. 58). The trouble with the Church requiring that its members adhere to the doctrines defined by its theologians and philosophers, Mulhern explains, is that it 'dissipated the energy of the faith' (p. 197), stifling 'diversity of thought, creativity, and imagination' (p. 196) and 'making intellectual discovery and creativity impossible' (p. 169). The claim sits uneasily with the lush flowering of Catholic philosophy, literature, music, and even film in the years and decades after *Pascendi*, not least in France. Mulhern suggests that twentieth century Thomists, particularly Maritain and Gilson, 'moved past' (p. 169) the views of Leo XIII and Pius X, but she does not show sufficient appreciation for the fact that these philosophers and the numerous other Catholic thinkers and artists of the new century, many of them converts, were attracted precisely by the intellectual exactness and institutional rigour for which the two Popes fought.

One does not expect a work written in support of Lucien Laberthonnière to be enthusiastic about Thomism, and it may well be true that the riches of the faith are not reducible to the thought of St. Thomas. Still, a somewhat more temperate consideration of Pascal and the Church to which he was so devoted would have helped to deepen this study of a highly interesting and significant chapter in the history of Christianity.

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Ronald Knox and English Catholicism. By Terry Tastard. Pp. xii, 215, Hereford, Gracewing, 2009, £12.99.

One of the leading lights of the Catholic Church in the twentieth century, Mgr Ronald Knox, died in 1957,

and almost immediately afterwards his authorized biography by Evelyn Waugh came out in 1959.

Waugh was not only a close friend of 'Ronnie' but another of those 'leading lights', an outstanding master (no less than his friend) of English prose. So it must have taken considerable daring on the part of Terry Tastard, a priest of the Westminster diocese, to challenge comparison with Waugh, as he implicitly does in this book. Yet I make bold to say he has triumphantly succeeded, not so much perhaps in the style of his prose as in his more balanced and nuanced view of his subject, now seen from a greater distance of time with the possibility of consulting other sources of information not immediately available to Waugh.

I would further add the timeliness of this book, appearing as it does when the memory of Knox seems to be on the decline, though many of his books, especially his sermons, are still in print. One reason for this decline, as implicitly pointed out by the author, is that Knox died well before Vatican II, when a new trend of theological thinking became dominant in the Church – a trend with which Knox himself and Waugh were not entirely in sympathy. The older trend may be illustrated by his own remark that, when he came into the Catholic Church, he was Manning's disciple rather than Newman's – which the author interprets to mean that 'he was strongly ultramontane and critical of any compromise with English culture' (p.191). Yet it is also true, as the author adds, that he subsequently regarded Newman as his hero rather than Manning. Indeed, I myself in a little book on *Christianity in England* (1972) have stated it as my considered opinion that Knox (rather than, say, GK Chesterton) deserves to be hailed as the one on whom Newman's cloak has fallen in the twentieth century. And now that Newman's cause has been advanced from that of beatification even to that of canonization, the time has come to see Knox in the light of succession.

In this context, if I may interject memories of my own, I myself attended not a few of the conferences given by Knox at the Newman Chaplaincy in the early fifties, when I was studying the Classics and English at Campion Hall. Both their content and his manner of delivery I found so fascinating. Like Newman, he never spoke impromptu but invariably relied on a script which he held before him, and yet everything he had written and now spoke to his undergraduate congregation was presented so naturally, as though speaking personally to each individual before him. On those occasions I was but one member of his congregation, and I only met him once, when he was brought into the nearby Campion Hall by the Master, Fr Thomas Corbishley. I happened to be in the library as they were passing through, and I was introduced to the great visitor, but we could hardly exchange more than a few formalities as I was perched on a ladder inspecting the uppermost shelves. Anyhow, since

coming to Japan, I have made good use of those conferences of his as subsequently published in book form under the title of *The Hidden Stream*, by making them the basis of my own catechetical instructions to Japanese students in the form of *An Introduction to Christianity* (published in both English, 1968, and Japanese, 1970). In general, both before and after my Oxford years I have been a great fan of Knox's writings, to such an extent that I humorously criticize him for having ruined my taste for other spiritual books, as his are so superior in both style and content. And that applies to the hymns I find in my daily breviary, in which anything translated by him stands out in words of genius from every other hymn.

A further point of parallelism between Knox and Newman that stands out in these pages is, of course, that of place, namely Oxford, in three stages. The first was when, from Eton Knox went up to Balliol College, with so many of his Eton friends, so many of whom were subsequently victims in the appalling carnage of World War I. The second was when, from Balliol he went as chaplain to Trinity College, to uphold the Anglo-Catholic cause with notable zeal, as it were in continuation of Newman's years in the Oxford Movement. But the climax came when, after his conversion to the Catholic Church, and after marking time as teacher at St Edmund's College, Ware, he returned to Oxford as chaplain to the Catholic students there about the time when the Master of Campion Hall was the impressive Fr Martin D'Arcy. Indeed, in my above-mentioned book, I count these two men as twin successors to the cloak of Newman in the twentieth century. Only Knox has the better claim, as being a convert from the Anglican Church, whereas D'Arcy was a born Catholic. As the author aptly observes of them together, 'With D'Arcy at Campion Hall and Knox at the chaplaincy, it was something of a Golden Age for Catholics at Oxford.' (p.120) Knox is also quoted as saying 'that he would always be cheered by a walk and conversation with D'Arcy.' (p.171) It was also probably thanks to D'Arcy that Knox made another important friendship in his life, with Evelyn Waugh, who had written his *Life of Edmund Campion* for D'Arcy, besides donating his royalties from the book to Campion Hall. I might add a final personal note that it was to D'Arcy, as provincial of the English Province SJ, that I first communicated my desire to go to Japan; and it was he who later introduced me to the publisher (Sidgwick & Jackson) of my first book published abroad, *Shakespeare's Religious Background*, with its unique chapter on 'The English Jesuits'.

In conclusion, to return to 'the hidden stream', no longer the title but the stream of the Isis as it flows underground past the chaplaincy, this is the metaphor chosen by Knox not just for his conferences but rather for their hidden theme, namely the Catholic faith for

which the university stood from the time of its foundation till it was forced underground by the Reformation. Thus Knox aligns himself in this as in all his writings and sermons as a Catholic with a long line of witnesses going back to Thomas More and John Fisher, who suffered martyrdom under Henry VIII in 1535, to Edmund Campion, who suffered martyrdom under Elizabeth I in 1581, and then to John Henry Newman, who bore witness from the time of his con-

version in 1845 without the shedding of his blood – all of them witnesses to the truth of Catholic Christendom. And to their open witness I would like to add the still hidden witness of William Shakespeare, though remaining hidden in this otherwise excellent biography of Ronald Knox.

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Hitler, Mussolini, and the Vatican: Pope Pius XI and the Speech that was Never Made. By Emma Fattorini. Pp. xvi, 260, Cambridge, Polity Press, 2011, £20.00.

This book was originally published in Italian in 2007, one of the first book-length accounts of the reign of Papa Ratti to exploit the recently opened archives of his pontificate. Hubert Wolf's *Pope and Devil*, with a picture on the dustjacket of Eugenio Pacelli in the company of Weimar soldiers – reminiscent of the cover of John Cornwell's *Hitler's Pope* – appeared in German in 2008 but was translated earlier than Fattorini's, betraying perhaps an interest in the career not so much of Achille Ratti as of his Cardinal Secretary of State, though Pacelli did not figure as large in Wolf's book as the dustcover suggested. He is much more evident in Fattorini's rather more satisfying volume, more satisfying because it is clearly a single narrative, whereas Wolf's, though excellent in itself, read as if it were a series of discrete articles around a common theme. Fattorini's volume, on the other hand, gives the impression of being, as Dr John Pollard has already remarked in a review in *The Tablet*, a prolegomenon to a full-scale biography of Pope Pius XI, one that is long overdue. The impression is heightened by an unusually thorough study of Ratti's spirituality, and especially of his devotion to Saint Thérèse of Lisieux.

The important question raised by the book is whether the opening of the archives has significantly altered our understanding of the pontificate of Pius XI. There is no doubt, I think, that this book throws a great deal of light on the character of the Pope, and also his distance from Pacelli, at least in his approach to the issues of the day, something to which Wolf's book has already drawn attention. It does, however, make at least one claim which is at variance with the generally accepted view. When Adolf Hitler visited Benito Mussolini in Rome the Pope was famously absent, retiring to Castelgandolfo and ordering that the Vatican museums be shut. What emerges in Fattorini's account is that the Pope was probably not averse to granting the Führer an audience, but an audience was not requested, a fact which seems to have upset the Curia, Pope Pius included.

Not that the Pope was in any way sympathetic to Hitler, much less so, for instance, than Pacelli, who

was influenced by the Rector of Santa Maria dell'Anima, the openly pro-Nazi Mgr Alois Hudal, (after the war Hudal was active in allowing prominent Nazis to escape overseas). Ratti was strongly opposed to the Munich agreement, for example, and when in January 1939 he received the British Premier and his Foreign Secretary he spoke to them of Saints John Fisher and Thomas More whom he had canonised in 1936, lending weight to the argument that the canonisation should be seen as a political act, a rebuke to both Mussolini and Hitler. The Pope was not opposed to totalitarianism as such: the Church, he declared, is a totalitarian regime. He was no democrat. He regarded democracy as pernicious, a legacy of the French Revolution, and destructive of authority. It was no accident that he beatified the 191 martyrs of the French Revolution which was unwelcome to the government of France, though they were somewhat mollified by the suppression of *Action Française* – which Pius XII proceeded to rehabilitate after his succession to the throne of Peter. Ratti's suspicions of *Action Française* arose not from its totalitarian aspirations but from its attempt to instrumentalise the Church.

For much of his pontificate there existed a conflict between those who saw Fascism as the greater enemy, and those who believed that the Church – and Europe – had more to fear from Communism. Pius published encyclicals which condemned both in turn. Against Communism he wrote *Divini Redemptoris* to which Fattorini devotes rather more time than she does to *Mit brennender Sorge*. It was inspired by the General of the Jesuits, Ledóchowski, a deeply anti-Semitic Austrian count of Polish ancestry. Though he had mixed in anti-Semitic circles while he was at the Warsaw nunciature, Ratti had one close Jewish friend, a rabbi whom he had got to know while at the Ambrosian Library, and to whom he gave several audiences during his pontificate. When Ledóchowski attempted to give *Divini Redemptoris* an anti-Semitic slant by alleging a Judeo-Masonic-Bolshevik plot, the Pope wrote on the draft 'Verify'. He commissioned, towards the end

of his life, an encyclical on anti-Semitism, which of course never saw the light of day until long after his death. It seems to have been effectively sabotaged by Ledóchowski, even though the Jesuit general committed some of the Society, in particular the American John Le Farge, to producing it. From various members of the Curia notes went to Mussolini assuring him that the intransigent opinions were Papa Ratti's, and his alone. The Catholic press failed to report the Pope's stand in defence of the Jews under Nazi persecution, and obituaries of Ratti, both in the Italian press and in *L'Osservatore Romano*, while they dwelt on his defence of Christianity, failed to

give prominence to the Pope's attack on the Nazis and on racism.

This is a fascinating account of a troubled pontificate. It is marred only by lapses in the translation. The English reads very well for the most part, and would seem to be an accurate rendering of the Italian, but I got the impression that the translator was not *au courant* with the idiom of Catholicism. Saint Thérèse, for instance, may be Saint Thérèse of the Child Jesus, perhaps even of the Infant Jesus, but never, surely, Saint Thérèse of the baby Jesus.

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Michael J Walsh

Were the Popes Against the Jews? Tracking the Myths and Confronting the Ideologues. By Justus George Lawler. Pp. xviii, 387, Grand Rapids MI/Cambridge, Eerdmans, 2012, \$35.00/£23.99.

This book ought to come with a health warning. To put it in the vernacular, it is likely to do your head in. First of all, the title. It is not about whether all popes were against the Jews, but whether some of them were, those from Pius IX to Pius XII. These are the pontiffs who figure in David I. Kertzer's 2001 publication, *The Popes Against the Jews*. Apparently this volume made waves when it first appeared, attracting much applause including, in the first instance, from Dr Lawler himself. But later he came to suspect that documents had been doctored, chronologies confused, claims unsubstantiated. He therefore decided to examine it in detail. And in what detail. Kertzer's text is mercilessly picked apart, every mistranslation gloated over. I began to feel sorry for the author, even while I believe that Lawler is correct, insofar as I can follow him.

That was not always easy. One of Dr Lawler's first criticisms of his adversary is to comment on the 'cock-sureness of his narration'. In the cocksureness stakes, Dr Lawler is himself no slouch. He tells us – twice, because, he avers, people tend not to read introductions – how well qualified he is to judge the quality of Kertzer's style, quite apart from his content. Lawler's own style is just as convoluted, highly literary, laced with unnecessary quotations, and occasionally scarcely comprehensible. I was, to take one example, baffled on p. 201 over the sentence about the restoration of the genuflection at the Good Friday prayers for the Jewish people. Maritain, he said, ardently endorsed something. But what? Was it the anti-Jewish custom of not genuflecting or the reversal thereof? Admittedly, had I kept my wits about me I might have recalled that a couple of pages earlier Maritain, who of course had a Jewish wife, was 'unfortunately all too representative' of the common opinion of Jews in Catholic circles, that is to say he was anti-Semitic. At least, I think that is what Lawler is saying. The book is replete with heavy-handed irony, and sometimes dis-

plays exactly those characteristics which he castigates in Kertzer. For instance, he tells us about 'a painting that [Pope] Benedict must love' while he criticizes Kertzer for reporting on the mental state of those he is discussing. Later on, to take another example, he records that Victor Klemperer's conversion was 'one of convenience'. I wondered how he knew, or did he simply, like Kertzer, surmise?

When thinking about this review I wondered if I dared write it. Lawler is not kind to his adversaries. The last few pages of chapter eight are positively splenetic and I do not fancy being the object of his ire. I wondered how other unfortunates apart from Kertzer (John Connelly, John Cornwell and the rest) felt about the buffeting they have received, some of it, I thought – though I'm no expert – verging on the actionable. I would have expected an editor to exercise rather more restraint. This is particularly true of the final couple of chapters where the text meanders all over the place, embracing Abraham Lincoln, Nelson Mandela, Jimmy Carter, Richard Neuhaus and sundry others, with much quotation from Newman and Lord Acton and, it has to be said, from himself: he revisits at length a review he wrote in 1965. He also has a go in a footnote at those who, he believes, breached his copyright in allowing the digitization of *Continuum*, a journal which he once edited.

Does this book, then, which has so much of the feel of a personal crusade, deserve a place on the library shelves of an academic institution? No one who reads it will, I think, henceforward accept unquestioningly that the recent Piuses were notably anti-Semitic. That is undoubtedly a benefit. On the other hand he does not account adequately for Pius XII's 'silences': it is not enough to assert, quite correctly of course, that if he had spoken out nothing would have changed. He wants to align Pius XI with his Secretary of State, the future Papa Pacelli, but in *Pope and Devil*, which he appears to have read, Hubert Wolf clearly indicates

that there was tension between them and that in the case of the 'hidden encyclical' Papa Ratti side-lined the Secretariat of State. And, just for the record, to say that 'in the fourth century the church's beliefs were embraced by the ruling class with the conversion of Constantine' (p. 305) displays that sloppiness with historical 'fact' that he castigates in Kertzer.

A good many years ago I read a review, I think of a book by Hans Küng, which closed with the words

'Within this stout volume there is a slim pamphlet struggling to get out'. In the case of *Were the Popes Against the Jews* I feel like saying that within this obese volume there are a couple of slim pamphlets struggling to get out.

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Es lebe das 'Geheime Deutschland'! Claus Schenk Graf von Stauffenberg. Person – Motivation – Rezeption. Beiträge des Sigmaringer Claus von Stauffenberg-Symposiums vom 11. Juli 2009. Edited by Jakobus Kaffanke OSB, Thomas Krause and Edwin Ernst Weber. Pp. ii, 217, LIT Verlag, Münster, 2011, €24.90.

On 20 July 1961, in commemoration of his attempt to kill Hitler on 20 July 1944, the town of Sigmaringen in Bavaria named the newly built barracks intended for the Tenth Armoured Division of the Bundeswehr after Claus Schenk Graf von Stauffenberg. The actual establishment of the barracks, and the various disarmament protests to which it gave rise, are discussed in this volume in the last two of the eleven papers originally delivered at a symposium on 11 July 2009, but the bulk of the book is on Stauffenberg's life and the motivation of the tragically unsuccessful conspiracy.

Claus Schenk von Stauffenberg, whose genealogy and biography are studied thoroughly by Doris Astrid Muth, was born in 1907 to a family that had long served the rulers of Württemberg, the Habsburgs, and the Bavarian monarchy. Although his mother and, later, his wife, were Protestants, he was brought up a Catholic and, as Fr Jakobus Kaffanke shows, he remained devoted to the Church of Rome until his death. He opted for a career in the German army. Yet he also had intellectual interests, and in 1923 was introduced by his elder brother Berthold to the poet Stefan George. George was delighted to add the two handsome aristocrats to his circle of followers. The Stauffenberg brothers fell under his spell and would become his most intimate friends.

George's influence, discussed here by Thomas Karlauf, was ambivalent. On the one hand it strengthened the belief, nurtured by the Stauffenbergs, in the conservative hierarchical state ruled by a strong leader, in the importance of the will and action, together with a contempt for the masses, freedom and democracy. On the other, however, George also encouraged a sense of duty, the need to do what is right. '*Es lebe das "Geheime Deutschland!"*' are supposed to have been Stauffenberg's last words before he was shot (another version is that they were '*Es lebe das heilige Deutschland!*'). The reference to 'secret Germany', also the title of one of George's poems, is to George's hero, the Hohenstaufen emperor Frederick II, crowned king of Jerusalem in

1229 and studied in this volume by Thomas Zotz, on whose tomb in Palermo the words had been carved, and whose biography was being written in those very years by one of George's most eminent followers, Ernst Kantorowicz. The mythical emperor, it was once believed, may never have died and might return to rule again and reform the world. Otherwise a form of reincarnation, a strong leader, might appear in his stead. 'Secret Germany' was understood to be a group of superior beings who incarnated the inner unity and secret potential of the German nation.

Stauffenberg, at all events, applauded the advent of Hitler as the long awaited leader. On August 1934, like all German soldiers, he took the oath to the Führer. A determined opponent of the political parties of the Weimar Republic, Stauffenberg dreamt of a Germany that was racially pure – the Jews, he maintained, should be ejected from German cultural life and foreign Jews extradited – and united behind a leader who would bring about the nation's renewal. He was shocked by the pogrom of 9 November 1938, but more because of the damage he thought it would do Germany's reputation than out of any sympathy for the victims. Having risen steadily in the military hierarchy, he fully supported Hitler's invasion of Poland, in which he took part, and approved with enthusiasm of the occupation of Holland, Belgium and France. An inveterate enemy of Bolshevism, Stauffenberg was also in favour of the invasion of Russia. Yet, as Wolfram Wette and Gerd Ueberschär show, it was the Russian campaign that would disillusion him. In the spring of 1942 he started to criticise Hitler outspokenly, making it clear to his fellow-officers that he should be done away with. An interesting feature of the German army is that Stauffenberg, as an officer, was never denounced, whereas, had he been a soldier in the ranks, he would have been denounced, court-martialled and executed out of hand. His main objections were to the management of the Russian campaign – the unnecessary butchering of civilians, the equally unnecessary loss of German lives, and, in the end, the real danger of

Germany's losing the war and being overrun by the Bolsheviks.

Stauffenberg would seem to have had various motives for trying to murder Hitler. The main one, however, was probably a deep sense of duty and the need to free his country of a man who was leading it to ruin. Had he succeeded he would hardly have had the Führer replaced by a democratic system, and that was one of the reasons why the Allies, with whom he was in touch, had little time for his plot.

In an interesting article Winfried Heinemann reminds us that, even if Stauffenberg is a hero to us now, it took some time for him to be regarded as such in Germany. Immediately after the War there was still a widespread feeling that he, his fellow conspirators,

and the other members of the German resistance, were traitors. This started to change in 1952 when Otto Ernst Remer, the founder of the *Sozialistische Reichspartei* which was intended as the successor of the National Socialist Party, was tried and sentenced to three months in prison for denigrating the resistance in public. Thereafter the German resistance in its various forms was gradually acknowledged for what it was. The symposium in Sigmaringen and the fascinating papers in this book are one of the best indications of how times have changed yet again. Idealisation has now given way to objectivity.

The Warburg Institute, London Alastair Hamilton

Our Life Together: A Memoir in Letters. By Jean Vanier. Pp. xviii, 568, London, Darton, Longman and Todd, 2008, £19.95.

Essential Writings: Jean Vanier. Selected with an Introduction by Carolyn Whitney-Brown. Pp 176, London, Darton, Longman and Todd, 2008, £10.95.

Two new books both from Darton, Longman and Todd herald the eightieth birthday this year of Jean Vanier, the founder of L'Arche and co-founder of Faith and Light, communities with and for people with developmental disabilities.

Our Life Together, published in May, a handsome volume, with a number of black and white photographs, presents no less than forty years of Jean's letters to friends and communities throughout the world. These map out the history of both L'Arche and Faith and Light. They also show Jean's own development, with insights into his faith journey, quest for peace and ecumenical and, later, interfaith dialogue. The author introduces the book as a whole, each of its five sections and ends with a conclusion.

The introduction, 'A Seed is Sown', reflects on Jean's living out the gospel message when he left the Navy in 1950, in his buying 'a small, rather dilapidated house' that saw the start of the now world-wide community of L'Arche. Commenting on the intervention of the Holy Spirit, he writes, 'It guided us as we rooted ourselves in the radical message of love, and the universality of this message became manifest in the expansion of our communities' (p. 7).

Part One, 'A Good Earth', considers the first half dozen years at Trosly and the realisation that the disabled are people 'loved by God and created for love.' Part Two, 'Roots of Community', examines the first four years of the community as it sowed its seeds in Canada, India and the United States. Jean, in sharing the Christian life with those who are suffering recognized the fact that he was being called and enabled to share it with people everywhere and in his next section describes through his letters the two

communities 'blossoming in countries stricken with poverty and pain.' The fourth part, the years 1989–2001, headed 'A time of transformation', sees new ways of belonging as the communities moved into Eastern Europe and the Middle East. The final part, which brings us up to 2007, sees the post 9/11 need for Western/Muslim interface, understanding and mutual respect. In his conclusion, Jean typically apologises for these letters and insists that they are not the full story of L'Arche (which was written by Kathryn Spink in *Jean Vanier and L'Arche: A Communion of Love*). He looks to the future as we respond to the continuing challenge of building places of belonging 'founded on our need for one another.' He ends by quoting the poet Tagore who writes that 'Death is not a lamp that is extinguished; it is the coming of dawn.' At eighty, Jean Vanier, writing about himself, says, 'At my age, I have to accept my gifts but I have also a lot to learn about growing downwards, living with anguish without running away from it, acknowledging that today I'm tired and weak and I can't solve the problems of others. I am called to enter into new types of relationships and into deeper communion of love with Jesus and with all my brothers and sisters' (p. 552).

Essential Writings, published in October, is selected and introduced by Carolyn Whitney-Brown who lived at L'Arche Daybreak community in Canada from 1990 to 1997. She co-ordinated national projects for the Canadian Council of Churches, the Evangelical Fellowship of Canada, and the United Church of Canada before moving with her family to Vancouver island.

Carolyn starts with an extensive introduction that takes up about a third of the book, looking at Jean's

life, both before and during the L'Arche and Faith and Light years, and his writings. The rest of the book is about transformation and is in four sections:

1. Change the World; transformation of society, of our global community
2. With love: transformation through relationships, through community
3. One heart at a time: transformation of the human person, of our hearts
4. The Christian Life, based on Jean's writings about prayer, retreat and his own spiritual life.

A brief epilogue offers a summary of Jean's vision, in which the transformation of the heart inevitably brings us back into the world as it is. But on the journey, transformation has also gradually brought us to a place, as Henri Nouwen has said, '[which is]

inside yourself that few people have reached' and we are never the same again.

The writings are taken from Jean's books, letters and talks, and the selection is a worthy celebration of Jean Vanier's life so far.

In his book *An Ark for the Poor* that dates back to the nineties, Jean writes, 'We have discovered how important it is to celebrate birthdays in L'Arche, to help people recognize and re-read their personal histories . . . Birthday celebrations provide a chance to emphasize certain stages in their lives, highlight their gifts, laugh about their faults or failures, and celebrate each one's unique gifts.' Happy birthday and many happy returns, Jean!

Monastère de la Sainte-Présence, Luke Penkett
Brittany, and St Hilda's Hermitage,
Guernsey

The Economic Imperative: Leisure and Imagination in the 21st Century. By John Zerilli. Pp. x, 115, Exeter/Charlottesville, VA, Societas, 2012, \$9.99.

This brilliant little book would be worth reading for its pungent epigrams alone. '(P)oliticians are just ordinary administrators with a flair for deceit' (ix). '(I)f one says nothing, one cannot be faulted for having said anything' (91 – that one sounds like a parody of Wittgenstein). Zerilli finds 'an essentially religious quality in the sputterings of Richard Dawkins and his ilk', and attributes to them an 'epistemology . . . approximately three-and-a-half centuries late' (94). That's fun, but less than fair; and Dawkins's opponents must treat him with a measure of the respect which I am convinced that he deserves, if we are to deal at all adequately with the most pressing ideological issue of our time.

'To be anti-capitalistic means simply that you would prefer regaining a measure of humanity at the cost of some efficiency' (19). The author maintains that if our ideal is, as it ought to be, freedom in community, and if we follow this through, it will demand a rather drastic transformation of the institution of wage labour as we find it in most industrial societies (30). A significant improvement would be a one-person-one-vote organization of the workplace, with management subject to election, censure or even dismissal by a sufficient consensus of workers. Firms run along these lines have apparently turned out to be quite successful commercially. (Such reforms, of course, would be superfluous in the case of the efficient, far-sighted and benevolent administrative hierarchies which universally hold sway in academic institutions.) Many prominent writers and thinkers of the nineteenth century 'understood clearly that so long as people lack control over their own work, and are prey to the private interests of others whose

primary motive in employing them is to derive profit, their own lives are in proportion instrumental and thus to varying degrees incomplete' (27).

I am sure the author is right to emphasize the importance of leisure, and incidentally to question the strong tendency people have to identify themselves by their professional roles ('Who are you?' 'Oh, I'm the local haberdasher.') As he says, it is what we do with our leisure which is a much more significant index of who and what we truly are. But are we really in peril of losing leisure in the circumstances of modern living? I am more inclined to believe those prophets of doom who warn us that we are rather in danger of having more leisure than we know what to do with, since anything approaching full-time employment for all will soon be recognized by everyone for what it already is, a thing of the past. And are not many likely to be driven into such destructive desperation as to tear the social fabric apart, when they no longer have professional occupations, or even the reasonable prospect of such, to give them a feeling of self-worth, or to make them value a social order which has no place for them? Someone might see signs of this in recent urban riots in Britain and elsewhere.

The author concludes his work with some general comments on the relations of art, science and religion; the reader who, quite understandably, expects vapid generalities at this point will be pleasantly disappointed. Zerilli emphasizes, in Kantian fashion, the necessary limitations to our knowledge which ensue at once from the bounds of our experience and our cognitive capacities. To contrast the 'objectivity' of scientific knowledge with the 'subjectivity' of morality, as he says, is commonplace among intellectuals;

but he praises those recent philosophers who have contended, with good reason, that the one is really as 'subjective' as the other. The vast extent of the unknown, as he sees it, makes the author commend religion as essentially orientating us to it; but he thinks the religions should mitigate their preoccupation with self-denial in favour of recognition of the positive importance of our enjoyment harmless pleasures.

The author rounds off his work with a graceful use of the typically postmodernist device of an ending

which is not an ending; St. Paul, who does not always get a very good press these days, is commended for perhaps being 'correct, and even ahead of his time', in insisting that God has chosen the foolish to confound the wise, and the weak to confound the mighty. '(T)hose with the keenest sense of the Unknown should be those with the least sense of what they *do* know, chiefly the ignorant, the uneducated, the unpolished in tastes and manners' (110).

Calgary

Hugo Meynell